AN INDEPENDENT STUDY COMPANION

World History Dossier

Study Notes on Twentieth-Century International History

A complete digital dossier of 33 chapters on twentieth-century international history, designed for comfortable reading, revision, and sharing.

Prepared by **Mohammed Husain Ujjainwala**
TR 25368 · Hadi Ashar 1448H

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CHAPTER 00 · INTRODUCTION

Introduction: Twentieth-Century International History - The Changing Face of Empire

Study notes: A Twentieth-Century International History

GORDON MARTEL

CENTRAL THESIS

The international history of the twentieth century is fundamentally a history of **imperial struggle**. Rather than a simple progression of nation-states, the era is best understood as a continuous contest in which Great Powers—usually calling themselves nations—sought to impose their specific versions of modernity and progress upon the world. While the rhetoric of empire shifted from the “empires of property” in the 1900s to the “empires of race, class, and markets” later in the century, the underlying dynamics of power assertion remained constant.

TIMELINE

- **1900**
- **1914**
- **1918**
- **1939**
- **1955**
- **1989**
- **2001**

I The Age of Imperial Vitality (1900–1914)

Empire was treated as the measure of national vitality.

At the dawn of the twentieth century, the world was not a collection of independent nations, but a playground for the **"Great and would-be Great."** In 1900, to be a Great Power was, by definition, to be an empire. This was an era governed by a stark binary: **growth or decay; expansion or impotence; empire or servitude.**

The Imperial Mindset: Leaders believed the age of small states was over—a "primeval" remnant of the past. Territorial expansion was viewed as a biological necessity, as "inescapable... a sign of vitality in a nation as the corresponding processes in the growing human body."

The Geopolitical "Heartland": The pseudo-science of **geopolitics** emerged, suggesting the future belonged to the massive landmasses of Russia and the United States. Older powers, like Britain, sought to overcome geographic limitations through sea power and colonial resources.

The German Dilemma: Germany, fearing its status as the "anvil" rather than the "hammer" of world politics, sought a "place in the sun" through a mix of naval power, coaling stations, and a *Drang nach Osten* (drive to the east) via a Berlin-to-Baghdad railway.

IMPERIAL AMBITIONS AT THE OPENING OF THE CENTURY

Power	Imperial Ambition
Germany	Transform from a European power to a "World Power."
Japan	Establish itself as the premier power in Asia.

DEFINITION

Geopolitics

A theory linking large landmasses, geographic resources and future global power. In the chapter it is described as a **pseudo-science**.

MEMORY ANCHOR

The imperial equation

Growth | Vitality | Empire

For Great Powers in 1900, expansion was treated as evidence of national strength.

IMPERIAL AMBITIONS AT THE OPENING OF THE CENTURY (CONTINUED)

Power	Imperial Ambition
Austria-Hungary	Maintain a multicultural system to remain relevant.
Italy	Revive a “Roman Empire” in North Africa and the Mediterranean.
United States	Realize a “Manifest Destiny” extending from sea to sea.

II The Crucible of the First World War

Imperial security and expansion collided in southeastern Europe.

History often simplifies the First World War as a failure of alliances or “mounting tensions.” In this chapter’s interpretation, the war was fought to maintain or expand imperial integrity. The spark was not just an assassination, but a clash between the Habsburgs’ need to crush a Slavic threat and the Romanovs’ need to protect an imperial satellite.

Habsburg fear of a Slavic threat → Romanov protection of a Serbian satellite → Imperial collision in the Balkans

Misconceptions of Imperialism: Many associate “imperialism” only with overseas colonies in Africa or Asia. However, the First World War demonstrated that the primary “Great Game” was played in Europe first.

THE AMBITIONS OF THE “LESS-THAN-GREAT”

Serbia: Aimed to create a “Greater Serbia,” an empire subsuming Croatians, Bosnians, and Montenegrins.

Turkey: The “Young Turks” sought a secularized **Pan-Turanianism**, an empire stretching from the Balkans to China, recovering lost territories in Russian Azerbaijan and Persia.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Not only overseas colonies

Misreading: Imperialism was chiefly a competition for African or Asian colonies.

Correction: Rival imperial claims in Europe, especially the Balkans, helped produce war in 1914.

DEFINITION

Pan-Turanianism

The Young Turks’ proposed transregional imperial vision, extending from the Balkans towards China.

Japan: Joined the Entente specifically to seize German territories in the Far East.

The Reality of 1914: The account presents the actors' pursuit of empire as a struggle over national survival and status. The war proved that empire was a source of strength; while the Central Powers were starved of resources, the British Empire utilized the "bounty of the world" in men, metals, and food.

III The Radicalization of the Interwar Period

Race, class and markets offered new justifications for power.

After 1918, the "older" empires of Britain and France emerged as the victors, but they were hollowed out by the "tragedy of the trenches." While they shifted toward a policy of "policing" and gradual retreat, new, more aggressive imperialisms were being forged in the fires of dissatisfaction.

1. THE "EMPIRES OF RACE" (GERMANY AND JAPAN)

Rejecting the liberal "mercantile" model, Germany and Japan adopted a racist ethos. They claimed the right to command "lesser beings" (*Untermenschen*) by virtue of inherent superiority.

Germany: Transitioned from religious to "blood-based" identity.

Japan: Rejected European science to find superiority in the "divine descent" of their sovereign and the "Yamato soul."

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Two ideological claims to empire

Race
Germany and Japan asserted racial superiority.

Class
The Soviet model claimed revolutionary legitimacy.

2. THE “EMPIRE OF CLASS” (USSR)

Lenin and the Bolsheviks framed imperialism as “the highest stage of capitalism.” To counter Western “capitalist coalescence,” they created a new socialist federation. However, the Kremlin imposed a centralized authority that would have been the envy of any Tsarist administrator.

3. THE “IMPERIAL PRESIDENT” (USA)

The chapter interprets Woodrow Wilson’s **self-determination** as an imperial tool: dismantling European empires could open their markets to the United States. Wilson maintained the **Monroe Doctrine**, effectively keeping the Americas as a private imperial sphere.

Ⓘⅴ The Bipolar Masquerade (Cold War Era)

The language of imperialism changed, but its strategic competition continued.

The Second World War eradicated the empires of race, but imperialism itself survived. It merely changed its “face” to avoid the stigma of the word. In the Cold War, imperialism became “the policy that dare not speak its name”—a grenade thrown at the enemy while one’s own expansions were labeled “aid” or “security.”

The “Four Policemen” Vision: Franklin Roosevelt originally envisioned a world partitioned into four great spheres of influence (US, USSR, Britain, China). The account presents this as an exceptionally extensive imperial division scheme, frustrated by the Chinese Revolution and mutual suspicion.

The Rhetorical Shift: Both superpowers denied their imperial credentials. The **USSR** described itself as “Saving socialism from capitalist imperialism”; the **USA** framed its role as “Defending democracy from the Evil Empire.”

EXAM INSIGHT

Read Cold War rhetoric critically

Distinguish what each superpower *called* its policies—security, aid or ideological defence—from the chapter’s argument about continued imperial competition.

The Invention of the "Third World": At the **Bandung Conference (1955)**, leaders like Sukarno, Nasser, and Nkrumah attempted to forge a path outside the two orbits. Paradoxically, these leaders often used anti-colonial rhetoric to establish their own police states or "Pan-Arab/Pan-African" imperial designs.

Ⓥ The Modern Metamorphosis: From Property to Profit

Empire moved from direct control of territory toward commercial influence.

As the twentieth century closed, the "Empires of Property"—the actual occupation of land—became unsustainable. They were replaced by a more efficient model: the empire of "profit and play."

The Head Office Model: Former colonial powers realized they didn't need to police "the natives" to extract wealth. Metals and oil would still flow to Europe.

The "End of History" Illusion: The fall of the Berlin Wall led to "American triumphalism"—the belief that the liberal, free-market model was the only remaining system. This was shattered on September 11, 2001.

The Return of Ideology: The "War on Terror" and the rise of "Islamic Fundamentalism" demonstrated that the future remains contested terrain.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

From direct rule to leverage

Territory → Resources → Markets

Economic power could persist even after direct colonial administration ended.

§ Summary of Twentieth-Century Imperial Evolutions

Four faces of empire, one persistent dynamic.

FACES OF EMPIRE ACROSS THE TWENTIETH CENTURY

Era	Primary Face of Empire	Central Motivation
Pre-1914	**Empires of Territory**	National vitality and “Growth vs. Decay.”
Interwar	**Empires of Race & Class**	Ideological/Racial destiny and total control.
Cold War	**Bipolar Spheres**	Strategic dominance disguised as “Security/Aid.”
Post-Cold War	**Empires of Profit & Play**	Market dominance and resource extraction.

KEY FINDINGS

1. Continuity of Dynamics: Despite changing names (Colonialism, Mandates, Spheres of Influence, New World Order), the underlying pursuit of power remains constant.

2. Empire as Modernity: Empires were the vehicles through which states attempted to impose their version of “progress” on the global stage.

3. The Fragility of Peace: International conflicts (1914, 1939, Cold War, War on Terror) are almost always rooted in the collision of these competing imperial visions.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Four changing faces

1. Territory
2. Race & class
3. Bipolar spheres
4. Profit & play

> *“The rhetoric of empire has changed while the underlying dynamics of the imperial process has remained the same.”*
>
> GORDON MARTEL

CHAPTER 01

Imperialism

Imperial Power and Decolonization — How Empire Was Built, Challenged and Remade

JOHN MACKENZIE

CENTRAL THESIS

The twentieth century began with European and American **imperial power** at its height, yet ended with most formal colonies independent. Different forms of control, Britain’s growing strategic pressures, two world wars and anticolonial movements explain this shift. But independence did not erase the borders, migrations or economic inequalities created under empire.

TIMELINE

- **1898**
- **1902**
- **1914**
- **1919**
- **1926**
- **1931**
- **1947**
- **1957**
- **1960**
- **1990**
- **1994**
- **1997**

At the beginning of the twentieth century, European states and the United States were at the height of their **imperial power**. By the century's end, most colonies had gained **formal independence**. John MacKenzie's central question is how an international order dominated by empires became one made mainly of nation-states—and why the influence and inequalities of empire did not disappear with colonial rule.

I Empires at Their Peak: Different Ways to Rule

By 1900, imperial expansion had divided much of the world, but the forms of control varied.

By **1900**, the late-nineteenth-century **partition of Africa** and competition for Pacific islands had brought extensive territories under European control. The United States was also an imperial power: after defeating Spain in **1898**, it acquired the Philippines and territories in the Caribbean. Russia extended its authority through Central Asia and the trans-Siberian railway; Japan took Taiwan in **1895** and later annexed Korea in **1910**. Expansion was a rivalry among several powers.

FORMAL EMPIRE, INFORMAL EMPIRE AND PROTECTORATE

These terms explain why imperial control did not always appear as direct foreign government.

MODES OF IMPERIAL CONTROL

Form	What the term means	Example or characteristic
Formal empire	The imperial state directly governs territory and builds institutions to serve trade and control.	British Crown colonies; French Indochina.
Informal empire	A country retains local rulers but another power strongly influences its trade, finance or policy.	British economic power in Argentina; influence around the Gulf.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Formal, informal, protectorate

Formal	Direct foreign administration
Informal	Economic pressure without direct rule
Protectorate	Local rulers under external oversight

DEFINITION

Chartered company

A trading company allowed to govern territory or perform state functions, as in the British South Africa Company.

MEMORY ANCHOR

A map needs three questions

Who controlled it? How directly? **Who governed locally?** What economic interests shaped the arrangement?

MODES OF IMPERIAL CONTROL (CONTINUED)

Form	What the term means	Example or characteristic
Protectorate	Traditional rulers remain visible while an outside state supervises important decisions, especially external relations.	British oversight through the Foreign Office; Egypt formally declared a protectorate in 1914.
Self-governing dominion	A predominantly settler colony controls much of its domestic government while retaining imperial connections.	Canada, Australia, New Zealand.
Chartered company rule	A commercial company exercises powers of administration or territorial control.	British South Africa Company in the Rhodesias until 1923.

The map reflected these differences. In **India**, Britain ruled many districts directly but supervised **princely states** through British residents; it also watched buffer states such as Bhutan and Nepal because of Russian and Chinese influence. Across Southeast Asia, the French held Indochina and the Dutch ruled the East Indies, while Britain controlled Burma, Malaya and Singapore. Around the Atlantic, the United States promoted influence through the **Monroe Doctrine**, even where British finance and trade remained powerful. Formal possession did not always equal practical influence.

Imperial rivalries made this division unstable. At **Fashoda in 1898**, British and **French** forces faced one another on the Upper Nile. Italy had already suffered defeat at **Adowa in 1896** against Ethiopia, one of the few African states outside European rule. Empires also depended on local rulers, commercial collaborators and educated elites. Education helped these elites work within empire, but also prepared some to lead **nationalist movements** against imperial rule. Empire helped produce its own challengers.

Imperial expansion reshaped populations as well as borders. European settlers moved into overseas territories; the slave trade had displaced Africans; indentured labor moved many Indians to the Caribbean, Africa and Indian Ocean; and Chinese migration created networks around the Pacific and beyond. Migration met labor demands but provoked racist exclusion and tension. **Migration and inherited boundaries** became lasting legacies of imperial rule.

II The “Weary Titan”: Why British Supremacy Became Fragile

The largest empire could win wars and still discover that it could no longer defend every commitment.

The British Empire was vast, but rivals were catching up. The United States and Germany overtook Britain in steel production, while British planners doubted whether the Royal Navy could maintain its **two-power standard**. Irish nationalism and labor unrest added strain. Colonial Secretary **Joseph Chamberlain** called Britain a **“weary Titan”**: powerful, but burdened by responsibilities that were becoming harder to sustain.

THE ANGLO-BOER WAR (1899–1902): VICTORY WITHOUT SECURE AUTHORITY

The war exposed how costly it could be to impose imperial control even on small states.

Britain fought the Boer (Afrikaner) republics of the **Transvaal** and **Orange Free State** in southern Africa. The aims included control over Transvaal gold, the position of European settlers there and the security of the Cape and Natal routes connecting Britain with India and Australasia. Boer **guerrilla warfare** prolonged resistance after the main towns were captured. Britain won in **1902**, but many Afrikaners remained hostile, and Africans suffered dispossession and political exclusion. These conditions helped prepare the ground for **apartheid**: military victory had not secured an equal or stable society.

FROM SPLENDID ISOLATION TO ALLIANCES

Britain adjusted its diplomacy because naval power could no longer guarantee security everywhere.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Victory did not settle the Boer War’s costs

Britain won militarily in 1902; Afrikaner resentment and African dispossession made lasting stability a different question.

MEMORY ANCHOR

How splendid isolation ended

- **1902** Alliance with Japan
- **1904** Entente with France
- **1906** First *Dreadnought*
- **1907** Agreement with Russia

Britain had favored **splendid isolation**. But it could not comfortably defend distant interests in East Asia while Germany expanded its navy in Europe. Britain signed the **Anglo-Japanese Alliance (1902)** to strengthen its position in the Far East. Under Admiral **Jack Fisher**, it also concentrated naval defense closer to Europe and introduced the battleship *Dreadnought* in **1906**. Both answered imperial overstretch.

Britain also reached the **Entente Cordiale with France (1904)** and an agreement with Russia in **1907**. Russian expansion had previously alarmed Britain in Persia, Afghanistan and near India in a rivalry known as the **Great Game**; Japanese victories over Russia in **1904–05** altered the balance in Asia. By easing older disputes and cooperating with former rivals, Britain could concentrate more attention on Germany. **Those agreements marked the end of splendid isolation:** Britain increasingly sought safety through partnerships instead of relying on independent imperial reach alone.

Imperial predominance also depended on **steamships, railways, submarine telegraph cables and modern weapons**. Ships and railways moved goods and troops; telegraph cables carried orders; modern weapons enforced control. Colonized peoples increasingly used such technologies themselves. Brutally suppressed revolts, including the **Maji Maji** and **Herero** uprisings against Germany, and the strengthening of nationalism in India and Africa showed that technology did not remove resistance. Britain’s strategic retreat and these local challenges both exposed the limits of imperial supremacy.

III World War, Interwar Strength and Imperial Weakness

The first war redistributed colonies; the second weakened the ability to keep them.

MacKenzie stresses that the **First World War** had mainly European causes, but major imperial consequences. Its imperial consequences were unmistakable. Germany lost its African and Pacific colonies, and Ottoman defeat opened Arab provinces to new control. Under the **League of Nations mandate system**, victorious states administered former German and Ottoman possessions while claiming to act under international supervision. Britain received responsibilities in Tanganyika, Palestine, Transjordan and Iraq; France gained Syria and Lebanon. South Africa, Australia and New Zealand also acquired mandates. In consequence, the largest empires could actually **expand after 1918**, even as anticolonial demands were growing.

THE INTERWAR PARADOX: EMPIRES LOOKED STRONGER WHILE PRESSURES MOUNTED

A larger, more organized empire could still be politically and economically insecure.

During the 1920s and 1930s, European governments improved colonial administration and promoted imperial loyalty through exhibitions, publicity and economic policy. Britain's **Empire Marketing Board (1926)** encouraged imperial products; the **Ottawa agreements (1932)** introduced **imperial preference**. At the same time, Britain's predominantly settler **dominions** gained further autonomy under the **Balfour Declaration of 1926** and **Statute of Westminster of 1931**. Egypt and Iraq illustrate another route: formal control could be loosened while Britain continued to influence defense, diplomacy or trade. Imperial rule was being preserved through adaptation.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Interwar imperial paradox

Better administration, trade preferences and propaganda projected strength while depression and nationalist demands weakened colonial rule.

EXAM INSIGHT

What did each war change?

1914–18: colonial possessions were largely redistributed.
1939–45: colonial prestige and resources were undermined, particularly in Asia.

The **Great Depression after 1929** reduced wages and living standards across many colonies, contributing to labor unrest and nationalist mobilization. Expansionist powers also challenged the international order: Japan occupied **Manchuria in 1931**, and Mussolini's Italy invaded **Ethiopia in 1935–36**. The League of Nations could not prevent either aggression. Thus the interwar "golden age" of imperial administration concealed mounting pressures.

WHY THE SECOND WORLD WAR CHANGED THE BALANCE

Europe's wartime weakness became visible to people under colonial rule.

In **1941–42**, Japan overran European possessions across East and Southeast Asia, demonstrating that European armies were not invincible. The French Empire itself split between Vichy and Free French forces, while North Africa became a major battleground. Japanese occupation helped stimulate armed and often communist-led resistance in places including Indochina, Malaya and Indonesia. After Japan's defeat, weakened European states tried to return; the **United States** increasingly questioned colonial restoration partly because instability might strengthen communist movements. Unlike the First World War, the Second World War made a broad return to secure formal empire far less realistic.

The distinction between the wars completes the chapter's central turning point. **1914–18** transferred colonies and enlarged the holdings of some victorious empires; **1939–45** exposed the weakness of colonial authority, strengthened resistance and burdened imperial governments financially. **War did not itself grant independence; it weakened the means of denying it.**

IV Decolonization: Different Regions, Different Paths

Nationalist action, wartime costs and local conditions determined how—and how violently—colonial rule ended.

After 1945, **decolonization** did not unfold in the same way across the European empires. Britain and France still proposed investment and development schemes, and some former mandates became **United Nations trust territories**. Yet nationalist movements demanded more than gradual improvement within colonial rule. War debts and security costs made colonial government harder to maintain. Local politics and settlers made the paths diverge.

INDIA: LIMITED CONSTITUTIONAL REFORM BECOMES PARTITION

British concessions could not satisfy growing demands for complete political independence.

In India, the **Government of India Act (1935)** expanded provincial self-government while Britain retained central control over defense and foreign affairs. MacKenzie describes these divided responsibilities as **dyarchy**. During the Second World War, India was committed to war without consulting nationalist leaders; the **Quit India movement** and imprisonment of Congress politicians deepened the rupture. The **Indian National Congress** had been founded on a nonsectarian basis, but the **Muslim League**, led by **Muhammad Ali Jinnah**, increasingly demanded a separate Muslim state. No united constitutional outcome remained.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Human cost of Partition

17.5 million

people moving across the new borders in MacKenzie's estimates

He also reports **over one million deaths**. Such counts are estimates, not exact totals.

MEMORY ANCHOR

One empire, several exits

India	Partition, 1947
Indonesia	War and independence, 1949
Ghana	Constitutional advance, 1957
Algeria	Violent settler conflict, 1962

Britain’s postwar financial weakness pushed **Clement Attlee’s** government toward rapid withdrawal. Under **Lord Mountbatten**, the subcontinent was divided into **India and Pakistan in 1947**. MacKenzie estimates that roughly **ten million Hindus** and **seven and a half million Muslims** moved across the new borders, with **over one million people killed** in communal violence. These are MacKenzie’s estimates, not exact totals. Pakistan’s eastern and western wings also proved difficult to hold together; **East Pakistan became Bangladesh in 1971**. Thus independence ended British direct rule but **Partition created its own enduring political and human consequences**.

SOUTHEAST ASIA AND THE MIDDLE EAST: AUTHORITY COULD NOT SIMPLY BE RESTORED

Military resistance and competing political communities complicated withdrawal.

In **Indonesia**, Dutch authority could not be restored after Japanese occupation; **Sukarno** led the struggle that brought independence in **1949**. In Indochina, French attempts to regain control ended in defeat at **Dien Bien Phu (1954)**; partition and later United States intervention extended the conflict. Britain defeated a communist insurgency in **Malaya**, which became independent in **1957**; Singapore later separated from Malaysia in **1965**. In **Palestine**, British withdrawal amid Jewish–Arab conflict preceded the creation of Israel in **1948** and war. These cases show that the end of European rule could lead to new states, partition or continuing warfare—not one uniform process.

AFRICA: RAPID CONSTITUTIONAL EXITS AND PROTRACTED SETTLER CONFLICTS

The strength of settler communities and the colonial state shaped the pace of decolonization.

Ghana gained independence in **1957**, followed by many other British territories in West Africa. In East Africa, the **Mau Mau uprising** in Kenya and the growing costs of policing empire strengthened Britain's decision to withdraw. France released much of West and Equatorial Africa in **1960**, but **Algeria**, with a large French settler population (*pieds-noirs*), required a much more violent struggle before independence in **1962**. Belgium also left the **Congo in 1960**, amid severe instability. These experiences followed no single African timetable.

Settler power delayed the final retreat farther south. The **Central African Federation** created in **1953** failed as African nationalists opposed continued white dominance; Northern Rhodesia and Nyasaland became Zambia and Malawi. White-minority rule persisted in **Southern Rhodesia** until it became **Zimbabwe in 1980**. The overthrow of Portugal's dictatorship in **1974** accelerated independence for its African colonies in **1975**. **Namibia** became independent in **1990**; **Nelson Mandela** was released that year, and South Africa's first democratic national elections in **1994** brought an end to apartheid government. Africa's decolonization was therefore both a quick constitutional transformation in some places and a decades-long struggle against settler rule in others.

Ⓥ After Empire: New States and Old Inequalities

Formal colonial rule declined, but the global distribution of power did not become equal.

By the end of the century, the international system centered on **independent nation-states**, reflected in the enlarged membership of the **United Nations**. The breakup of Soviet control in Eastern Europe from **1989** and the dissolution of the Soviet Union in **1991** extended this process beyond the old overseas European empires. In **1997**, Britain transferred Hong Kong to China at the expiry of the New Territories lease. MacKenzie provocatively interprets this as a transfer of power between empires rather than the creation of a new independent state. These were different endings under the broad label *decolonization*.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Last transitions

- **1989–91** Soviet bloc and union break apart
- **1990** Namibia independent; Mandela released
- **1994** South African democratic transition
- **1997** Hong Kong handover

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Independence ≠ equality

Formal colonial government largely ended, but unequal economic relationships, inherited borders and population movements continued.

CONTINUITY AND CHANGE: AROUND 1900 AND AROUND 2000

Dimension	Imperial order around 1900	Post-imperial order by 2000
Political authority	European and other empires directly or indirectly rule many territories.	Most territories possess their own governments and membership in international bodies.
Economic influence	Imperial states and trading networks set unequal terms.	Markets and institutions such as the IMF and World Bank influence states without governing them as colonies.
Population	Settler, enslaved, indentured and commercial migration reshapes societies.	Migration continues; divisions and diasporas inherited from empire remain.
Sources of conflict	Territorial conquest, strategic rivalry, revolt.	Inherited borders, unequal resources and regional or ethnic tensions alongside new rivalries.

The legacies were not only political. Colonial boundaries and population movements helped shape conflicts in the Middle East, Kashmir, Sri Lanka and elsewhere. Migrants from former colonies later moved to European states, where their labor could be valued while racist exclusion persisted. MacKenzie points to growing Asian economies and institutions such as the **World Bank** and **International Monetary Fund**, arguing that some influence formerly exercised by imperial powers now operated through economic relationships. They do not govern colonies; the issue is that **political sovereignty and economic power can differ**.

The chapter thus returns to its opening contrast. Imperial governments lost most of their colonies, while a **westernized nationalist bourgeoisie** came to govern many independent states. Yet older systems had left borders, patterns of migration, trading ties and inequalities that were harder to undo. **Formal empire largely ended; the unequal structures and disputes shaped by imperialism did not.** That is both the achievement and the limit of twentieth-century decolonization.

§ Revision: What Ended—and What Endured

Test the difference between independence on paper and continuing influence in practice.

For revision, follow one connected chain: **imperial expansion → competing forms of rule → British overstretch → world wars → nationalist decolonization → independent states with enduring imperial legacies**. Explain how each stage changes the conditions for the next rather than memorizing the list as isolated facts.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — CLICK THE DOTTED-UNDERLINED TERMS WHEN READING ONLINE

Term	Meaning in this chapter
imperial power	The ability of a state to control other peoples or territories through political, military or economic influence.
formal independence	A territory becomes politically independent and is no longer directly governed as a colony.
Monroe Doctrine	A US policy opposing renewed European colonization or interference in the Americas, later used to justify US regional influence.
nationalist movements	Political movements seeking self-government or independence for a nation or people.
two-power standard	The British naval aim of maintaining a fleet at least as strong as the next two largest navies combined.
guerrilla warfare	A method of fighting using small, mobile attacks rather than set-piece battles by large armies.
apartheid	South Africa’s later system of legally enforced racial segregation and white-minority rule.
splendid isolation	Britain’s preference for avoiding permanent alliances with other major European powers while relying on its own strength.
Great Game	The strategic rivalry between Britain and Russia over Central Asia and the approaches to British India.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

The question to answer

How did empires lose direct rule, and why did their influence persist? Link **forms of control → pressures → decolonization → legacies**.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — CLICK THE DOTTED-UNDERLINED TERMS WHEN READING ONLINE (CONTINUED)

Term	Meaning in this chapter
mandate system	The League-supervised administration of former German and Ottoman territories by designated victorious powers.
imperial preference	Preferential trade arrangements giving products from within an empire advantages over outside imports.
decolonization	The process by which colonies end foreign rule and gain political independence.
dyarchy	A division of governing responsibilities between different authorities; here used for limited Indian powers alongside continued British control.
westernized nationalist bourgeoisie	Educated, often Western-trained middle-class nationalist leaders who came to govern many new states.

CHAPTER 02

Nationalism

Belonging, Exclusion and the Modern Civic Religion

R. J. B. BOSWORTH

CENTRAL THESIS

Bosworth asks why modern nations feel ancient and inevitable. Shared identity grows through selected histories, rituals, political revolutions and mass institutions; it can encourage solidarity, liberty and progress, but the boundaries of belonging can also produce exclusion, persecution and conflict. Nationalism’s promise and danger must be explained together.

TIMELINE

- **1599**
- **1789**
- **1848**
- **1861**
- **1905**
- **1914**
- **1917**
- **1945**
- **1948**
- **1989**

In Shakespeare's *Henry V* (1599), the Irish soldier MacMorris angrily asks, "What ish my nation?" while arguing with the Welsh Fluellen. The word nationalism did not yet have its modern meaning, but Bosworth uses this quarrel to show its emotional force. A national identity can create solidarity and inspire sacrifice; it can also make people ready to fight those judged outsiders. That double possibility is the chapter's central question.

Bosworth begins with something familiar: passports, national governments, armies, flags, sporting teams and festivals organize everyday life. But to say who *belongs* is also to imply who does *not*. A supposedly united "us" may come to fear a supposedly hostile "Other." The most destructive extreme is ethnic cleansing. Stories of past national suffering can deepen unity, but Bosworth warns that remembered victimhood may also be used to justify harsh action against others. **Thus nationalism's capacity to unite and exclude develops from the same boundary of belonging.**

I What Makes a Nation? Four Competing Explanations

A powerful identity can be made historically and still be deeply felt.

Bosworth treats the nation as an **idea**, not an obvious natural object. The main debate concerns the age of that idea, how it becomes persuasive, and whether its effects are chiefly liberating or dangerous. A nation-state may present its population as one ancient people even when its common institutions and accepted boundaries developed recently. Four scholars approach this problem differently.

FOUR INTERPRETATIONS — PRESERVE THE DIFFERENCE IN THEIR ARGUMENTS

Scholar	Main emphasis	What the explanation helps us understand
Ernest Gellner	Modern institutions	Industrial society, bureaucracies and education make widespread national identity practical.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Apply four theories to one case

When evaluating a nation, ask: do **schools and officials** spread belonging (Gellner)? Are **new ceremonies portrayed as old** (Hobsbawm)? Do **strangers feel connected** (Anderson)? Are there **older ethnic continuities** (Smith)? Several answers can be true at once.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Belonging has a boundary

We belong → Others do not → Others may be portrayed as threats. Bosworth examines how solidarity can become exclusion, not just how a state gains independence.

FOUR INTERPRETATIONS — PRESERVE THE DIFFERENCE IN THEIR ARGUMENTS (CONTINUED)

Scholar	Main emphasis	What the explanation helps us understand
Eric Hobsbawm	Critique and constructed tradition	Nationalism may promote "false consciousness"; apparently ancient customs can be invented tradition.
Benedict Anderson	Belonging through imagination	An imagined community may give genuine comfort, solidarity and purpose.
Anthony D. Smith	Long ethnic continuities	Ethnic identities can have deep roots that cannot be explained only as modern inventions.

Gellner, Hobsbawm and Anderson broadly place modern nationalism within changes associated with the Enlightenment and French Revolution; Smith gives more weight to earlier ethnic continuities. But the debate is not simply about when a nation began. **Institutions can spread belonging, deliberately promoted traditions can give it authority, and people can sincerely feel part of a community whose members they will never meet.** Calling a nation historically constructed does not make those feelings unreal. Bosworth therefore asks a more useful question: *what evidence explains how a nation formed, and how did its members come to see their belonging as timeless?*

II Nature, Language and History: Making Belonging Appear Natural

Three common "proofs" of nationality must be examined rather than assumed.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Three "natural" foundations to question

Nature | **Language** | **History**

For each, ask what is physically real, what is selected, and what is politically interpreted.

NATURE: BORDERS AND “NATIVE SOIL”

Nationalists often treat rivers, mountains, coastlines and plants as proofs that their nations were meant to exist. The Pyrenees seem to separate France and Spain; islands seem to define Japan or Malta. Appeals to native soil make political borders sound timeless. Yet rivers change, cities cover farmland, and landscapes acquire new meanings. European Romanticism helped make mountains objects of admiration; beaches too were not always regarded as places for leisure. Geography matters physically, but **its supposed command that a particular people must form a nation is a historical interpretation**. Bosworth also warns that “blood and soil” language became central to Nazi racial politics.

LANGUAGE: USEFUL FOR UNITY, BUT NOT IDENTICAL WITH NATIONALITY

A common language can bring people together, but Bosworth reports approximately **6,800 languages** compared with only **230 states** in the research available to him. These are period estimates, not current totals. English, Spanish and Arabic cross many political borders, while many people use more than one language. He discusses Hebrew, Greek and Italian as languages consciously standardized, revived or politically promoted within nation-building, rather than treating each as an unchanged inheritance. Migration, class and daily context change how people speak. **Language can help create national identity without proving that every language has a single nation or state.**

CULTURE AND HISTORY: THE SEARCH FOR A “USABLE PAST”

A shared culture is often defended by claims about what “our people” experienced together. Nationalist historians choose achievements, sufferings, heroes and ancestors to create a usable past. Bosworth names **Jules Michelet** in France, **George Bancroft** in the United States and **František Palacký** for Czech history; Palacký even wrote that national history in German. A population’s remembered past can shape solidarity, but selection can hide contradictory evidence or minorities.

This gives professional history a difficult double role. Universities, journals and national history courses developed alongside nation-building, and states often expect historians to serve national interests. But critical investigation can expose invented continuities and disputed claims. Bosworth therefore argues that **history is both a powerful tool for making nations and a means of questioning their narratives**. Nature, language and history all contribute to identity; none alone proves that a nation has existed unchanged forever.

III Myth and the Nationalization of the Masses

Why a supposedly rational modern politics still needs powerful shared rituals.

Historian **George L. Mosse** called the emotional and ritual integration of ordinary people into the nation the nationalization of the masses. Bosworth connects this with the Enlightenment and **French Revolution**. The revolution challenged divine-right monarchy and advanced popular sovereignty. People were now supposed to shape government through reason, progress and common civic will. Yet removing a monarch's sacred authority did not remove the human desire for sacred belonging.

The nation could become a civic religion. Anthems such as *La Marseillaise*, flags, national ceremonies, heroes and festivals gave citizens common objects of devotion. Singing at sporting events, saluting flags or condemning their desecration repeatedly teaches where loyalty belongs. These are not merely decorations added to an already complete nation: **they help people feel that the nation is real, continuous and worthy of sacrifice**.

FROM INHERITED SACRED AUTHORITY TO NATIONAL CIVIC RITUAL

Earlier religious-political pattern	Modern national parallel
Divine right of kings	The will of the people as the source of political authority

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Institutions and rituals do different work

Gellner: schools and administration help *organize* people as a nation. **Mosse:** flags, ceremonies and shared myths help people *feel* part of it. Bosworth needs both material coordination and emotional attachment to explain lasting national loyalty.

FROM INHERITED SACRED AUTHORITY TO NATIONAL CIVIC RITUAL (CONTINUED)

Earlier religious-political pattern	Modern national parallel
Hymns, chants and processions	National anthems, flags and public ceremonies
Revered saints and religious relics	Founders, national heroes and supposedly sacred emblems
Blasphemy against a faith	Condemnation of an “insult” to nation or flag

Bosworth’s argument is not that the French Revolution fulfilled all its promises: it excluded many women, peasants and enslaved people. Nor does he deny the improvements in health, production and opportunity that accompanied the modern age. His paradox is sharper: a politics announcing **reason, liberty and human progress** also borrowed emotional faith and exclusionary myths to sustain national unity. The twentieth century makes the consequences of that combination impossible to ignore.

IV Before and After 1789: How National Identity Became Powerful

Earlier peoples used national labels, but modern nation-states gained new reach.

Were there nations before the Enlightenment? Bosworth acknowledges Smith’s argument for long ethnic continuities and cites historians who see medieval England as an early nation. But he points to evidence against projecting today’s clear national borders backward. A chronicler describing a battle in **1138** distinguished Normans, English, Picts, Scots and several regional peoples; a monk under Henry V celebrated an “English nation” with **six languages**. At the University of Paris around **1220**, student “nations” grouped people quite differently from modern nationalities. These were real ways of identifying groups, not necessarily fully formed modern nations.

DEFINITION

Civil service

Government officials who administer public services and put state policies into practice. Unlike a national myth, this is an administrative institution.

MEMORY ANCHOR

How modern belonging spread

Political revolutions
↓
Industry & administration
↓
Mass education
↓
National identity

Premodern societies also divided people strongly by class, gender, religion, town or countryside and legal status. Those loyalties often mattered more than equal membership in a nation. This is why Bosworth does not simply claim that national words were invented in 1789. He argues instead that the **political reach, shared obligations and precise boundaries** associated with the modern nation developed much more forcefully after the revolutionary period.

The French and Napoleonic wars from **1789 to 1815** weakened dynastic arrangements and accelerated demands for political self-government. Independence movements in Latin America and Greece followed, as did national mobilization in the Balkans; Italian and German unification created powerful new states in the nineteenth century. Norway became independent in **1905**. The First World War redrew parts of Europe, including the revival of Poland and the creation of Czechoslovakia, while Woodrow Wilson promoted self-determination. These transformations made nationality an increasingly prominent claim to political legitimacy, even while frontiers and minority rights remained disputed.

Bosworth also connects nationalism to the practical needs of **industrial modernity**. Factories and railways required coordinated administration; civil services needed trained officials; schools developed literacy, common standards and national histories. A modern bureaucracy could therefore organize a large population while also teaching it who “we” were. **Political revolutions challenged old sovereignty; industry and education made the new national order function day by day.**

Ⓥ Socialism and Communism: The Anti-Nation Problem

Universal class solidarity repeatedly collided with national loyalties.

Karl Marx and **Friedrich Engels** challenged the idea that a nation was humanity's most important political community. Their argument stressed **class**: workers across national borders shared interests against capitalist owners. This was socialist internationalism. The *Communist Manifesto* (1848) imagined workers uniting across frontiers rather than fighting one another for their separate states. In theory, successful class politics would make competing nationalisms less decisive.

The outbreak of **World War I in 1914** exposed the gap between this theory and practice. The German Social Democratic parliamentary representatives supported **war credits** for the German government, even though socialist movements had promised international worker solidarity against war. Other European socialists also largely rallied to their national causes. Workers' identification with national societies, prosperity and political belonging could prove stronger than an appeal to an international class community. **National loyalty had not been displaced by socialist theory.**

The **1917 Bolshevik Revolution** produced a Soviet state claiming to unite peoples under socialism rather than one nationality. Its use of the *Internationale* expressed that universalist ambition. Yet the Soviet Union inherited many languages and ethnic identities from the Russian Empire. **Joseph Stalin**, born in Georgia and once Commissar of Nationalities, could encourage local languages and cultures at some times while reasserting Russian patriotic images at others. During the **1941–45 "Great Patriotic War"**, Soviet propaganda invoked earlier Russian heroes and Orthodox traditions to mobilize resistance to Nazi invasion.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Did workers always reject nationalist wars?

No. German Social Democrats supported war credits in 1914. The case illustrates the strength of national loyalty against the internationalist program.

This is Bosworth's second major paradox. Socialism and communism set out to replace the nation with class solidarity, but the practical demands of loyalty, war and state survival often brought national language back. **The anti-national ideologies did not escape nationalism's emotional and political force.**

VI The Jewish Case: Assimilation, Racism and Zionism

A community could face rejection precisely because national belonging was made exclusive.

Bosworth treats European Jewish experience as an especially painful test of nationalism. After the Enlightenment, many Jews sought **assimilation** into the civic and political life of the states where they lived; others turned toward socialist and internationalist politics. These choices reflected the hope that legal citizenship, secular participation or class solidarity might lessen older religious persecution. But European antisemites claimed that Jews could never truly belong because, in their prejudiced view, they had no single European territory, language or national past. **Those claims were false stereotypes, not evidence about Jewish people.**

In the nineteenth and twentieth centuries, racist ideologues converted national difference into supposed biological hierarchy, using **racial pseudoscience** to present prejudice as measurable fact. The *Protocols of the Elders of Zion*—a forged antisemitic text—spread invented conspiracy allegations. Under Nazi rule after **1933**, exclusion became a state program of persecution and mass murder culminating in the **Holocaust**. Bosworth's point is not that every nationalism necessarily leads to genocide, but that dividing humanity into allegedly pure and alien national or racial groups can have devastating consequences when joined to state power.

EXAM INSIGHT

Distinguish evidence from hateful propaganda

Antisemitic stories about Jews are **claims made by persecutors**, not historical facts. Explain the mechanism that turned false classifications into exclusion and persecution.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Exclusion and its alternatives

European Jews pursued different responses—including civic assimilation, socialism and Zionism. Do not reduce a diverse community to one political choice.

Another response to antisemitic exclusion was Zionism. **Theodor Herzl** advocated a Jewish state in the late nineteenth century, and **Israel was established in 1948**. Bosworth highlights a different difficulty: the creation of a Jewish nation-state in the Middle East involved a land already inhabited by Palestinians, alongside the complex identities of Jewish populations dispersed across many countries. He sees religious identity, immigrant communities and the competing claims to land as entangled with modern national sovereignty. **A movement seeking protection through a homeland therefore also raises questions about who else belongs to that territory.**

VII The Post-1945 Nation and the Final Contradiction

Nationalism survived fascism, communism and expectations of global convergence.

After **1945**, European colonial empires declined and decolonization extended the nation-state form across Asia, Africa and other regions. The **United Nations** represented a hope of cooperation between sovereign states, not a world without nationality. During the Cold War, liberal-capitalist and communist visions competed. When the Berlin Wall fell in **1989** and Soviet power collapsed, **Francis Fukuyama** famously forecast an “end of history” in which liberal democracy seemed triumphant. Bosworth questions that confidence: national and religious identifications remained powerful even after the major ideological rivals of the twentieth century seemed defeated.

EXAM INSIGHT

Interpret the contemporary cases carefully

The United States, Israel, India and Arab societies illustrate different national–religious tensions in **Bosworth’s early-2000s analysis**. Compare mechanisms, not whole peoples or current political conditions.

The **United States** is an example of a modern national contradiction in Bosworth's early-2000s analysis. It proudly defends an American national mission yet continues to be reshaped by immigration, different languages and multiple histories. A form of **Christian national identity** also lives alongside claims that American-style liberal democracy is a universal ideal. Bosworth argues that American civic unity can therefore combine openness to newcomers with assertions of special national virtue. This is his historically situated interpretation, not an unchanging description of every American.

Bosworth applies a similar question, while recognizing important differences, to **Israel**, where Jewish national and religious identities intersect; **India**, where Hindu nationalist politics coexist with the framework of a diverse state; and **Arab and Muslim societies**, where individual states, broader Arabic-language identities and the transnational claims of Islam do not necessarily line up. These examples should be compared for the *tension between national and religious membership*, not treated as equivalent cases or as a claim that any whole population thinks alike.

The final argument completes the chapter's opening question. Since **1789**, nations have accompanied extraordinary gains in science, health, education and opportunities for political participation. But their promise of shared liberty has often depended on myths of ancient origins, ceremonial loyalty and boundaries excluding an "Other." **The nation is both a powerful modern means of belonging and a recurring source of hierarchy and conflict.** That is why Bosworth begins with a soldier asking what his nation is and ends by questioning the political costs of answering too confidently.

§ Revision: Nationalism's Promise and Contradiction

Reconstruct the argument before testing individual dates and terms.

Intellectual journey: (1) National belonging unites while excluding; (2) scholars disagree on how nations formed; (3) nature, language and history are made into myths of permanence; (4) revolutionary sovereignty, modern institutions and public rituals establish the nation; (5) socialist internationalism cannot escape national loyalty; (6) exclusion culminates in antisemitic violence while Zionism raises competing territorial claims; (7) after 1945, nationality continues to combine with religion and global political ideals. **Exam answer:** explain the mechanism behind each step rather than memorize "nationalism is good and bad."

KEY TERMINOLOGY — CLICK DOTTED-UNDERLINED WORDS IN THE ONLINE READING

Term	Meaning in this chapter
nationalism	An identification with the nation as an important political community, giving claims to shared loyalty, belonging and often self-government.
ethnic cleansing	The forced expulsion or removal of a population identified as ethnically alien from a territory, often through intimidation and violence.
nation-state	A political state claiming legitimacy from representing a particular nation, though the people within its borders may have varied identities.
invented tradition	A practice presented as ancient and continuous even though it has been recently created or reshaped to serve a social or political purpose.
imagined community	A community whose members feel connected despite never personally knowing most of their fellow members.
native soil	The belief that a nation belongs naturally and almost permanently to a particular land or landscape.

> *"History is both the primary tool of 'nation-building' and, when pursued rigorously, the most trenchant critic of this process."*
>
> R. J. B. BOSWORTH

KEY TERMINOLOGY — CLICK DOTTED-UNDERLINED WORDS IN THE ONLINE READING (CONTINUED)

Term	Meaning in this chapter
usable past	A selective interpretation of earlier events that gives a modern community a sense of common origin, purpose or legitimate claims.
nationalization of the masses	The process through which public education, historical stories, ceremonies and symbols teach broad populations to feel part of one nation.
popular sovereignty	The principle that legitimate political authority comes from the people rather than a monarch claiming divine or hereditary right.
civic religion	A shared public loyalty in which national symbols, rituals and duties acquire a reverence resembling religious commitment.
self-determination	The principle that peoples or nations should have a say in choosing their own political status and government.
socialist internationalism	The belief that workers of different countries share common class interests that should take priority over national rivalry.
Zionism	A movement for Jewish national self-determination, historically associated with seeking and establishing a Jewish homeland and state.
decolonization	The ending of colonial rule and the creation of politically independent states, often following anticolonial movements.

REVISION: SEPARATE CLAIM, HISTORICAL EXAMPLE AND AUTHOR'S INTERPRETATION

Argument	Source example	What to explain
Nations are not simply natural	Pyrenees, language counts, national historians	Why nature, language and history cannot alone define a fixed nation
Modern nations needed institutions	Revolution, railways, bureaucracy, schools	How political authority became everyday collective identity

REVISION: SEPARATE CLAIM, HISTORICAL EXAMPLE AND AUTHOR'S INTERPRETATION (CONTINUED)

Argument	Source example	What to explain
Internationalism met national loyalty	German socialists in 1914; Soviet wartime patriotism	Why class solidarity could be displaced by national allegiance
Exclusion could become catastrophic	Antisemitic conspiracy forgeries and Nazi racial policies	How false outsiders were manufactured and persecuted
The dilemma outlived 1945	Decolonization, US, Israel, India, Arab states	Why sovereignty and religious or cultural identities still interact

CHAPTER 03

Internationalism

The Unfinished Bridge from Sovereign States to World Community

ANDREW WEBSTER

CENTRAL THESIS

International cooperation spread from narrow technical standards to collective-security institutions, international law and global humanitarian networks. Yet each advance exposed the same political difficulty: states needed common rules to address shared dangers while resisting any authority that might override their sovereignty. Webster assesses both what internationalism achieved and why its enforcement repeatedly fell short.

TIMELINE

- **1863**
- **1864**
- **1874**
- **1899**
- **1907**
- **1919**
- **1921**
- **1945**
- **1949**
- **1990**
- **1992**
- **2002**
- **2003**

Andrew Webster begins with a problem of international politics: countries claim the right to govern themselves, yet war, trade and humanitarian crises cross their borders. Internationalism proposes ways to overcome the resulting disorder. It can mean a modest duty to cooperate, binding rules for peace and law, or the more ambitious hope of a world organized beyond national borders. **These are different levels of ambition, not three names for the same policy.**

The difficulty is sovereignty: states may accept the benefits of common rules but resist the limits those rules place on independent action. This sets internationalism against the realist view, which doubts that cooperation can overcome power politics. Webster's history therefore asks *how far states actually surrendered freedom of action—and what happened when cooperation threatened important national interests.*

Ⅰ Before 1914: Cooperation without World Government

Practical cross-border problems came first; political enforcement proved harder.

USEFUL STANDARDS SPREAD ACROSS BORDERS

Growing commerce and communications required rules that several governments could use. Governments established international public unions. The **Universal Postal Union (1874)**, for example, replaced a confusing collection of bilateral postage arrangements with common rates and a shared postal territory. The **International Telecommunication Union (1865)** coordinated communications, while railway, maritime, weights-and-measures and health bodies addressed other shared needs. Webster records over **250 multilateral conventions** from 1864 to 1914. Because these bodies mostly dealt with technical matters and had little power to compel members, governments were more willing to join.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Classify three real examples

Postal Union: shared services. **League:** peace commitments. **Comintern:** a border-transcending ideal that became tied to Soviet power. Which arrangement actually constrained a state when its interests were threatened? Distinguish an institution's *ambition* from its *authority*.

MEMORY ANCHOR

When is agreement easiest?

Test an issue: **technical standards** rarely threaten security, so states often cooperate. **War and enforcement** threaten autonomy, so compulsory rules face resistance.

DEFINITION

Multilateral convention

A written agreement among **three or more states**. The fact that states sign it does not, by itself, supply an institution able to enforce it.

WHY EARLY COOPERATION WORKED — AND WHERE IT STOPPED

Body or example	Practical achievement	Limit revealed
Telecommunication Union (1865)	Agreed communication practices	Narrow technical scope
Universal Postal Union (1874)	Shared postal arrangements	States remained sovereign
Permanent Sugar Commission (1902)	Common commodity rules by majority vote	Britain left in 1913 rather than risk being outvoted
International Committee of the Red Cross (from 1863)	Cross-border aid to wounded and prisoners	Its access depended on governments' consent

HUMANITARIAN OBLIGATIONS ALSO NEEDED STATE CONSENT

The committee established in Geneva in **1863** became the **International Committee of the Red Cross (ICRC)**. Its work introduced a significant non-state humanitarian role in war. The **1864 Geneva Convention** established obligations concerning wounded soldiers, an early step toward international humanitarian law. Nevertheless, the ICRC could not simply enter battlefields against governments' wishes: consent, national Red Cross societies and respect for state authority made its humanitarian access possible. **Helping people across borders did not eliminate the need to work through sovereign states.**

THE HAGUE CONFERENCES: RULES WITHOUT STRONG ENFORCEMENT

At the **1899 and 1907 Hague Peace Conferences**, states attempted to restrain warfare. They failed to secure disarmament but made important advances in codification of land and maritime war. The **1899 Permanent Court of Arbitration** facilitated arbitration but was not a permanently sitting court: governments chose whether to submit cases and rejected compulsory jurisdiction. The violation of Belgian neutrality in 1914 illustrated the gap between signing rules and enforcing them during a major war. **The prewar lesson was clear: states accepted international standards more readily than international control over security.**

II The League of Nations: Collective Security and Its Limits

The First World War inspired an institution that still depended on its members.

After the destruction of 1914–18, many hoped that war could be prevented through organized collective security. The **League of Nations**, created in **1919**, sought to settle disputes, encourage disarmament and deter attacks through common obligations. Its **26-article Covenant** also covered social, economic and humanitarian cooperation. Christian Lange's 1921 image of a bridge from the "territorial state" to a "world community" expresses the ambition, but the bridge had to be built using states that still guarded their independence.

LEAGUE DESIGN: ORGANS AND KEY COVENANT PROVISIONS

Institution or provision	What it did	Practical constraint
Council	Handled major security disputes; included great and smaller powers	Decisions required unanimity
Assembly	All members met with one vote each	Influence on debate, not independent force
Secretariat	Coordinated an international civil service	Administrative, not an autonomous government
Articles 10, 12–15	Territorial protection, dispute procedures and a cooling-off period	Did not outlaw all war
Article 16	Economic, financial and diplomatic sanctions against Covenant breakers	No standing League army or automatic military response

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Build a two-part League verdict

For "Was the League a failure?", organize the answer around **one security crisis** and **one functional or judicial achievement**. Explain why member-state consent made the outcomes differ. A failure to prevent war does not prove every League institution was ineffective.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Did the League outlaw all war?

No. Its Covenant regulated disputes, imposed waiting periods and contemplated sanctions, but still allowed routes to war and relied on state enforcement.

This design explains the League's deepest problem. Its members pledged to use procedures before war and to defend one another's territorial integrity, yet the League had **no armed forces of its own**; large-scale action depended on states volunteering political and military support. The **United States never joined**, although President Woodrow Wilson had championed the idea. Lord Curzon insisted in 1920 that the League was an "association of sovereign states," not a super-state. Therefore, its peace system was more demanding than earlier technical unions but ultimately rested on the same national consent.

EVALUATE TWO RECORDS—NOT JUST "THE LEAGUE FAILED"

The League did settle a **1925 Greece–Bulgaria** crisis when major powers had no fundamental interests at stake. It also expanded health, refugee assistance, technical regulation and drug-control cooperation, produced over **120 international instruments**, and established the **Permanent Court of International Justice in 1922**. But attempts to tighten security commitments, secure disarmament or bind major powers met resistance. The **1923 proposed Treaty of Mutual Assistance** and **1924 Geneva Protocol** failed; the **1925 Geneva Gas Protocol** prohibited the *use*, not production or stockpiling, of the specified weapons. The **1928 Paris Peace Pact** renounced war as national policy without creating an enforcement mechanism.

Its political weakness became decisive in the **1930s**: the League could not check Japan in **Manchuria**, revive economic cooperation, rescue the **1932–34 World Disarmament Conference**, or respond effectively to Italy's **1935 invasion of Ethiopia**. Germany's absorption of Austria in **1938** underlined its irrelevance. Membership was also fragile: Germany joined in 1926 but left in 1933; the Soviet Union joined in 1934 but was expelled in 1939. The League was wound up in **1946**. Webster therefore gives a two-sided judgment: it failed to secure peace against determined aggression, **but it normalized international cooperation and created institutions on which successors could build.**

III The United Nations: Stronger Law, Persistent Power Politics

The UN tried to respond to aggression; the veto preserved great-power control.

The Second World War led to the **United Nations (1945)**. Its **111-article Charter** inherited institutions from the League but was designed more directly to stop aggression. The UN has a **Security Council**, **General Assembly**, **Secretariat** and **International Court of Justice (ICJ)**, among its six principal organs. The Council received primary responsibility for peace and security. Members agreed to accept its decisions, and **Article 42** permitted force authorized by the Council. Unlike the League's delayed dispute procedures, the Charter outlawed unilateral force except in limited circumstances such as self-defence. Membership expanded from **51 states in 1945 to 191 by 2005**, the endpoint Webster cites. The UN had stronger authority *on paper* but still needed states to provide military and political support.

WHY THE FIVE-POWER VETO MATTERED

The five permanent Security Council members—**the United States, Soviet Union, Britain, France and China** at its founding—received the veto. Webster argues that this did not invent their global power: it accommodated power they already possessed, making participation possible. But the **Cold War** turned it into an obstacle. Webster records **106 Soviet vetoes in 1946–65** and **68 US vetoes in 1971–90**; these figures cover different time windows and must not be treated as one period's single total. States also relied on NATO and the Warsaw Pact, not the UN, for much of their security. The **Korean War (1950–53)** was an unusual exception enabled by the Soviet absence from the Council.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Veto: a design trade-off

Removing the great-power veto could make decisions easier to pass, but it might also deter major powers from accepting the institution. Webster explains the veto as an accommodation to power, not an ideal of equality.

EXAM INSIGHT

Which court handles this case?

Two governments dispute territory: consider the ICJ. **An individual faces allegations of war crimes:** consider the ICC, if jurisdictional conditions are met and national courts are unwilling or unable to act. The key is *who is being judged*, not just whether international law is involved.

WHY WEAKNESS DID NOT MEAN USELESSNESS

After decolonization enlarged UN membership, the Assembly gave new states a prominent forum and the organization devoted more work to development. The end of the Cold War enabled action over **Iraq's invasion of Kuwait in 1990** and expanded peacekeeping. Results were mixed: there were damaging failures in **Yugoslavia** and **Rwanda**. The **2003 US-led invasion of Iraq** lacked Security Council authorization; Webster uses arguments over its legality to make a subtle point. Even when a powerful state acts without UN sanction, widespread criticism suggests that **international legal approval has become an important standard of legitimacy**. An institution may influence what is considered lawful without being able to enforce the rule every time.

TWO COURTS—AND AN EXPANDING LAW OF ACCOUNTABILITY

Do not confuse the **ICJ**, which hears disputes between states, with the **International Criminal Court (ICC)**, created in **2002** after the **1998 Rome Statute**, which concerns individuals accused of international crimes. Webster connects this evolution to Nuremberg and the **1993 tribunal for the former Yugoslavia**: international law increasingly tried to protect people, not only the sovereign rights of governments. The ICC was designed around complementarity. The expansion was significant but did not abolish national jurisdiction; even criminal accountability depended partly on states.

THE UN'S LESS DRAMATIC BUT DURABLE WORK

The UN Charter also authorized cooperation on economic, social, cultural and humanitarian problems. Bodies and programmes such as **UNESCO** (education and culture), the **World Health Organization**, the **Food and Agriculture Organization**, and **UNICEF** extended the functional cooperation begun before 1914. The Secretariat gathered expertise and coordinated information on a far larger scale than the League. Webster regards this extensive network as one of internationalism's strongest achievements. **Thus the UN's mixed security record should be assessed beside its enduring capacity to organize useful cooperation.**

IV Beyond States: Socialist and Humanitarian Internationalisms

The idea of a world community could also begin with workers or civil society.

SOCIALIST INTERNATIONALISM: THE STATE RETURNS

Unlike the League, which sought cooperation *among* nations, socialist internationalism imagined solidarity beyond nationality itself. The **First International (1864)** and **Second International (1889)** sought workers' unity; national support for the First World War shattered the latter's expectations. The **Comintern (Third International, 1919)** attempted to spread revolution under Moscow's leadership. Webster identifies Mongolia as a rare exception to its wider failure to inspire successful revolutions. Despite participation by many communist parties, it was increasingly controlled by Soviet state interests, repeatedly changed direction and dissolved in **1943**. Webster judges it incapable of creating the promised borderless class society. **The movement intended to transcend states became dependent on one particularly powerful state.**

HUMANITARIAN ORGANIZATIONS: NEUTRALITY OR ADVOCACY?

International networks independent of governments expanded through the **Olympic movement**, **Amnesty International (1961)**, relief associations and other non-governmental organizations. The **four Geneva Conventions of 1949** strengthened the Red Cross's responsibilities regarding wounded people, prisoners and civilians. The ICRC generally defended humanitarian neutrality to protect access to victims. But conflicts increasingly took place *within* states, with civilians targeted and war/peace boundaries blurred. That exposed limits in rules and aid methods originally designed around interstate wars.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Two routes beyond national borders

Class solidarity → Comintern → Soviet-state control. Cross-border aid → humanitarian organizations → neutrality/advocacy debate. Both confront state power differently.

EXAM INSIGHT

Neutrality and advocacy: no false binary

Do not claim the ICRC lacks concern for human rights or that MSF rejects practical access. The historical disagreement concerns *how to balance speaking out with reaching victims*.

AN INSTRUCTIVE CONTRAST: DIFFERENT PURPOSES OF HUMANITARIAN ACTION

Traditional ICRC approach	"New humanitarianism," including Médecins Sans Frontières
Prioritizes neutrality and confidential access	More willing to denounce abuses and consider political consequences
Aims to reach victims on multiple sides	Argues that silent neutrality may itself be morally inadequate
Both need practical routes to deliver relief	Both confront governments and the realities of armed conflict

Webster does not claim that either approach has eliminated the state. Volunteers, donors, professional networks and advocacy groups can act across frontiers, but access and the rules of warfare still raise questions about state consent and responsibility. Their achievement is to widen the meaning of international society: political authority is not held only by governments, and global problems can mobilize cross-border actors even when governments hesitate.

Ⓥ Conclusion: The Bridge Remains Unfinished

An international community exists, but does not replace sovereign states.

In **1992**, UN secretary general **Boutros Boutros-Ghali** argued that the time of absolute and exclusive sovereignty had passed, while insisting that the state remained the foundation stone of international action. This is Webster's conclusion in miniature. Across the century, international rules, institutions, NGOs and economic networks grew into something approaching global civil society. They made shared concerns—from war crimes and refugees to communications and the environment—harder to confine within national borders.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Complete the bridge

Common needs → shared rules → stronger institutions → power limits. End an exam answer by returning to sovereign consent, the concept that opened Webster's argument.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

What would count as real international authority?

Ask: can common rules constrain a state that rejects them? Compare **legal legitimacy**, **voluntary compliance** and **actual coercive capacity**. They are different measures of success.

Nevertheless, when enforcement costs were high, powerful states could still resist, withhold support or act unilaterally. Internationalism survived because cooperation became increasingly normal and its institutions gained authority, yet its success remained limited by the very states that created them. **The bridge from the territorial state to the world community, evoked by Christian Lange in 1921, had advanced considerably by Webster's early twenty-first-century vantage point—but it had not reached the far bank.** That is why *sovereignty versus international responsibility* is the chapter's continuing dilemma, not merely a problem solved by creating the UN.

§ Revision: Internationalism and Sovereignty

Recall mechanisms, contrasts and precise examples—without rereading the main explanation.

Exam synthesis: Define internationalism; explain why technical cooperation gained ground before political collective security; contrast the League's functional successes with its security failures; show how the UN adjusted the design without eliminating great-power vetoes; then compare socialist internationalism and humanitarian NGOs before returning to the unresolved sovereignty paradox.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE REFERENCE FOR THE INTERACTIVE TERMS

Academic term	Concise meaning
Internationalism	The belief that states and societies should cooperate across national borders, often accepting common rules or institutions to address shared problems.
sovereignty	A state's claim to exercise final political authority over its own territory and decisions without a superior external ruler.
realist view	An approach to international relations that treats sovereign states, their security and their power as enduring central features of world politics.
international public unions	Specialized intergovernmental bodies that standardized shared services, such as post, telecommunications or scientific measurements, without governing states generally.
international humanitarian law	Rules intended to limit suffering in armed conflict, including protections for the wounded, prisoners and civilians.
codification	The process of collecting and expressing customary or scattered legal rules as an agreed written legal instrument.
arbitration	A process in which disputing states voluntarily submit a disagreement to chosen neutral decision-makers.

> *"The time of absolute and exclusive sovereignty, however, has passed."*
>
> BOUTROS BOUTROS-GHALI, *AN AGENDA FOR PEACE*, 1992, AS CITED BY WEBSTER

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE REFERENCE FOR THE INTERACTIVE TERMS (CONTINUED)

Academic term	Concise meaning
collective security	The principle that states collectively protect international peace by responding to aggression against a member, rather than leaving each state to defend itself alone.
sanctions	Collective penalties, such as restrictions on trade and diplomatic dealings, intended to pressure a state violating agreed rules.
veto	The right of any permanent Security Council member to block a substantive Council decision, despite support from other members.
peacekeeping	Missions, typically involving international personnel, intended to help monitor agreements, reduce violence and stabilize conflicts.
complementarity	The principle that the international criminal court acts as a last resort when the state with jurisdiction is unwilling or genuinely unable to prosecute.
socialist internationalism	The ambition to unite workers across national borders through shared class interests and ultimately overcome the capitalist nation-state system.
non-governmental organizations	Organizations formed by private individuals or groups rather than governments, operating for cross-border humanitarian, advocacy or other public aims.
humanitarian neutrality	A practice of not taking sides in the political conflict, intended to preserve access to people who need assistance.
global civil society	Overlapping worldwide networks of public institutions, civil organizations, professions, companies and individuals that act across national borders.

LEAGUE AND UN: UNDERSTAND THE SHIFT RATHER THAN MEMORIZING A SLOGAN

Question	League of Nations	United Nations
Primary security method	Settle disputes; wait before resorting to war	Council acts against aggression; Chapter VII enforcement

LEAGUE AND UN: UNDERSTAND THE SHIFT RATHER THAN MEMORIZING A SLOGAN (CONTINUED)

Question	League of Nations	United Nations
Great-power constraint	Council unanimity; no League armed force	Five permanent-member vetoes; states provide forces
Courts	PCIJ hears inter-state cases	ICJ for states; ICC is separate criminal treaty court
Most enduring achievement	Functional and legal foundations	Greater scale of cooperation, agencies and legitimacy

EXAM-READY EVIDENCE ANCHORS

Period	One decisive example	Point to explain
Before 1914	Postal Union and Hague Arbitration	Cooperation grew, compulsory power remained limited
League, 1920s	Greece–Bulgaria 1925 and international health	Real functional and limited political accomplishments
League, 1930s	Manchuria, disarmament collapse, Ethiopia	State refusal prevented collective enforcement
UN, Cold War	P5 veto and Korea exception	Design acknowledged power; Cold War blocked frequent action
After Cold War	Kuwait 1990 versus Iraq 2003	Capacity and legitimacy did not always coincide
Beyond states	Comintern versus ICRC/MSF	Class internationalism and humanitarianism had different logics

CHAPTER 04

A Shrinking World

From Global Networks to Global Consciousness: Speed, Power and Consequences

JEFFREY A. ENGEL

CENTRAL THESIS

Global connections long predated the twentieth century; what changed was the **unprecedented speed and scale** with which people could transmit information, organize markets and cross distances. Engel shows that the same networks strengthened trade and shared culture while also serving empire, warfare, surveillance and environmental change. The shrinking world made new possibilities available, **not inevitable peace or political unity**.

TIMELINE

- **1851**
- **1858**
- **1866**
- **1876**
- **1896**
- **1903**
- **1908**
- **1913**
- **1917**
- **1937**
- **1946**
- **1952**
- **1954**
- **1962**
- **1969**
- **1989**

Jeffrey A. Engel's **"A Shrinking World"** explains how twentieth-century changes in communication and transport allowed information, goods, money, images and people to cross great distances at extraordinary speed. The central idea is globalization, but Engel insists that the process began long before modern inventions. His question is not merely *which machines appeared?* It is **how faster connections changed the opportunities, power and choices of people who used them**—sometimes with consequences their inventors never intended.

I An Old Process at Unprecedented Speed

Connectivity has a long history; its twentieth-century reach and speed were new.

Ancient Mediterranean trade and competition, illustrated by the **Punic Wars between Rome and Carthage**, already depended on control of major routes. Mongol rulers later connected lands from Europe and the Middle East to Asia through roads and communications. Merchants, imperial planners and explorers repeatedly imagined they were creating an integrated world. Engel therefore rejects the claim that the twentieth century *invented* global connections: it made them more extensive, faster and usable by more people.

In 1904, geographer **Halford Mackinder** feared that industrial production and railroads could concentrate geopolitical power in a state controlling Eurasia. Yet later aircraft and wireless signals also made borders more permeable, and people with access to wider information sometimes demanded **local autonomy** instead of accepting central control. The same technology could help a state coordinate power or help communities challenge it. Its political consequences therefore depended on who controlled and used the network.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Test the "trade guarantees peace" claim

Evidence: Germany and France traded heavily in 1914. **Exam move:** distinguish an economic link from a political decision. Ask why economic loss did not outweigh security fears or war aims.

Telegraphy, radio, aircraft and eventually the Internet made global consciousness increasingly possible: people in separate countries could encounter the same news, music, sporting events and political crises. By the century's end, the fall of communism and Cold War barriers enlarged the market in which people and firms could operate. But access was not universal, and common information did not erase unequal power or local identity. A "shrinking world" describes **compressed time and distance**, not a disappearance of differences.

Engel also disputes the comforting belief that trade and communication automatically create peace. **France and Germany were major trading partners in 1914, yet went to war.** Faster exchange could encourage understanding, but could also spread fear, propaganda, threats and military intelligence. This warning governs the chapter: greater interdependence enlarges the possibilities for cooperation *and* conflict, rather than determining which one people choose.

II Communications: Faster Information, New Forms of Power

The telegraph connected markets; wireless, radio, television and phones transformed security and everyday life.

TELEGRAPHY AND THE INFRASTRUCTURE OF A WORLD MARKET

The nineteenth-century telegraphy gave states and merchants a way to exchange encoded messages far faster than any ship. Samuel Morse's code helped standardize signalling. To span oceans engineers needed a well-insulated submarine cable able to survive pressure, currents and damage. A cable across the Channel failed in 1850 and a stronger link succeeded in 1851; an expensive transatlantic cable worked briefly in 1858 before failing, while a more durable Atlantic connection followed in **1866**. Ocean-floor surveys, including work in 1853, helped engineers understand the physical world they needed to cross. Communication projects therefore promoted scientific knowledge as well as commerce.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Rebuild the cable sequence

- **1851** Stronger Channel cable
- **1858** Short-lived Atlantic cable
- **1866** Durable Atlantic connection
- **1900s** All-British submarine network

DEFINITION

Codebreaking

Recovering the meaning of intercepted encoded messages, often without permission or knowledge of the sender. **Contrast:** intercepting a radio signal is not the same task as deciphering its contents.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Apply the telegraph to a trading decision

A shipment of grain is still at sea. A cable reports a changed market price. What decisions can a merchant adjust *before arrival*? Think: buyers, storage, loans and onward shipping. That is the mechanism behind greater efficiency.

Imperial planners sought a dependable imperial communications network. By **1865** cable connections linked London with India, but relayed messages could still take days and traverse politically vulnerable territory. British strategists developed a more secure, submerged **"All-British" network** by the early twentieth century—ironically just as wireless methods were becoming practical. Faster communications were never simply neutral infrastructure: their routes, ownership and security affected imperial and military power.

The market effect came from increasingly timely price information. Traders could learn likely prices for cotton, grain, textiles or meat while cargo was still at sea; financiers could coordinate sales, shipping, storage and credit with less uncertainty. As a leading hub of the cable network, **London consolidated its position in global finance**. These links made trade more efficient, but also concentrated influence with traders, banks and states that controlled the information. The telegraph shrank commercial distance by reducing *uncertainty before delivery*, not by moving goods physically faster.

TELEPHONE ACCESS: CONNECTION IS ALSO A POLITICAL CHOICE

Alexander Graham Bell patented the telephone in **1876**, making speech possible across wires. Over the century, improved cables and satellites extended service and sharply lowered its relative cost: a three-minute US coast-to-coast call cost nearly a working day's wages in **1925**, but less than five minutes' wages in **1983**. Yet Engel contrasts this expansion with communist and authoritarian states that limited private telephone access or supervised calls. Their rulers knew about communications technology; they restricted who could use it. **Availability therefore depended on government policy as well as engineering.**

EXAM INSIGHT

Compare two wartime uses

Titanic: a signal alerts rescuers. **Zimmermann:** an intercepted message intensifies diplomatic hostility. For an essay, show how access, security and purpose—not speed alone—explain the outcomes.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Test access, not just invention

Exam scenario: Two governments possess modern telephone equipment, but only one permits affordable, unsupervised household calls. Have both societies achieved equal access? Identify the evidence you would need: **cost, availability, permission and surveillance**. Explain why ownership of equipment alone cannot answer the question.

WIRELESS: SAFETY, INTERCEPTION AND WAR

Radio waves made wireless telegraphy possible without laying continuous cables. Guglielmo Marconi patented his system in **1896**, and a transatlantic radio signal followed in **1901**. Insurers encouraged ship-to-shore sets; emergency wireless calls helped rescuers reach survivors of the *Titanic*. But signals travelling through open air could also be intercepted, spurring cryptography and military code-breaking. In **1917**, the intercepted German **Zimmermann Telegram** to Mexico intensified US hostility to Germany. In the Second World War, the interception and decoding of Axis messages, including traffic protected by **Enigma**, showed that secure communications could decide military advantages. Faster messages aided rescue and coordination but could also accelerate crisis and expose strategic secrets.

RADIO AND TELEVISION: FROM PRIVATE SIGNALS TO SHARED PUBLICS

Once broadcasting allowed one station to reach many listeners, radio helped establish news and entertainment as daily habits. Governments assigned frequencies, as in the US **Radio Act of 1912**, while advertising and commercial broadcasters sought audiences and revenue. Mass broadcasting could distribute information and solidarity, but also strengthen propaganda. Military, political and business interests all competed to control the airwaves.

Television extended radio's shared experience to moving images. The term was used in **1900**; John Logie Baird demonstrated wireless image transmission in **1925**, and the Nazi government used television rooms to show the **1936 Berlin Olympics**. The Depression and war delayed wider commercial growth, but after 1945 television ownership surged. Engel reports that US homes with sets rose from about **8,000 in 1946 to more than 45 million in 1960**. Communications satellites in the 1960s, then cable and satellite systems, broadened reach and specialized programming.

Images of the **1969 Moon landing**, the **1989 Berlin Wall celebrations** and the crackdown at **Tiananmen Square** helped make political events visible far from where they occurred. International sport and entertainment created recognisable figures such as Michael Jordan and David Beckham. These networks promoted cultural homogenization through widely shared products and images, while also provoking criticism of American cultural dominance. Greater worldwide visibility produced common reference points **and** reactions against cultural influence.

Communications reshaped diplomacy too: following the **1962 Cuban Missile Crisis**, Washington and Moscow established a direct hotline to reduce the risks of delay and misunderstanding. Satellite telephony, mobile communications and the Internet then multiplied ways to speak across borders. Yet global messaging could be used by governments, protesters, firms and violent organizations alike. By century's end the world was more immediately connected, not necessarily more peaceful or politically unified.

III Travel: From Mass Automobility to Global Flight

Physical movement became faster and cheaper, while restructuring landscapes, economies and security.

THE AUTOMOBILE: INVENTION BECOMES A MASS SOCIAL SYSTEM

The automobile depended on the internal combustion engine, developed in the nineteenth century through work by Étienne Lenoir and Nikolaus Otto, among others. Karl Benz and Gottlieb Daimler helped advance early vehicles. Yet useful engines did not by themselves create a mass market: cars were expensive, handmade and difficult to produce in large numbers. **Henry Ford neither invented the car nor originated the assembly line.** Instead, he perfected assembly-line production with standardized parts and specialized tasks. The **1908 Model T**, initially priced at $825 in Engel's account, reached a wider market. A production-time example Engel gives for 1913 falls from about **12 hours 30 minutes to under three hours**, showing how organization could transform access to an invention.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Four turning points in flight

1903	Wright powered flight
1909	Blériot crosses Channel
1930s	DC-3 airline services
1952	Comet jet service

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Mass production: test the mechanism

Explain how **standard parts + repeated tasks + moving production** change unit cost and output. Then connect lower prices to wider ownership. Listing Ford's name alone does not explain the industrial transformation.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Pan Am as diplomacy by other means

Route rights, mail contracts, airfields and radio/weather stations did more than move passengers. Ask how they helped a firm and its home state gain commercial *and* strategic influence abroad.

Widespread automobility reshaped where people worked, lived and shopped. Roads, suburbs, trucking networks and highways were built around vehicles; the **1956 US Interstate Highway Act** represented this development on a national scale, with civilian and Cold War strategic motives. Ownership became a mark of prosperity: Engel cites French workers' car ownership rising from roughly **8% in 1953 to about half fourteen years later**. The car was no longer a machine for a few wealthy people—it organized cities, commerce and daily routines.

Growth brought serious costs. Cheap gasoline encouraged larger US cars after 1945, but the 1970s oil crises and growing European and Japanese competition increased interest in smaller and more efficient vehicles. This revealed fossil-fuel dependence: oil prices and access became economic and national-security concerns. Automobile exhaust contributed to smog and air pollution, though Engel also identifies industry and energy production as causes of deadly episodes such as **London's 1952 smog**. Ralph Nader's *Unsafe at Any Speed* (1965) helped provoke safety reforms, including US laws passed in **1966**. Mass car ownership expanded individual mobility while creating shared environmental, safety and strategic burdens.

AVIATION: MILITARY DEMAND PRECEDES ORDINARY TRAVEL

The Wright brothers' controlled powered flight of **1903** lasted **59 seconds**. Louis Blériot's crossing of the English Channel in **1909** showed that seas no longer guaranteed security. The Wrights themselves sought military customers, and the First World War rapidly increased the production and destructive capacity of aircraft. Bombers made civilian cities vulnerable; aircraft also became more capable of crossing long distances. A machine promising travel and contact first gained massive investment because states wanted military advantage.

After the war, commercial aviation grew through mail subsidies, government contracts and a demand for faster travel. **Juan Trippe's Pan American** used mail and passenger routes to connect the Americas, then expanded across the Pacific. These routes helped project US business and influence, not merely transport holidaymakers. Airships such as the Graf Zeppelin briefly competed for long-distance traffic, but the **Hindenburg disaster in 1937** weakened confidence in them. Passenger planes like the **Douglas DC-3** made regular air travel safer, more economical and more attractive.

Wartime engine research later supported jet propulsion in civilian passenger service. Britain's **de Havilland Comet** entered service in **1952**, offering fast, high-altitude travel, but fatal accidents led to the fleet's grounding in **1954**. American firms, supported by military orders and shared designs between civil and military aircraft, gained a commanding commercial position; Airbus later challenged this dominance. The Concorde illustrated the opposite commercial lesson: exceptional speed did not ensure profitability. With large airliners such as the Boeing 747 and Airbus A380, what had required weeks by sea could increasingly be achieved within a day by air. Aviation brought people nearer while remaining shaped by security, government subsidies and competition.

Ⅳ The Shrinking World's Unfinished Consequences

Engel's conclusion joins technological opportunity with political choice and unintended costs.

Engel treats communications and transport as forms of dual-use technology. The same airplane could carry passengers or bombs; radio could summon rescue or transmit orders; television could educate people or spread narrow messages; networked communication could help reformers organize or help criminal groups. These outcomes are not inherent moral instructions within the machine. **Who owns it, controls access and chooses its purpose** shapes how it changes society.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

Write a balanced technology verdict

Choose **one invention**. Explain its mechanism and one clear benefit; identify a distinct military, environmental, political or economic cost; close by explaining whose choices shaped both outcomes.

The wider consequences reach beyond inventions. Networks could make markets more efficient and firms more global, but concentrate financial power; expand shared cultural experiences, but provoke resistance to cultural dominance; support international understanding, but also accelerate diplomatic crises; spread private mobility, but increase oil dependence, danger and pollution. Engel's examples therefore resist a simple narrative that technology brings either inevitable liberation or inevitable control.

The conclusion returns to the opening question. Earlier societies also built long-distance connections and imagined they lived in a new global age. **The twentieth century was distinctive for the unprecedented speed, scale and simultaneous use of its networks.** It shrank the practical distance between people without settling how they would coexist. Globalization remained **a continuing process, not a completed peaceful destination**—and its future depended on the human choices made through these technologies.

§ Revision: Connectivity, Power and Consequences

Definitions for print, short evidence sequences, and analytical questions.

Exam synthesis: Begin with the long history of connectivity; distinguish technological speed from guaranteed peace; show how the telegraph produced price coordination and imperial security advantages; contrast broadcasting's shared culture with political control; explain how mass cars and aviation transformed mobility while creating oil, environmental and military costs; close by evaluating Engel's view of technology as morally neutral and globalization as an unfinished process.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE REFERENCE FOR INTERACTIVE TERMS

Academic term	Concise meaning
globalization	The continuing growth of economic, political, social and cultural connections among distant parts of the world; Engel stresses its changing speed, not a single starting date.
geopolitical	Concerning how geography and transport routes affect political power, security and relations between states.
global consciousness	Awareness of events, images and experiences shared across national borders, made more immediate by faster communication and mass media.
telegraphy	Sending coded messages over distance through electrical signals, originally carried by wires and cables.
submarine cable	A protected electrical or communications cable laid beneath a sea or ocean to carry messages between shores.
imperial communications network	Communications links planned and controlled to connect an empire's government, commerce and military operations across its territories.
price information	Knowledge of current market prices in distant places that traders can use before a shipment arrives.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Two revolutions, one question

Communications made news and coordination almost immediate; **travel** moved bodies and cargo faster. In either case ask: *who gained access, who gained control, and what unexpected costs followed?*

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE REFERENCE FOR INTERACTIVE TERMS (CONTINUED)

Academic term	Concise meaning
wireless telegraphy	Sending coded electrical messages by radio waves without a continuous physical cable between sender and receiver.
cryptography	Methods of encoding information so that an unintended reader cannot readily understand it.
broadcasting	Transmitting a radio or television program from one source to many receivers rather than sending a private point-to-point message.
cultural homogenization	The spread of similar goods, habits, entertainment and images across different societies, sometimes weakening visible differences.
internal combustion engine	An engine that produces mechanical power by burning fuel inside its own cylinders, rather than using an external steam generator.
assembly-line production	Manufacturing in which standardized parts and tasks move through an ordered sequence of workers or machines, reducing production time and cost.
automobility	The widespread use of private motor vehicles and the social, economic and physical systems built around them.
fossil-fuel dependence	Reliance on fuels such as oil and gasoline whose supply, price and pollution affect wider economic and political life.
commercial aviation	Transporting paying passengers, mail or cargo by aircraft through organized services and routes.
jet propulsion	Producing forward thrust by expelling a fast stream of gases, allowing aircraft to travel faster and often at higher altitudes.
dual-use technology	A technology that has both civilian and military applications; the same invention can serve transport, communication or warfare.

EVIDENCE THAT MAKES THE ARGUMENT TESTABLE

Development	Evidence to recall	What it demonstrates
Telegraph cables	1850/1851 Channel; 1858 Atlantic setback; 1866 new link	Technological connection required engineering and political investment
Commerce and security	All-British cable network; global commodity prices	Networks served markets and imperial power
Mass broadcasting	US TV households: ~8,000 (1946) → 45m+ (1960)	Shared global culture and commercial audiences expanded
Mass automobile	Ford's 1908 Model T; 1913 production-time reduction	Organization and scale made technology widely affordable
Aviation	Wright 1903 → DC-3 → Comet 1952 / grounding 1954	War, safety, markets and competition shaped long-distance travel

Retrieval questions: (1) How did a faster price message increase profits without moving a ship faster? (2) Why did Britain seek secure cables just as wireless appeared? (3) Compare one peaceful and one violent use of the same communications technology. (4) Why was Ford's contribution industrial rather than an original invention? (5) Why could the Comet be a technical success before becoming a commercial setback? (6) What does Engel mean when he says globalization is a process rather than a destination?

CHAPTER 05

A Changing Diplomatic World

From New Diplomatic Aims to the Paradox of Foreign-Service Modernization

RALPH BLESSING

CENTRAL THESIS

Technology, total war, changing diplomatic ideals and a multiplication of international actors compelled foreign ministries to professionalize, expand, specialize and centralize. Yet the very changes that enlarged diplomatic work also shifted information, negotiation and policy into newsrooms, other ministries, international institutions and meetings between leaders. Blessing asks why **more foreign relations could mean less independent power for the traditional diplomat**.

TIMELINE

- **1827**
- **1855**
- **1877**
- **1905**
- **1906**
- **1907**
- **1917**
- **1918**
- **1924**
- **1934**
- **1943**
- **1953**
- **1999**
- **2004**

Blessing studies the **administration of foreign relations**—how foreign ministries and their overseas missions were organized—rather than treaties alone. He compares France, Germany, Britain and the United States because their institutions influenced wider diplomatic practice. Their varied experiences, however, must not be mistaken for a single model followed by every country.

Ⅰ A Changing World: Why Diplomacy Became More Complex

Faster technology, new aims and many more participants altered the work foreign ministries had to organize.

1. SPEED CHANGED BOTH COMMUNICATION AND AUTHORITY

In the nineteenth century, steamships and railways expanded trade, conquest and travel, creating new demands for consuls, embassies and reliable diplomatic mail. The telegraph then made urgent instructions and reports available across great distances in hours rather than weeks. This did more than save time: it let ministers at home supervise envoys who had formerly exercised broad discretion. Aviation, telephone, broadcasting, computers and the Internet intensified this trend. The modern foreign service therefore faced both faster decisions and a much larger information flow.

Mass-circulation newspapers gave growing sections of the public a way to follow foreign affairs and demand answers. Media coverage could also shape what governments treated as urgent. Technology thus changed diplomacy *indirectly* through public opinion, not merely by improving the means of sending messages.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Apply the three-cause model

Apply the model: a broadcaster reports a crisis immediately, an NGO publishes evidence, and a finance ministry joins the negotiations. Identify the role of technology, new actors and the enlarged diplomatic agenda. Why would an all-purpose political envoy struggle to handle this alone?

MEMORY ANCHOR

Wilson’s peace logic

1. **Democracy → credible commitments?**
2. **Trade → incentives not to fight?**
3. **Common security → deter aggression?**

Question mark matters: these were proposed mechanisms, not guaranteed results.

2. INDUSTRIAL WAR CHANGED WHAT DIPLOMACY WAS EXPECTED TO PREVENT

Blessing regards the industrialization of warfare as the most consequential technological and social shock. Chemical weapons in the First World War, the mobilization of entire economies and the mass air raids of the Second World War made total war a reality: combat increasingly struck societies far behind the front line. In his interpretation, the destruction discredited the older acceptance of war as a normal political instrument. He contrasts this experience with Clausewitz's nineteenth-century view of war as a continuation of politics by other means; the contrast expresses Blessing's account of changing diplomatic values, not a claim that all states stopped waging war.

Before 1918, what Blessing calls **old diplomacy** chiefly served each state's own political interests. Advocates of new diplomacy—especially President Woodrow Wilson from 1917 onward, though he did not invent the movement—made the **preservation of peace and the peaceful settlement of disputes** a principal objective. This changed not only diplomatic ideals but what foreign offices had to understand and administer.

The new peace programme had **three connected proposals**. First, **democracy**: Wilson assumed constitutional government would provide more trustworthy international commitments than militaristic autocracy and insisted on the Kaiser's departure before a German peace settlement. Second, **free trade**: supporters such as Norman Angell believed material interdependence would discourage war, while the economic arguments associated with David Ricardo promised greater shared prosperity and less domestic conflict. Third, **binding dispute settlement and common resistance to aggression**: states should have durable means of dealing with conflict without immediate resort to war. These were proponents' hopes, not outcomes guaranteed by democracy or trade.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

"New" diplomacy displaced power politics

Challenge the claim: a student argues that collective security made military strength irrelevant. Use Blessing's condition—that one aggressor must not be stronger than all the others combined—to explain why credible collective action still depended on political power and state decisions.

That third proposal departed from the older balance of power, under which Britain had repeatedly supported weaker European powers to prevent a dominant continental rival while also protecting its empire. In a system of collective security, members instead promise to assist a country under attack, so that a prospective aggressor would face all the others combined. The hope was that this common deterrent would prevent aggression; unlike shifting power alignments, the commitment would be enduring and institutionally organized. Blessing notes a fundamental condition: **no one aggressive state could be stronger than all other members together**. Effective arbitration and collective commitment remained vulnerable when states refused to cooperate.

3. THE DIPLOMATIC AGENDA EXPANDED BEYOND CONVENTIONAL POLITICS

New diplomacy added **economic and moral questions** to security and high politics. Ministries now had to reconcile commercial policy with strategic objectives and develop cultural diplomacy to influence public opinion overseas. Later issues included disease control—Blessing cites smallpox and HIV/AIDS—and environmental agreements such as the Rio Conference and Kyoto Protocol. Every new topic required specialist knowledge and coordination with departments that had previously been considered domestic.

The number of participants also multiplied. Decolonization in Asia and Africa, the collapse of the Soviet bloc and the break-up of empires created new states that needed foreign offices, embassies and bilateral contacts. International and regional organizations—the League of Nations, United Nations, European institutions, ASEAN and the Organization of American States—became diplomatic venues. Experts from business and government agencies joined negotiations; non-governmental organizations (NGOs) and multinational companies influenced policy from outside ministries; and global broadcasters such as CNN and Al-Jazeera became sources and setters of news.

Blessing also includes terrorism and the international response to September 11, 2001: violent non-state actors used communication media to influence public opinion, while intelligence and security services gained prominence. His example of online images circulated during the Iraq conflict belongs to the **early-2000s perspective of the article**, not an assertion about the current organization of diplomacy. The combined result was clear: state-to-state negotiations were now only one part of international relations.

II Administrative Response I: Careers and Expansion

Professional standards and expanding networks made diplomacy a permanent, much larger public service.

1. EXAMINATIONS DID NOT INSTANTLY END PRIVILEGE

The first response was professionalization: formal entry qualifications, examinations, recognized ranks and career paths in place of the ambassador's personal circle. Prussia introduced qualifications in **1827**; Britain followed in **1855** and France in **1877**. Career ranks were formalized in France in **1858** and Britain in **1861**. US consular appointments moved toward merit selection in **1906**, against the earlier spoils system of patronage appointments. These are distinct reforms: examination dates should not be confused with the dates of rank systems.

Yet professional rules did not produce immediate equality. British ministers could still nominate candidates; Russia's admission tests did not remove exclusions imposed on Jews and peasants. Some posts remained unpaid or paid only symbolically, effectively requiring private wealth. France did not begin paying its attachés until **1905**, after a period when candidates had to serve three unpaid years. The US Rogers Act of **1924** improved diplomats' salaries. Women too remained largely excluded well into the twentieth century. The older family embassy—an envoy taking personally selected staff overseas—gradually gave way to institutional staffing and transferable career officers.

MEMORY ANCHOR

Put these career reforms in order

- **1827** Prussian entry standards
- **1855** British entry standards
- **1905** French attaché pay
- **1924** US Rogers Act salaries

EXAM INSIGHT

Handle staffing figures carefully

Source-comparison exercise: France is counted from 1945 to 2004; the United States from 1900 to 1997; Germany's final figure belongs to Blessing's own period. What can these figures establish about expansion, and what would require matching years and definitions of foreign-service staff?

2. MORE STATES, MISSIONS AND INTERNATIONAL ORGANIZATIONS

Diplomatic services expanded **geographically** when Latin American states became independent in the nineteenth century, new European states appeared after the First World War, Asian and African countries gained independence after 1945, and the Soviet Union and Yugoslavia broke apart around 1990. A newly independent state needed missions abroad, while existing countries had to consider representation in the new state. Not every small state could afford embassies everywhere, but the cumulative growth in diplomatic contacts was enormous.

International institutions added another level. A state might maintain its normal embassy to Belgium *and* separate permanent missions to the European Union and NATO in Brussels. The League had already established a model of sustained multilateral diplomatic representation; the UN, UNESCO, FAO, OECD, OSCE and regional institutions multiplied specialist contacts after 1945. These networks expanded the number of duties even when the number of sovereign states did not change.

GROWTH IN FOREIGN-SERVICE STAFF — EXAMPLES CITED BY BLESSING (NOT COMPARABLE CURRENT HEADCOUNTS)

Foreign service	Earlier figure	Later figure
France	477 (1945)	9,293 (2004)
United States	1,228 (1900)	15,506 (1997)
Germany	About 350 (1900)	6,550 ("today" in Blessing’s period)

These numbers illustrate the expansion of the public machinery of diplomacy; they **cannot be read as synchronized growth rates or present-day staffing totals**. Different agencies also complicate comparisons: by the 1960s, Blessing reports that only about a third of staff serving at American missions abroad belonged to the State Department. As specialized agencies expanded, the personnel engaged in foreign affairs grew beyond the formal diplomatic service.

III Administrative Response II: Specialization and Centralization

Foreign ministries gained new departments while communications and direct meetings drew authority toward the centre.

1. POLITICAL DIPLOMACY, COMMERCE AND THE DIFFERENT NATIONAL ROUTES

As the agenda expanded, specialization became unavoidable. Older diplomatic branches had handled high politics, while the consular service worked mainly with merchants and commercial interests and generally had lower social status. Combining the two therefore integrated economic and political goals and also weakened an aristocratic professional boundary. France began the merger in **1907**, reorganizing the Quai d'Orsay into geographical divisions able to coordinate multiple functions for each area.

Germany merged the branches after the Kaiser's government fell in **1918**. Reform advocate Edmund Schüler even introduced two top civil-service secretaries, one dedicated to external economic affairs; this proved awkward and Germany returned to one in **1922**. Britain integrated its diplomatic and consular services only in **1943**. The United States retained a more fragmented system: even after the Second World War, specialists from Agriculture, intelligence and other agencies serving abroad remained answerable to departments in Washington rather than becoming a unified State Department service. **Modernization did not mean identical institutional forms.**

Foreign economic work developed at different speeds. France created a dedicated commercial-affairs section in **1919** and Germany acted soon afterward, partly in response to reconstruction, reparations and debts following the war. Britain created a joint Department of Overseas Trade and added an Economic Relations Section in **1934**; many financial questions still went to the Treasury. In the United States, overseas economic programmes and post-1945 reconstruction were frequently assigned to independent or semiautonomous bodies. More diplomatic issues thus came under government attention without necessarily being placed inside the foreign ministry.

DEFINITION

Quai d'Orsay

A common name for the **French Ministry of Foreign Affairs**, associated with its headquarters on the Quai d'Orsay in Paris. It is an institution, not a theory of diplomacy.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

What did combining services actually change?

Apply the merger to a trade dispute: a political envoy and a commercial consul previously had **separate structures**. A shared regional division could assess commercial interests and political consequences together.

HIGH-YIELD COMPARISON

Which reform model fits the example?

Case A: an overseas agriculture specialist answers to a department outside the foreign ministry. **Case B:** a single regional division handles political and consular affairs together. Which national administrative approaches do these resemble? Identify one coordination advantage or difficulty in each.

2. CULTURE, FOREIGN AUDIENCES AND DOMESTIC SCRUTINY

France's Alliance française, founded in **1883**, gave an early model for cultural influence beyond official negotiations. A French foreign-ministry cultural division followed in **1920**, and the Paris-based international intellectual-cooperation institute, a predecessor of UNESCO, was established in **1921**. German cultural work focused partly on German minorities abroad after 1918. Britain founded the British Council in **1934**, responding partly to European cultural competition and fascist propaganda; the United States created the US Information Agency (USIA) in **1953**, which was incorporated into the State Department in **1999**. These forms of public diplomacy addressed people abroad, not just their governments.

A second audience was **the public at home**. Parliamentary scrutiny and modern newspapers pressured ministries to explain foreign policy. Governments had long published selected diplomatic documents: British "bluebooks," German "whitebooks," French "yellowbooks," and the American series that became *Foreign Relations of the United States*. Yet publication could defend government conduct or promote propaganda rather than guarantee openness. The post-1918 publication campaigns over responsibility for the war gradually helped establish more scholarly, edited diplomatic-document series.

Foreign ministries also managed journalists and news circulation. Favoured reporters could obtain privileged access; governments could subsidize or manipulate papers; totalitarian regimes tightly aligned newspapers with official policy. During the First World War, Britain organized a War Propaganda Bureau, France operated its Maison de la Presse, Germany built propaganda units, and the United States established the Creel Committee in **1917**. Many wartime propaganda structures evolved into later press offices. **Open diplomacy as an ideal coexisted with deliberate management of information.**

MEMORY ANCHOR

Two publics, two tasks

Foreign audience	Domestic audience
Language, education, cultural influence	Press scrutiny, official documents, war mobilization

Identify who is being addressed before labeling a diplomatic communication.

EXAM INSIGHT

The attaché problem is coordination

Application: Germany's naval attaché in London pursued a tougher line while the embassy tried to ease tensions. If you were coordinating foreign policy, what reporting arrangement would you propose? Explain the trade-off between specialist expertise and a consistent diplomatic position. Your proposal is an exercise, not Blessing's historical policy.

3. MULTILATERAL INSTITUTIONS AND SPECIALIST OFFICERS

The League of Nations created a need for multilateral diplomacy and permanent offices dealing with international organizations. France built a dedicated League section; Germany prepared a corresponding department in **1923** before joining; Britain treated League affairs more modestly within the Western Department. The US, which never entered the League, had no equivalent League division. After the UN's creation in 1945, major states developed dedicated units for UN institutions, European integration, security, arms control and human rights.

Ministries also relied on the specialist attachés: military officers attached to missions, and later commercial and financial experts drawn from other ministries. Napoleon had used military specialists, but they became common as nineteenth-century rivalries intensified; Britain appointed commercial attachés from **1880** and France from **1908**. These officials provided intelligence, market information and policy expertise unavailable to an all-purpose envoy. But dual loyalties could produce conflicting instructions. Blessing's telling example is the pre-1914 German naval attaché in London, who pursued a harder military line even as the embassy sought to ease Anglo-German naval tensions.

4. THE PARADOX: EXPERTISE EXPANDED, DISCRETION NARROWED

As duties diversified, governments sought centralization. The telegraph made detailed instructions from the capital possible, and experts from finance, defence and other departments were easier to coordinate there than within faraway embassies. Blessing reports a **tenfold rise in telegrams to and from the US State Department between 1900 and 1914**. The information revolution thus increased both the ministry's workload and its ability to supervise its representatives.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

Two routes to central control

Telegraph	Conference/summit
Capital can instruct an envoy immediately	Ministers and leaders negotiate without the envoy as intermediary

Same outcome, different causal mechanisms.

Faster travel also promoted conference diplomacy: during the First World War British and French ministers regularly met directly; in the 1920s, League sessions in Geneva enabled informal encounters between Briand, Stresemann and Chamberlain. These "Geneva tea parties" encouraged temporary easing of tensions but could conceal political disagreements; ministers lacking a full brief might make impractical promises. summit diplomacy developed through leaders' wartime meetings at Tehran and Yalta, Cold War US–Soviet encounters, and later G7/G8 gatherings. Such meetings attracted attention, although results were not always proportionate to their spectacle.

shuttle diplomacy provided a further route: a mediator moved between adversaries who did not negotiate face to face, as US Secretary of State Henry Kissinger did between Israel and Egypt in the early 1970s. Direct ministerial, head-of-government and mediated channels meant that ambassadors no longer monopolized negotiation. Inside ministries, senior permanent officials also became key coordinators: Britain's permanent under-secretary dated from **1831**, France formalized its *secrétaire général* in **1920**, Germany developed a senior Staatssekretär in its post-1918 reforms, and the United States created an under-secretary of state position in **1919**. Institutional authority grew even as personal diplomatic freedom declined.

IV The End of Diplomacy? Blessing's Unresolved Question

A bigger diplomatic system does not automatically give conventional diplomats more control over foreign affairs.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Declining monopoly means no diplomacy

Diagnose the mistake: "NGOs and other ministries work internationally, therefore diplomacy has ended." What is the difference between *diplomatic activity* and the *traditional foreign service's exclusive control* of it? Use one example from Blessing to correct the argument.

HIGH-YIELD EXAM PROMPT

Argue both sides of the final question

Build a three-part conclusion: (1) present evidence that foreign offices lost exclusive control; (2) identify an ongoing need to coordinate external affairs; (3) explain why Blessing frames the institution's future as an early-twenty-first-century possibility rather than a settled verdict.

1. LOSS OF THE DIPLOMAT'S INFORMATION MONOPOLY

Foreign services once presented themselves as the state's overseas "eyes and ears." By the opening of the twenty-first century, global news networks frequently reported crises before embassy dispatches arrived, and NGOs such as Amnesty International or Greenpeace offered independently gathered information. Multinational companies, tourism and non-state organizations shaped relations beyond official channels. Intelligence agencies gained prominence during the "Global War on Terror"; Blessing treats the preparation of the Iraq war as an example of how foreign ministries could be sidelined. These observations reflect the author's historical vantage point rather than a definitive prediction that embassies were obsolete.

2. FOREIGN AFFAIRS NO LONGER BELONGED EXCLUSIVELY TO FOREIGN MINISTRIES

Finance ministers negotiated currency questions at G8 meetings; interior and justice ministers dealt with terrorism and migration; aid and intelligence acquired their own organizations. European integration made the distinction especially unstable: issues called "domestic," such as agriculture or policing, acquired European dimensions, and national specialists met their counterparts through the Council of the European Union. Even when foreign offices coordinated these activities, they no longer exclusively controlled them.

Blessing ends with a **paradox, not a verdict**. International affairs had grown more intense and complex, and foreign services had expanded and gained expertise. Nevertheless, the *relative authority of the traditional diplomatic branch* seemed to decline because many others now operated internationally. If domestic and foreign policy continued to overlap, an agency devoted *exclusively* to external affairs might eventually lose some of its rationale. Blessing asks us neither to celebrate nor to lament that possibility, but to explain the institutional change. **Diplomatic work could continue even if its organizational monopoly did not.**

§ Revision: The Four Responses and the Diplomatic Paradox

Retrieve the institutional mechanisms, compare national paths and test terminology without repeating the chapter.

Exam route: Start with *three causes*—technology and war, changed diplomatic ideals and agendas, and more actors. Explain *four administrative responses*—professionalization, expansion, specialization and centralization. Use France, Germany, Britain and the US to show that reforms were not uniform. End by explaining why the same changes that enlarged foreign affairs also reduced the exclusive authority of traditional diplomats.

THE AUTHOR'S MECHANISM: PRESSURES, INSTITUTIONAL RESPONSE AND THE NEW COMPLICATION

Pressure	Administrative response	Unresolved trade-off
Faster information and public scrutiny	More headquarters control, press offices	Less autonomy for envoys; managed information can coexist with openness
New states and international bodies	More staff, posts and permanent missions	Formal diplomatic headcounts understate cross-agency work
Economic, cultural and security issues	Expert departments, consular integration, attachés	Overlapping agencies and divided loyalties require coordination
Leaders' travel and transnational actors	Conferences, summits, interministerial participation	No single foreign ministry controls all external relations

REVISION MEMORY AID

Recall the four institutional responses

1. **Professionalization → career rules**
2. **Expansion → more missions and staff**
3. **Specialization → expert divisions**
4. **Centralization → decisions in capitals**

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS FOR DOTTED-UNDERLINED ACADEMIC TERMS

Academic term	Concise meaning
foreign service	The state institution and career officials who administer diplomatic and consular relations, including work in the home ministry and posts abroad.
total war	War mobilizing a society’s economy and population on a vast scale, eroding the distinction between combatants and civilians.
new diplomacy	The post-First World War reform ideal—associated especially with Woodrow Wilson—that gave priority to lasting peace, democracy, trade and international institutions.
balance of power	A strategy for preserving security by preventing any one state or alliance from becoming overwhelmingly stronger than the others.
collective security	A lasting arrangement in which states undertake to respond together against an aggressor, rather than relying solely on shifting alliances.
arbitration	The peaceful settlement of a dispute by submitting it to a third party or tribunal for a decision.
cultural diplomacy	Efforts to influence foreign societies and relations through language, education, cultural exchange and the presentation of national culture.
non-governmental organizations (NGOs)	Organizations outside direct government control that can provide expertise, advocacy or information affecting public policy and international affairs.
professionalization	The development of a career service based on formal qualifications, recognized ranks, training or merit rules rather than personal patronage alone.
spoils system	The awarding of government appointments chiefly as rewards to political supporters rather than through competitive professional selection.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS FOR DOTTED-UNDERLINED ACADEMIC TERMS (CONTINUED)

Academic term	Concise meaning
family embassy	An older model in which an ambassador brought a personally selected household and staff to a diplomatic posting.
permanent mission	A standing diplomatic delegation accredited to an international organization, distinct from an embassy accredited to a state.
specialization	The division of foreign-service work into distinct expert functions or geographical responsibilities to manage increasingly complex issues.
consular service	The branch historically concerned with commercial relations and assistance to nationals abroad, formerly often administratively separate from political diplomacy.
geographical divisions	Foreign-ministry units responsible for relations with particular world regions or states, coordinating political and often economic issues by area.
public diplomacy	Government communication directed at foreign publics, rather than solely at foreign governments, to shape opinion and relationships abroad.
multilateral diplomacy	Diplomatic negotiation and coordination involving several states, often through standing international organizations.
attaché	A specialist officer assigned to a diplomatic mission, often connected to a military, trade or other home-government ministry.
centralization	The transfer or concentration of diplomatic coordination and decision-making in the home capital or central administration instead of distant envoys.
conference diplomacy	Direct negotiations among ministers or senior officials meeting together, often in international conference settings.
summit diplomacy	Direct diplomatic meetings among heads of state or government rather than negotiations led only by ambassadors or ministers.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS FOR DOTTED-UNDERLINED ACADEMIC TERMS (CONTINUED)

Academic term	Concise meaning
shuttle diplomacy	Indirect negotiation in which a mediator travels repeatedly between parties who do not negotiate directly.

CHAPTER 06

The Triple Alliance

Study notes: The Irony of Stability — The Rise and Fall of the Triple Alliance

JÜRGEN ANGELOW AND GORDON MARTEL

CENTRAL THESIS

The Triple Alliance was intended to **protect newly established political orders, restrain allies, and avert war**. For decades, the European alliance system helped encourage peace. But by 1914 Germany and Austria-Hungary increasingly believed security required taking the risk of war, while Italy doubted that joining them would protect its interests. **Why did the two linked defensive alliances develop in such different directions?**

TIMELINE

- **1871**
- **1878**
- **1879**
- **1881**
- **1882**
- **1887**
- **1890**
- **1902**
- **1914**
- **1915**

Germany and Austria had recently fought each other, while Italy still had territorial disputes with the Habsburg monarchy. Their partnership did not signal shared ambitions: it was an attempt to manage distrust through conditional promises. Angelow and Martel ask **what those promises could actually guarantee** once governments began interpreting security differently.

I The Genesis of a New Order, 1871–1879

New and reconstructed powers fear being undone by war.

Between 1859 and 1871, war and political settlement transformed all three future partners. Prussia defeated Denmark (1864), Austria (1866) and France (1870–71) to establish the German Reich. The Habsburg defeat resulted in Austria-Hungary's constitutional reconstruction in 1867. Italy unified with French military and British diplomatic support, although important claims against Austria remained unresolved. Their rulers recognized a common danger: **states created through force could be unmade by another war**.

THE FUTURE ALLIANCE MEMBERS AFTER 1871

State	Formative event	Condition after 1871
German Empire	Victory in the Franco-Prussian War (1870–71)	A largely satisfied power, committed to preserving the status quo.
Austria-Hungary	Defeat in 1866; Compromise of 1867	Dual Monarchy, reconstructed, vulnerable to internal and external pressures.
Italy	Unification, 1861–70	Constitutional monarchy aspiring to Great Power standing.

HIGH-YIELD CONTRAST

States made by war

Compare motives: Germany had defeated France, Austria had lost to Prussia, and Italy still claimed Austrian territories. Which partners had unresolved territorial claims against each other? Explain why Berlin's mediation mattered.

APPLY THE IDEA

Bismarck's two-front problem

If Russia and France became allies, why would Austria-Hungary alone not guarantee German security? Explain Bismarck's effort to retain Russian goodwill.

THE CONGRESS OF BERLIN, 1878

After Russia defeated the Ottoman Empire, the Treaty of San Stefano proposed a Big Bulgaria that would greatly extend Russian influence in southeastern Europe. Britain and Austria-Hungary feared such gains; Russia wanted influence in the Balkans and security near the Black Sea Straits. At the **Congress of Berlin**, Bismarck acted as an "honest broker" in substantially reducing Bulgaria. The settlement avoided immediate Great Power war but left Russia believing its victory had been diminished, which increased its distrust of Berlin.

Bismarck feared that Russian disappointment might drive St Petersburg into partnership with a France animated by revanchisme. To avoid a two-front threat he sought to remain à trois, maintaining both Austrian and Russian relations. He also encouraged French colonial ambitions in North Africa, where disputes with Britain and Italy might distract Paris from recovering Alsace-Lorraine. These measures pursued **security for the Reich established in 1871**, not new German conquest in Europe.

Yet this militarized order also brought a long period without general war among the European Great Powers. The balance of power helped restrain confrontation: an attack on one power might bring several others into the conflict. **Deterrence could preserve peace without settling the grievances that threatened it**—the distinction at the heart of the chapter.

II Constructing the Bismarckian System

Overlapping commitments designed to reassure, deter and restrain.

MEMORY ANCHOR

The Bismarckian sequence

- **1879** Dual Alliance
- **1881** Three Emperors' League
- **1882** Triple Alliance
- **1887** Reinsurance Treaty

EXAM APPLICATION

What does an alliance actually require?

Suppose Italy launches an offensive colonial campaign. Which defensive condition is absent, and why would Berlin not automatically have to provide troops?

INSTITUTIONAL CONTEXT

Mancini Declaration

The Triplice was explicitly not directed against Britain. Why did the Royal Navy's Mediterranean strength matter when Italy calculated its security?

THE DUAL ALLIANCE, 1879

Germany and Austria-Hungary concluded the Dual Alliance. If either were attacked by **Russia**, the other would provide assistance; if attacked by another power, notably **France**, the partner would maintain benevolent neutrality. Its principal purpose was deterrence: Russia would hesitate to challenge Vienna in the Balkans if Berlin might also become an opponent.

THE THREE EMPERORS' LEAGUE AND REINSURANCE TREATY

Bismarck also tried to keep Russia within his diplomatic system. The Dreikaiserbund of 1881 emphasized monarchical solidarity against republicanism and radical social movements. Austro-Russian disputes over Bulgaria undermined it. Germany then signed the Reinsurance Treaty with Russia in 1887, a secret bilateral undertaking of neutrality.

THE TRIPLE ALLIANCE, 1882: THE *TRIPLICE*

Italy joined Germany and Austria-Hungary in 1882, despite Italy's historic antagonism with Vienna. France's annexation of Tunis in 1881, remembered in Rome as the slap of Tunisia, frustrated Italian hopes in North Africa and made Germany appear a useful anti-French ally. For Germany, the pact was an instrument of **"surveillance and pacification"**, intended to contain its allies' rival interests as much as to defend them.

THE TRIPLE ALLIANCE: COMMITMENTS AND LIMITS

Arrangement	Declared obligation	Practical limit
Germany and Italy	Mutual support if attacked by France.	The commitment was defensive, not an invitation to start a war.
All three	Action if one member was attacked by two other Great Powers, including France and Russia.	Such an attack created a casus foederis.

THE TRIPLE ALLIANCE: COMMITMENTS AND LIMITS (CONTINUED)

Arrangement	Declared obligation	Practical limit
Restraint clause	Common security through cooperation and consultation.	A member's aggressive war was not automatically covered.

These agreements were **not interchangeable**. A military guarantee required assistance only under defined circumstances; a league of monarchs promoted consultation without eliminating their rival interests; a secret neutrality treaty could preserve German–Russian relations yet appear disloyal to Vienna if revealed. Bismarck combined them to reduce the chance of war, not to create one unified command. That distinction explains why the formal alliance system could be extensive while its members remained uncertain of one another's behavior.

Rome's membership did not erase its dispute with Austria over Tyrol and Trieste. The alliance was a bargain among monarchs and their cabinets, not a popular national movement; Rome was treated as the less powerful member. Italy emphasized through the Mancini Declaration that the alliance was not aimed at Britain, whose Mediterranean fleet threatened its long coastline. During the Doppelkrise of 1885–87—Austro-Russian disputes over Bulgaria and renewed Franco-German tensions—Bismarck drew Britain toward Italy and Austria through Mediterranean understandings, but Britain never joined the Triple Alliance. Italy secured greater North African recognition and Balkan compensation provisions in the 1887 renewal without ending the rivalry with Vienna.

III The "New Course" and the Erosion of Stability

German global ambitions loosen the alliance's internal bonds.

GEOGRAPHIC RECALL

Identify the flashpoint

Match rival interests to **the Balkans, North Africa, and Alsace-Lorraine**. Which dispute most directly threatened to pull Russia and Austria-Hungary into conflict, and why did it matter for Germany's relationship with France?

APPLY THE COMPARISON

Membership versus separate promises

Italy retained the Triplice yet made a neutrality understanding with France. Explain how both positions could coexist on paper while undermining German confidence.

CRISIS COMPARISON

Morocco and Bosnia: two stress tests

In Morocco (1905), Italy followed France rather than Germany. In Bosnia (1908), Berlin backed Vienna's assertive policy. What two different forms of alliance weakness do these cases show?

1. COUNTERVAILING ALLIANCES AND GERMANY'S NEW AMBITIONS

Bismarck resigned in 1890, and his successors did not renew the Reinsurance Treaty with Russia. France and Russia developed their own countervailing alignment, marked by the French fleet's visit to Kronstadt in 1891 and a military convention in 1893. For a time the resulting balance could encourage restraint: neither coalition wished to risk a general war. Meanwhile, Italy renewed the Triple Alliance in 1891 but continued colonial expansion under Francesco Crispi. Its defeat at Adowa damaged Italy's imperial standing and demonstrated that treaty membership did not guarantee success overseas.

Germany then moved toward Weltpolitik, a world-power policy associated with Bernhard von Bülow and a high-seas fleet begun in 1897. Berlin hoped Britain would eventually need German support against French and Russian imperial competition. Britain instead resisted entry into the alliance, while naval rivalry intensified. Vienna and Rome had no wish to inherit a conflict with Britain that their alliance had not originally contemplated. **German global ambitions therefore made its existing allies less confident in German leadership.**

2. ALLIES FOUND SECURITY OUTSIDE THE TRIPLE ALLIANCE

Italy still pursued Italia irredenta, including claims to Austrian-held Tyrol and Trieste, while also seeking cooperation with France over North Africa. The improvement of Franco-Italian relations culminated in a 1902 neutrality understanding: Rome promised not to fight France in certain wars France had not provoked. Italy remained a formal member of the Triple Alliance, but Berlin could no longer assume Rome would fight France. This distinction between **treaty membership** and **practical diplomatic choice** became increasingly important.

Austria-Hungary similarly sought to reduce its dependence on Berlin. It improved relations with Russia from 1897, reached the Mürzsteg Convention of 1903 for joint supervision of Balkan affairs, and agreed to benevolent neutrality with Russia in 1904. Such agreements reduced immediate Austro-Russian tension but could leave Germany unable to rely on Austria-Hungary in a conflict with Russia. Far from ending the Triple Alliance at once, these separate understandings made its obligations harder to predict.

3. SUCCESSIVE CRISES REVEAL THE DIVISIONS, 1905–1913

During the Moroccan crisis of 1905, Germany expected Italian diplomatic support, but Rome followed its French understanding at Algeciras. The Austro-Russian settlement weakened after Russia's war with Japan and renewed focus on the Balkans. In 1908 Austria-Hungary annexed Bosnia-Herzegovina, which it had administered since 1878 but which had remained formally Ottoman territory. Berlin supported Vienna's initiative, Russia was forced to accept it, and Italy preferred a conference. **The Dual Alliance was moving away from simply defending territory toward supporting Austrian attempts to change the Balkan order.**

In the 1911 Moroccan crisis, Italy seized an opportunity to pursue Libya during its war against the Ottoman Empire, without the sustained support it had expected from its partners. The Balkan Wars of 1912–13 sharpened Austro-Italian rivalry over Albania. Austrian military planners even considered a preventive war against Italy, though they did not carry it out. Controversy over a German military mission to Constantinople in 1913 added to the tension. The alliance persisted legally, but **each government increasingly pursued its own interests even when they conflicted with a partner's**. This was the erosion of solidarity that would matter in 1914.

IV Military Failure and the July Crisis

Defensive treaties fail to create a common military strategy.

1. MILITARY PLANNING HAD NOT CAUGHT UP WITH DIPLOMACY

Berlin and Vienna made military contacts after the Dual Alliance, but their plans diverged as Germany concentrated more forces on an offensive against France. Berlin assumed Austria-Hungary would contain Russia in the east. Vienna, however, saw Serbia as its more urgent opponent and assumed Germany would cover the Russian danger. Even renewed staff discussions after 1909 did not solve that contradiction. **Each partner counted on military help the other had not adequately planned to provide.**

Italian coordination was weaker still. An arrangement of 1888 envisaged Italian troops supporting Germany against France, while a naval agreement in 1900 merely divided operating zones rather than integrating fleets. A three-power Mediterranean naval convention followed in 1913, but little confidence resulted. In 1912 Italy had been willing to promise mobilization without clearly promising deployment; even later assurances of Rhine-bound forces did not convince Berlin and Vienna that Italy would actually fight. The alliances were political understandings without a dependable common operational plan.

2. THE JULY CRISIS WIDENED THE MEANING OF DEFENSE

After the assassination of Archduke Franz Ferdinand in June 1914, Austria-Hungary decided to confront Serbia in order to protect the Habsburg monarchy from nationalist challenges. German leaders feared that the Franco-Russian coalition was growing stronger and that failure to assist Vienna might isolate Germany. Both governments judged a risky war now preferable to what they perceived as a weaker position later. This **offensive initiative justified as necessary for security** differed sharply from Bismarck’s original efforts to restrain allies from creating crises.

EXAM INSIGHT

Repair the coordination gap

Staff-planning exercise: Austria sends its main forces toward Serbia while Germany concentrates against France, but Russia mobilizes. What important advance agreement between the allies is missing, and why could its absence worsen both fronts?

CRITICAL SEQUENCE

Italy's exit

- **1912** Deployment uncertain
- **1914** Neutrality after no consultation
- **1915** Joins Entente

TEST THE CLAIM

Was Italy bound to fight in 1914?

Evaluate defensive treaty language, missing consultation and Italy’s interests. Why do Angelow and Martel describe Italian neutrality as a choice under constraints?

Germany and Austria-Hungary did not properly consult Italy about the Serbian policy, partly because they already doubted Rome's loyalty. Rome regarded the conflict as outside the alliance's defensive conditions and treated the lack of consultation as a further reason not to participate. Italian **neutrality in August 1914** was therefore not automatic: the authors emphasize that the Italian government could have interpreted its obligations and interests differently. But Berlin and Vienna's distrust helped produce the exclusion that then strengthened Italy's decision to remain neutral.

3. FROM NEUTRALITY TO THE END OF THE TRIPLICE, 1915

Once war began, Rome negotiated with both camps for compensation. Austria-Hungary initially refused major concessions and later offered too little, even under German pressure. The Entente's inducements were more attractive. Italy formally terminated its Triple Alliance commitment on **3 May 1915** and declared war on Austria-Hungary on **23 May 1915**. Angelow and Martel do not claim that Italian entry alone determined the final outcome. They do stress that Italian neutrality in 1914 redirected resources Berlin and Vienna considered essential for a rapid victory.

The chapter closes with a distinction rather than a simple verdict. For decades, the alliances had helped preserve peace by restraining aggressive moves and increasing the costs of a general war. But they did not resolve clashes over France, Italy or the Balkans. In 1914 the **Dual Alliance tightened** because Germany and Austria-Hungary believed they could survive only by standing together, even at the risk of war. The **Triple Alliance fractured** because Italy no longer saw loyalty as securing its interests. Thus a defensive system designed to preserve European monarchies contributed to the war that helped destroy the Hohenzollern and Habsburg political orders.

§ Revision: The Alliance Paradox

An architecture of security ultimately helps destroy its creators.

THE FINAL ACCOUNTING

Key idea	Historical significance
Bismarck's goal	Secure the *Kaiserreich* through a conservative status quo and the isolation of France.
The paradox	Pacts meant to deter war reinforced opposing blocs and amplified the consequences of crisis.
Military disharmony	Independent and uncoordinated strategies exposed “wishful thinking” at the heart of planning.
Legacy	Italian defection in 1915 changed the balance and contributed to the eventual destruction of the Hohenzollern and Habsburg empires.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS FOR INTERACTIVE ACADEMIC TERMS

Academic term	Concise meaning
Dual Monarchy	The 1867 constitutional arrangement that increased Hungarian political authority within Austria-Hungary.
Big Bulgaria	The enlarged Bulgarian territory proposed after Russia's defeat of the Ottoman Empire, reduced by the Congress of Berlin in 1878.
revanchisme	French desires to avenge the 1871 defeat and recover Alsace and Lorraine.
à trois	Bismarck's aim to remain linked with three of Europe's five Great Powers rather than face an isolated Germany.
balance of power	The arrangement in which Great Powers sought to prevent any one power or coalition from dominating Europe.

REVISION ANCHOR

Four stages of the paradox

1. Reassurance
2. Counter-blocs
3. Weak coordination
4. Collapse

KEY TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS FOR INTERACTIVE ACADEMIC TERMS (CONTINUED)

Academic term	Concise meaning
Dual Alliance	The German–Austro-Hungarian defensive agreement of 1879, focused especially on Russian attack.
benevolent neutrality	Friendly neutrality rather than immediate military action, under the relevant defensive treaty conditions.
Dreikaiserbund	The Three Emperors' League among Germany, Austria-Hungary and Russia, renewed in 1881 for consultation and conservative solidarity.
Reinsurance Treaty	The secret 1887 German–Russian agreement providing qualified neutrality after the Three Emperors' League failed.
slap of Tunisia	Italian resentment at France's annexation of Tunis in 1881, which frustrated Rome's North African ambitions.
casus foederis	The treaty-defined circumstance that triggers an ally's duty to intervene, such as an unprovoked attack covered by the agreement.
Doppelkrise	The two overlapping crises of 1885–87: Austrian–Russian tension over Bulgaria and renewed French–German hostility.
Weltpolitik	Germany's post-Bismarck global-power policy, associated with naval and overseas expansion.
Italia irredenta	Italian nationalist claims to territories regarded as Italian but still ruled by Austria-Hungary, including Tyrol and Trieste.
Mürzsteg Convention	The 1903 Austro-Russian agreement to supervise Balkan affairs jointly and reduce conflict between Vienna and St Petersburg.

> *“The Triple Alliance was not a combination of ‘nations’ but one of monarchs and their cabinets ... intended to work against the republican and anticlerical movements ... to assure the maintenance of social and political order.”*

Source-analysis question: the historians describe the alliance as a pact of monarchs and cabinets rather than nations. How could an agreement meant to protect rulers coexist with Italian nationalist demands for Austrian territory? Use that contradiction to distinguish *dynastic security* from *nationalist ambitions* in an examination answer.

CHAPTER 07

The Ententes, 1894–1914

Study notes: Understandings, choices and the road to war

KEITH NEILSON

CENTRAL THESIS

Why did Britain fight beside France and Russia in 1914 without first promising either automatic military support? Neilson follows colonial bargains, German pressure and Britain's attempts to preserve freedom of action. The **Triple Entente became a firm wartime grouping through choices and events**, not through a predetermined treaty mechanism.

TIMELINE

- **1815**
- **1890**
- **1894**
- **1895**
- **1898**
- **1902**
- **1904**
- **1905**
- **1906**
- **1907**
- **1908**
- **1909**
- **1911**
- **1912**
- **1913**
- **1914**

Keith Neilson asks not why Europe formed one fixed anti-German alliance but **how separate agreements came to resemble a single camp**. France and Russia made a formal commitment; Britain sought to protect a worldwide empire and the European balance without promising military action in advance. The resulting partnerships became closer, but their final shape still depended on politics and events.

Ⅰ France and Russia: an Unlikely Alliance

Different political systems, complementary strengths.

After the **Congress of Vienna (1815)** the major powers had sought to restrain France. Bismarck renewed its isolation after the Franco-Prussian War (1870–71) to discourage French revanche. His dismissal in 1890 and Germany's expanding strength unsettled that arrangement. In **1894** the Franco-Russian Alliance made a two-front problem possible for Germany. Yet their partnership was anything but inevitable: republican France defended forms of citizenship and government alien to tsarist Russia, while influential Russian groups favoured partnership with Germany.

THE RESOURCES THAT MADE COOPERATION PLAUSIBLE

Demography and finance outweighed that ideological gap. France faced a demographic trough, with fewer potential conscripts relative to Germany; Russia's population expanded by roughly **two-thirds between 1861 and 1914**. Russia needed foreign capital for economic growth, whereas France possessed surplus investment capital. Each could therefore help supply what the other lacked. Shared concern about Germany made this exchange strategically attractive, even though neither society suddenly embraced the other's political values.

COMPARE CAUSES

How can opposites cooperate?

Give one political difference between France and Russia, then identify the demographic and financial reasons that overcame it.

APPLY THE MECHANISM

Two-front deterrence

Why did Germany have to reconsider its position if France and Russia might fight together? Explain without assuming their ideologies were similar.

The 1894 combination did not yet predetermine a general European division. Britain was outside it and was uncertain what the secret Franco-Russian treaty meant. As both France and Russia were imperial competitors of Britain, London even feared the alliance could operate against British naval or Asian interests. **Opposition to Germany was not its only conceivable use.**

II The British Enigma: Freedom of Choice

The empire required selective cooperation rather than permanent isolation.

Britain stood outside both the Triple Alliance and the Franco-Russian combination. The expression splendid isolation is misleading: London had entered limited arrangements whenever its interests required, including Mediterranean understandings in 1887. Its Royal Navy and geographical position made continued freedom of manoeuvre possible. With the European coalitions roughly balanced, Britain could choose whether and when to intervene while concentrating resources on the empire.

WHY BERLIN EXPECTED A NATURAL BRITISH ALLY

Germany's leaders assumed Britain's disagreements with France in Africa and Russia near India, combined with Protestant affinities, dynastic connections, major trade links and earlier cooperation with Prussia, made an Anglo-German partnership natural. Some also invoked Social Darwinist claims of Anglo-Saxon and German kinship. These expectations failed to account for **British resistance to a promise to defend Germany's eastern frontier against Russia**. Commercial and cultural similarities did not outweigh Britain's need for independence.

TEST THE LABEL

Was Britain isolated?

Name one limited diplomatic agreement Britain made while remaining outside the continental blocs. What advantage did this flexibility provide?

REVERSE AN ASSUMPTION

Why Berlin misread London

Germany expected British disagreements with France and Russia to guarantee partnership. Which British security concern made that inference unsafe?

OVERSEAS DISPUTES OVERTURNED A COMFORTABLE ARRANGEMENT

During the **Sino-Japanese War of 1894–95**, Japan defeated China. The Triple Intervention by France, Germany and Russia then limited Japanese gains. Britain refused to participate, judging a stronger European presence in Asia less desirable than Japan's success. Germany obtained Tsingtao and Russia Port Arthur; disputes over Chinese railway concessions deepened British unease. The Fashoda Crisis of 1898 brought Britain and France near war over the Upper Nile and British influence in Egypt. The Boer War from 1899 further exhausted British resources and weakened its European leverage.

These crises suggested that imperial affairs could no longer be kept apart from European diplomacy. British ministers discussed whether to join a bloc or instead make targeted settlements. Exploratory agreements with Russia over China were undermined by Russian pressure in Manchuria and along the approaches to India. Talks with Germany also failed because Berlin wanted a British pledge against Russia that London found excessive. A younger “Edwardian” generation wanted preventive diplomacy; the older “Victorian” leaders had preferred responses to individual crises.

(II) Imperial Settlements, 1902–1907

Reducing friction did not mean accepting a European war obligation.

1902: A REGIONAL PARTNERSHIP WITH JAPAN

Foreign Secretary **Lord Lansdowne** signed the Anglo-Japanese Alliance on **29 January 1902**. Its purpose was to share the defence burden in East Asia. Neilson explicitly warns against regarding this as an alliance with one of the European blocs: it was a regional solution to an imperial problem.

IMPERIAL STRATEGY

Two problems, two partners

Britain wants to **share the cost of East Asian defence** and **reduce Russian pressure near India**. Which different diplomatic partners address each problem, and why could neither agreement solve both?

TREATY TEST

When must Britain fight?

If Russia enters a war over the Balkans, which 1904 or 1907 agreement legally obliges British soldiers to intervene? Distinguish cooperation from a military guarantee.

1904: THE ANGLO-FRENCH ENTENTE CORDIALE

France's foreign minister **Théophile Delcassé** concluded that rivalry with Britain could not be sustained alongside the greater threat posed by Germany. The Entente Cordiale of **April 1904** resolved colonial questions in Egypt, Southeast Asia and Newfoundland. It eliminated irritants that had made confrontations such as Fashoda possible. Its contemporary reputation was primarily peace-making: **it contained no binding British promise to join France in a European war**. The timing later gave it a significance beyond its legal provisions.

1907: RUSSIA CHOOSES EUROPEAN RECOVERY OVER ASIAN RIVALRY

The Russo-Japanese War and Russian domestic disturbances damaged St Petersburg's military and finances. Foreign minister **Alexander Izvolsky** decided rebuilding Russia's European position mattered more than continuing conflict with Britain. The Anglo-Russian Convention of **31 August 1907** established spheres of influence in Persia, stipulated that Russia would deal with Afghanistan through Britain, and restricted interference in Tibet. Britain wanted to protect India's approaches and restore the wider European balance; Russia wanted time and space to recover.

After 1907 the phrase Triple Entente suggested Britain, France and Russia were a single counterweight to the Triple Alliance. But the agreements did not connect into one treaty. The **Franco-Russian Alliance** remained a formal alliance; Britain's understandings with each partner were distinct colonial arrangements. Some even proposed a “Quadruple Entente” including Japan, but neither name created a shared military command. A map of two neatly opposed blocs therefore overstated the certainty of actual obligations.

Ⅳ Edward Grey: Partnership Without a Blank Cheque

The balancing act rested on maintaining Britain's decision-making freedom.

Sir **Edward Grey**, foreign secretary from 1905 and one of the Liberal Imperialists, saw international disputes through both liberal ideas and strategic necessity. He supported legal restraints and negotiation but accepted that threatened force mattered. Radical Liberals in his party opposed foreign entanglements and friendship with autocratic Russia. Grey wanted France and Russia strong enough to resist German coercion, but **not so sure of British help that they acted recklessly**. He also hoped Britain could mediate between opposing coalitions.

MOROCCO IN 1905: HOW FAR DID BRITAIN PROMISE TO GO?

During Russia's war against Japan, Germany tried to separate Russia from France and then challenged French claims in Morocco in **1905**. Grey refused to see France bullied and authorized Anglo-French staff talks about possible naval and army cooperation. The conversations were exploratory rather than binding; Neilson also rejects the later allegation that Grey deliberately concealed their possible implications from his cabinet. German pressure eased and the matter was handled at **Algeciras in 1906**. Britain had shown interest in France's security without guaranteeing intervention.

NAVAL COERCION PRODUCES AN OPPOSITE RESULT

Grey pursued arms limitation at the **Second Hague Peace Conference (1907)** and also sought a workable Anglo-German understanding. Yet Germany expanded its risk fleet under Admiral **Alfred von Tirpitz**. Berlin reasoned that the prospect of damage to the Royal Navy would compel Britain to accept German terms. Britain instead intensified naval competition, highlighted by the launch of HMS Dreadnought in **1906**. The contest reduced momentum around 1912. Germany's policy had encouraged precisely the British distrust it meant to overcome.

APPLY GREY'S STRATEGY

Support, but not a blank cheque

Why might promising France unconditional help make a crisis more dangerous even if the promise deterred Germany?

UNINTENDED CONSEQUENCE

Tirpitz's gamble

Instead of joining Germany, why might Britain respond to a threatened navy by building more ships and seeking other diplomatic partners?

The weakness of this policy lay **not in a lack of diplomatic contact, but in its dependence on others accepting compromise**. Grey could preserve Britain's choice only while the parties in a crisis were willing to stop short of war.

Ⓥ Crises Expose the Limits, 1908–1911

Diplomatic sympathy could not be equated with readiness for war.

BOSNIA AND CASABLANCA, 1908–1909

Austria-Hungary's annexation of **Bosnia in 1908** angered Russia, whose foreign minister expected compensation and sought a conference. Britain and France supported diplomatic discussion, **not war**. When Germany backed Austria-Hungary in 1909, Russia had to yield. At roughly the same time Berlin pressured France over Casablanca, confident of Russian weakness and British reluctance to fight. Neither crisis revealed an Entente capable of automatic collective military action.

Attempts to rearrange relationships continued. Germany offered colonial and naval settlement to Britain in 1909, but demanded British neutrality in a future European war; Grey rejected the exchange and proposed a broader discussion including France and Russia. The Potsdam conversations of **late 1910** reflected Russia's wish to improve relations with Germany while it rebuilt its forces. Grey tolerated the talks so long as the 1907 Anglo-Russian Convention was not undermined. The Entente was **neither fixed nor immune to alternative negotiations**.

CONTRAST THE CRISES

Bosnia and Agadir

Compare diplomatic support for Russia in 1908 with British staff planning for France in 1911. Did either constitute an automatic British commitment to fight?

EXAM MISCONCEPTION

A war plan is not a war decision

After military officials identify how troops could be sent, who must still decide whether to send them? Apply the distinction to the 1911 CID meeting.

AGADIR 1911: PLANNING VERSUS THE DECISION TO SEND TROOPS

Germany again challenged France at **Agadir in Morocco, 1911**. Russia offered only restrained support to Paris until the threat of war had decreased. Grey preferred a conference but resisted German bullying. On **23 August 1911** the Committee of Imperial Defence discussed options, including sending a British Expeditionary Force to France. Neilson insists that this meeting did **not** make Britain irrevocably committed: civilian ministers and politicians retained the decision whether to send any force.

These discussions provoked a Radical Liberal backlash. Opposition to Russian actions in Persia, distaste for tsarism and fears that staff planning had been allowed to dictate policy led to a cabinet revolt. Grey survived by repeating that his country's support for France and Russia was conditional and that negotiations with Germany should continue. **Domestic politics remained part of alliance politics.**

VI From Mediation to War, 1912–1914

The final alignment remained an open political choice.

GREY KEPT SEARCHING FOR OTHER POSSIBILITIES

The Haldane mission to Germany in **1912** failed when Berlin again insisted on British neutrality in any European war as the price of naval accommodation. Grey also declined a French proposal for Britain to enter a Franco-Russian naval arrangement. During the First Balkan War he cooperated with Germany rather than automatically siding with France and Russia, leading to the **London ambassadors' conference of December 1912**. He privately warned Berlin Britain might not stand aside in a generalized conflict, but did not promise Paris or St Petersburg that it would intervene.

DECISION SCENARIO

Both victories had costs

Identify one danger to Britain from a Central Powers victory and one from a Franco-Russian victory if Britain stayed neutral. What changed its final calculation?

By mid-**1913**, Russia's recovery restored something of the old balance of power. This seemed to make it possible for Britain to return to its earlier independent diplomacy. Yet a newly assertive Russia also challenged British interests in Persia, raising questions about the future of the Anglo-Russian Convention. Britain was thus **not sliding inevitably into a rigid anti-German military alliance**.

JULY 1914: THE END OF THE BALANCING ACT

Grey first tried to work with Berlin to convene a conference when the **July 1914** crisis began. But Germany gave Austria-Hungary unqualified backing, and Vienna was determined to enforce its demands on Serbia. British participation was still uncertain: France attempted to avoid provocative frontier incidents, and Russia urgently requested British aid. Those actions would have been unnecessary if a British war pledge had already settled the matter.

Neutrality carried competing dangers. A victory by the Central Powers could leave Germany dominant on the continent; a Franco-Russian victory with Britain outside the war could leave London facing powerful imperial rivals. When the **German attacks on France and Russia** began, joining the conflict appeared the **lesser of two evils** for British security and the European balance. The effective Anglo-Franco-Russian wartime alliance emerged in **August 1914** from these decisions, not automatically from the treaties of 1904 and 1907.

The decisive distinction is between **diplomatic cooperation, military preparation and a binding decision to fight**. Neilson shows that these were related but never interchangeable. A textbook map can place Britain alongside France and Russia before 1914; it cannot show the room for independent judgment that British governments retained until the final crisis.

§ Revision: An Entente Made by Events

Test legal obligations and explain the choices.

WHICH COMMITMENTS WERE ACTUALLY BINDING?

Agreement	Purpose	Essential distinction
France–Russia, 1894	Check German power	Formal military alliance despite ideological differences.
Britain–Japan, 1902	Share Asian defence burdens	Regional pact, not a continental agreement.
Britain–France, 1904	End colonial friction	No automatic British military duty.
Britain–Russia, 1907	Manage Asian disputes	No war guarantee; Persia remained contentious.

FOUR TESTS OF NEILSON'S ARGUMENT

Crisis	Why it matters
Morocco, 1905	Military discussions were exploratory.
Bosnia, 1908	Britain and France offered diplomacy, not war.
Agadir, 1911	Defence planning did not override civilian control.
July 1914	British participation still depended on diplomacy and political judgment.

REVISION FRAMEWORK

Four steps to the argument

1. **Separate treaty types**
2. **Find imperial bargains**
3. **Test crisis limits**
4. **Explain 1914 choices**

ACADEMIC TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS

Term	Explanation
revanche	France's desire to reverse the defeat of 1870–71, especially the loss of Alsace-Lorraine.
Franco-Russian Alliance	The formal 1894 alliance between republican France and autocratic Russia, intended to offset German strength.
demographic trough	A period of relatively slow population growth that restricted France's pool of conscripts.
splendid isolation	A misleading name for Britain's preference to avoid fixed European blocs while keeping freedom for limited agreements.
Triple Intervention	The 1895 action of France, Germany and Russia that pressured Japan to reduce the gains it had made from China.
Fashoda Crisis	The British-French confrontation in 1898 over the Upper Nile and French challenges to Britain's position in Egypt.
Anglo-Japanese Alliance	The regional pact of 29 January 1902 intended to share Britain's burden of defending East Asian interests.
Entente Cordiale	The April 1904 British-French colonial settlements; they did not require Britain to fight in a continental war.
Russo-Japanese War	The 1904–05 conflict that damaged Russian military strength and finances, and influenced European diplomacy.
Anglo-Russian Convention	The 31 August 1907 agreement settling British and Russian imperial disputes in Persia, Afghanistan and Tibet.
spheres of influence	Areas in which a state's political or economic influence was recognized without full annexation.
Triple Entente	The collective label for Britain, France and Russia after 1907; unlike the Franco-Russian Alliance, its British arrangements were not military guarantees.
Liberal Imperialists	The British Liberal grouping including Edward Grey that upheld imperial security and continuity in foreign policy.
staff talks	Exploratory military and naval planning conversations, not themselves legally binding decisions to send troops.

ACADEMIC TERMINOLOGY — PRINT-SAFE DEFINITIONS (CONTINUED)

Term	Explanation
risk fleet	Tirpitz's plan to build a German fleet dangerous enough that Britain would supposedly have to accommodate Berlin.
Dreadnought	The innovative British battleship launched in 1906 that symbolized the growing Anglo-German naval competition.
Potsdam conversations	The German-Russian negotiations of late 1910 that sought better relations while Russia was recovering its strength.
Committee of Imperial Defence	The British body in which politicians and military officials considered defence plans, subject to civilian decision-making.
British Expeditionary Force	The British army formation whose possible dispatch to aid France was studied but required political approval.
Haldane mission	The 1912 British attempt to discuss naval settlement with Germany, which foundered over Berlin's demand for British neutrality.

Source-analysis question: Why is it misleading to write, “The Triple Entente automatically brought Britain into war in 1914”? Distinguish the *Franco-Russian Alliance*, Britain's two *colonial agreements*, the *staff talks*, and the *political choices made in July–August 1914*. Use either Bosnia or Agadir as evidence.

CHAPTER 08

The July Crisis

Study notes: The July Crisis — Choices and Consequences

SAMUEL R. WILLIAMSON JR.

CENTRAL THESIS

How did Austria-Hungary's confrontation with Serbia become a European war? Williamson traces five stages in which Vienna and Berlin bore the leading responsibility, yet decisions elsewhere also mattered. War was **advertent**: leaders accepted and escalated risks rather than being helplessly pulled along by treaty machinery.

TIMELINE

- **1911**
- **1912**
- **1913**
- **1914**
- **1915**
- **1919**
- **1920**

Emperor Franz Joseph signed a declaration of war on Serbia on **28 July 1914**, exactly a month after the Sarajevo assassinations. Almost all Europe's Great Powers were at war within ten days. Samuel R. Williamson Jr. asks why senior statesmen **accepted decisions that steadily removed opportunities for restraint**. Sarajevo supplied the trigger; long-term crises increased the pressure, but neither geography nor alliances independently forced the catastrophe.

I Europe's Worsening Position, 1911–1913

Successive confrontations made war increasingly thinkable.

MOROCCO, ARMIES AND PERCEIVED ENCIRCLEMENT

The Agadir Crisis of **1911** ended with France gaining Morocco and Germany a slice of French Congo. French politicians celebrated; General **Joseph Joffre** became chief of staff and developed offensive planning, and **Raymond Poincaré** later strengthened ties to Russia and Britain and backed France's three-year-service law. Italy used Ottoman vulnerability to invade Libya. Berlin concluded that its land army was falling behind the Franco-Russian combination and added **136,000 troops** by 1914; France and Russia increased forces in response. The German naval race with Britain eased somewhat, but German fears of strategic “encirclement” deepened.

THE BALKAN WARS: AN UNSETTLING LESSON IN COERCION

The Balkan League formed in 1912 with Russian encouragement. Montenegro attacked Ottoman positions in October; its partners, including Serbia, rapidly gained territory and prestige. Habsburg foreign minister **Count Leopold Berchtold** promoted independent Albania to deny Serbia an Adriatic outlet. Vienna contemplated force against Serbia in 1912, Montenegro in 1913, and Serbia again that October, when Belgrade complied with a seven-day ultimatum. These episodes appeared to validate militant diplomacy: threaten neighbours until they retreat. But Russia had troops close to the Habsburg frontier and could intervene in another Serbian crisis.

PRECEDENT TEST

Why Vienna misjudged resistance

Repeated Serbian retreats made threats seem effective. What would change if Russia refused to remain on the sidelines?

LINK THE SCALES

A foreign and domestic problem

How did nationalism *inside* the Habsburg monarchy make policy toward neighbouring Serbia more threatening?

Vienna's international anxieties were tied to domestic struggles. Czechs, Romanians and South Slavs challenged the multiethnic empire; Hungary's Premier **István Tisza** feared adding further Slavic subjects. Italy quarrelled with Vienna over Albania, and Romania drifted toward Russia. Germany worried about the **Liman von Sanders** dispute involving Ottoman forces, an improving Russian military and Anglo-French or Anglo-Russian staff conversations. Nor was the Entente stable: Ireland distracted Britain, socialists challenged French military policy, and Russian strikes increased. **Neither alliance was a single, disciplined bloc.**

II Sarajevo: A Plot and a State Divided

Secret military networks must not be confused with civilian authorization.

The Balkan victories enlarged Serbia and brought new clashes between its elected leadership and military intelligence. Prime Minister **Nikola Pašić** wanted civilian control; Colonel Dragutin Dimitrijević, nicknamed **Apis**, headed intelligence and helped found the Black Hand, a clandestine Greater Serbian movement. When **Gavrilo Princip, Trifko Grabež and Nedeljko Čabrinović** proposed assassinating Franz Ferdinand, Apis arranged weapons and their smuggling into Bosnia. Williamson treats the Black Hand network and official Serbian government as **different political actors**.

HOW MUCH DID BELGRADE KNOW?

By early June Interior Minister **Stefan Protić** warned Pašić about the plot. Pašić authorized attempts to stop the conspirators and demanded an army explanation, while Apis concealed what his organization had done. Some Serbian ministers were aware of the danger before the archduke's visit, but the author finds **no hard evidence of an official warning to Vienna**. Whether Russian attaché **Victor Artamonov** knew remains uncertain. That evidence does not justify a simple claim that the entire Serbian cabinet ordered the murder.

STANDARDS OF PROOF

Knowledge versus authorization

Which is better supported: Apis assisting the plot, some civilian foreknowledge, or formal cabinet authorization? Explain why they are not interchangeable.

CAUSAL REASONING

If the driver had taken the right turn

Would preventing the murders remove the Balkan disputes? Distinguish the **trigger** from the **prior pressures**.

28 JUNE: AN ACCIDENTAL ENCOUNTER, NOT AN AUTOMATIC WAR

The archduke and his wife **Sophie** travelled through Sarajevo during the Serbian commemoration of Kosovo in 1389. An assassin's bomb missed its intended effect. Later, General Oskar Potiorek failed to inform the driver that the procession had changed route. When the car stopped to reverse, Princip shot the couple. The wrong turn was accidental; the subsequent transformation of the deaths into a European war involved **new decisions in five stages**.

III Vienna, Berlin and the Ultimatum, 28 June–23 July

The first three stages converted outrage into an intentional showdown.

PHASE 1 · 28 JUNE–7 JULY: THE CHOICE TO PUNISH SERBIA

By **3 July**, leading Habsburg officials wanted Serbia held responsible. General **Conrad von Hötzendorf** and several ministers favoured war; Tisza first demanded a diplomatic confrontation. Vienna reached this position **without pressure from Berlin**, but sought its ally's support to deter Russia. Count **Alexander Hoyos** brought the Habsburg case to Kaiser Wilhelm II, who on **5 July** and with Chancellor **Bethmann Hollweg** on 6 July issued the blank cheque. Germany promised support without knowing exactly what Vienna would demand. Historians disagree whether Berlin meant merely to help its ally or encourage a larger preventive war; Williamson says the precise Habsburg proposal was not known to Berlin beforehand.

At the Austro-Hungarian Common Ministerial Council of **7 July**, Tisza resisted immediate war. Conrad explained that harvest leave kept troops away until about **21–22 July**. The delay gave Berchtold time to build agreement and seek evidence linking the plot to Belgrade. It also eroded the opportunity to act while European sympathy was fresh and placed the ultimatum near a French presidential visit to Russia. German leaders expected haste, but important generals and diplomats remained on holiday.

STRATEGIC DECISION

Backing without directing

Why did Berlin risk more than it controlled by giving Vienna support while leaving the demands and timing to its ally?

COUNTERFACTUAL

The delay paradox

Why might harvest leave help Berchtold win agreement at home but also alert Russia and Serbia abroad?

PHASE 2 · 8–18 JULY: DIPLOMACY THAT LOOKED DECEPTIVELY CALM

Berlin and Vienna tried to lull the other powers. Vienna's financial markets steadied, Wilhelm continued his North Sea cruise and Conrad went hiking. But German ambassador **Hans von Flotow** disclosed Habsburg intentions to Italy's foreign minister **San Giuliano**; his subsequent telegrams warned several capitals. Habsburg codebreakers detected the leaks. Thus **Russia and Serbia expected demands before they were delivered**. London's Irish crisis and the Paris Caillaux trial helped distract public attention, but the secrecy strategy was never fully successful.

PHASE 3 · 19–23 JULY: THE DEMAND WAS DESIGNED TO BE REFUSED

On **19 July**, Vienna approved the ultimatum and agreed with Tisza that any territorial acquisition from Serbia should be minor. At **6 p.m. on 23 July** it delivered the 48-hour ultimatum after Poincaré had departed St Petersburg. One demand required cooperation with Habsburg investigators inside Serbia. Williamson judges the terms were formulated for rejection because Vienna sought a military confrontation. British foreign secretary **Edward Grey** warned against precipitate steps, but the clock had been deliberately set running.

IV From Ultimatum to General War, 23 July–4 August

The last two stages show diplomacy, mobilization and war plans intersecting.

PHASE 4 · 23–28 JULY: THE REPLY AND THE FIRST MILITARY MEASURES

Serbia offered a conciliatory answer but resisted the joint murder investigation as an infringement on sovereignty. Habsburg envoy **Wladimir Giesl** rejected it at **6 p.m. on 25 July**, broke relations and departed; Serbia began mobilizing. Russia did **not** order Belgrade to defy the ultimatum. Sazonov nevertheless resolved to support Serbia, discussing partial mobilization from **24 July**. That afternoon Russia's military command ordered troop recalls in **Odessa, Moscow, Kiev and Kazan**. German intelligence noticed. Russia therefore took preliminary military steps *before* Vienna declared war, but these should not be confused with the nationwide order six days later.

CLASSIFY THE ACTION

Not every order mobilized a whole army

- 24 Jul — Local troop recalls
- 30 Jul — Russian general order

Which was a precaution, which full mobilization, and how do Conrad’s southbound orders differ as a **deployment** decision?

TREATY AND DEMAND

Serbia accepted most terms—so what?

Explain why refusal of the proposed joint inquiry mattered even though Belgrade conceded on many other points.

MILITARY LOGISTICS

The wrong front

Conrad moved forces toward Serbia before reversing his plans. Why did those train movements impair Habsburg preparations against Russia?

On 25 July Russian generals pressed for general mobilization, easier administratively and more threatening to Germany. France's ambassador **Maurice Paléologue** did not urge Russian restraint. Franz Joseph authorized steps against Serbia; meanwhile German ministers and army officers sent conflicting advice—Bethmann explored caution as Moltke urged rapid military action. Berchtold resolved the contradiction for Vienna: **Austria-Hungary declared war on Serbia on 28 July**. The chance to confine the dispute to a diplomatic ultimatum was now sharply reduced.

PHASE 5 · 28 JULY–4 AUGUST: DECISIONS UNDER MILITARY PRESSURE

Shots exchanged near Belgrade during the night of **28–29 July** produced exaggerated reports that pushed Russian generals toward a full order. Tsar Nicholas II first accepted mobilization orders on 29 July, then withdrew them following Wilhelm's personal telegrams. At **4 p.m. on 30 July**, under renewed pressure, Nicholas authorized general mobilization: the **first Great Power nationwide order**. Berlin treated this as a casus belli, but Bethmann waited until 31 July for confirmation so that Russia would appear the aggressor. Germany then issued ultimatums and began its own mobilization on **1 August**.

THE COSTS OF MILITARY PLANS

Conrad ordered Plan B on **30 July**, sending essential forces toward Serbia even though war with Russia was looming. His later switch to Plan R required circuitous, delayed redeployment from the Balkans to the Russian frontier. Germany's Schlieffen–Moltke plan assumed a rapid strike through neutral Belgium to defeat France before turning east. Seizing **Liège** was essential to its timetable, and Russia's growing mobilization speed made Berlin more impatient. These were not independent machines: **leaders had authorized plans that made political postponement increasingly difficult**.

CABINET POLITICS

Why Belgium mattered

How did violating Belgian neutrality help unite ministers who disagreed about Britain owing military help to France?

FRANCE AND BRITAIN FACED VERY DIFFERENT POLITICAL CONSTRAINTS

Poincaré and Premier **René Viviani** reached Paris on **29 July**. To avoid appearing aggressive and improve the chance of British help, Poincaré ordered French troops to remain **10 kilometres** behind the German border until 2 August. In Britain the Irish issue delayed serious cabinet debate; Grey tried mediation while French ambassador **Paul Cambon** sought a pledge. Naval precautions did go ahead. By **2 August**, German threats to France's Channel coast, a letter of support from Conservative leaders and Belgian neutrality transformed the argument. Threatened Belgian territory gave divided ministers a shared public ground for intervention.

German forces violated Belgium's neutrality and rejected Britain's demand to stop. Britain declared war on **4 August at 11 p.m.**, while plans for the British Expeditionary Force were advancing. Italy, despite membership of the Triple Alliance, declared **neutrality on 2 August**: Vienna had refused compensation such as Trentino, and Italian opinion opposed helping Austria-Hungary. Italy eventually fought alongside the Entente in **1915**. **Alliance ties did not produce identical or automatic decisions.**

V Historians and Responsibility

Deliberate choices need not imply that all governments were equally guilty.

The **Versailles** peace settlement of 1919–20 assigned principal blame to Germany and Austria-Hungary. German historians and governments disputed that verdict and selectively released records; other countries followed with their own diplomatic documents. The revisionists questioned exclusive responsibility; another argument, associated with Lloyd George's image of states “slithering” into war, emphasized unintended escalation. Structural interpretations stressed nationalism, militarism, arms races, alliances and imperial tensions as forces greater than any single leader.

HISTORIOGRAPHY

Chief responsibility versus sole responsibility

Why can Vienna and Berlin be chiefly responsible without making all other powers irrelevant—or equally guilty?

In the 1960s Fritz Fischer stressed the centrality of German decisions and argued that preventive-war calculations may have shaped Berlin's policy. Williamson accepts the **paramount role of Vienna and Berlin**, but includes Serbia's compromised military-civilian relationship, Russia's early military actions and 30 July mobilization, France's failure to restrain Russia, and British hesitation. These are important contributions, **not equivalent shares of guilt**.

For Williamson, the war was advertent: statesmen judged military action an acceptable response to threats to national honour, status and alliances. Long-standing pressures shaped what they saw, yet the decisive acts remained choices that could have been made differently. A historical explanation must therefore distinguish **underlying conditions, immediate triggers, identifiable decisions and unequal responsibility**.

§ Revision: Decisions for War

Use the chronology to test responsibility, not simply memorize dates.

FIVE STAGES — CONCISE RETRIEVAL, NOT ANOTHER NARRATIVE

Stage	Dates	Decisive shift
1 · Punishment	28 Jun–7 Jul	Vienna chooses confrontation; Berlin assures support.
2 · Lull	8–18 Jul	Distraction and diplomatic concealment, but intelligence leaks.
3 · Ultimatum	19–23 Jul	Vienna frames and delivers deliberately hard demands.
4 · Rupture	23–28 Jul	Serbia contests the inquiry; early Russian measures; Vienna declares war.
5 · General war	28 Jul–4 Aug	Russian general mobilization; German war plans; British entry.

RESPONSIBILITIES ARE NOT INTERCHANGEABLE

Power	What to evaluate
Austria-Hungary	Wanted coercive confrontation and declared war on Serbia.
Germany	Gave free support, then chose a western offensive.
Serbia	Intelligence network linked to assassins; civilian complicity uncertain.
Russia	Early precautions and the 30 July full mobilization.
France	Alliance solidarity and limited pressure on Russia.

REVISION FRAMEWORK

Four steps to explain causation

1. **Underlying pressures**
2. **Dated decisions**
3. **Operational consequences**
4. **Unequal responsibility**

RESPONSIBILITIES ARE NOT INTERCHANGEABLE (CONTINUED)

Power	What to evaluate
Britain	Mediation, cabinet disagreement, Belgian neutrality.
Italy	Neutrality despite membership of the Triple Alliance.

ACADEMIC TERMS — PRINTED COUNTERPART TO INTERACTIVE DEFINITIONS

Term	Meaning
Agadir Crisis	The 1911 Moroccan confrontation caused by Germany's gunboat visit to Agadir.
Balkan League	The 1912 association of Serbia, Greece, Montenegro and Bulgaria that fought the Ottoman Empire.
militant diplomacy	Threatening military force to make another state change policy without necessarily fighting.
South Slavs	Slavic-speaking Balkan peoples, including Serbs and several peoples inside the Habsburg monarchy.
Apis	Colonel Dragutin Dimitrijević, head of Serbian military intelligence and leading Black Hand organizer.
Black Hand	A secret Greater Serbian nationalist organization (Crna Ruka) linked to the assassins, distinct from Serbia's civilian cabinet.
blank cheque	Germany's 5–6 July 1914 promise of backing for Austria-Hungary, even if war with Russia resulted.
Common Ministerial Council	Senior Austro-Hungarian decision-making body that debated war, diplomacy and the ultimatum.
harvest leave	Military leave for farm work that prevented Conrad from attacking Serbia immediately in July 1914.
48-hour ultimatum	A set of demands with a two-day deadline, issued to Serbia on 23 July 1914.
sovereignty	A state's authority to govern its own territory and internal affairs.

ACADEMIC TERMS — PRINTED COUNTERPART TO INTERACTIVE DEFINITIONS (CONTINUED)

Term	Meaning
partial mobilization	Military preparations limited to specified forces or districts.
general mobilization	Nationwide preparation of an army for war, ordered by Russia on 30 July 1914.
casus belli	An action a government treats as grounds for war.
Plan B	Conrad's deployment design for war against Serbia in the Balkans.
Plan R	Austria-Hungary's alternative deployment plan for confronting Russia.
Schlieffen–Moltke plan	Germany's strategy for an early blow against France through neutral Belgium before turning east.
Belgian neutrality	Belgium's neutral status, central to British ministers' decision to enter the war.
revisionists	Historians who disputed the Versailles-era assignment of the principal blame for war.
Fritz Fischer	German historian whose 1960s interpretation stressed German agency and possible preventive-war goals.
advertent	Consciously chosen, rather than merely accidental.
honour	National prestige and credibility that ministers and monarchs believed retreat would damage.

Exam exercise: Explain why Williamson rejects both an automatic alliance mechanism and equal blame. Use **one pressure from 1911–13**, **two July decisions**, **one military-planning constraint** and **one historian's interpretation**.

CHAPTER 09

Wartime Promises and Postwar Europe

Study notes: Wartime Promises and Postwar Europe — The Diplomatic Architecture of the Great War

CENTRAL THESIS

The First World War was not a diplomatic void or merely senseless slaughter. Its **military and diplomatic histories were inseparable**: belligerents made secret treaties and expansive territorial promises in order to reshape the postwar order. Those frequently contradictory objectives helped make a negotiated compromise peace impossible.

TIMELINE

- **1914**
- **1915**
- **1916**
- **1917**
- **1918**
- **1919**
- **1960**
- **1970**

Behind the trench warfare was a sustained diplomatic struggle over **security, territory and future power**. Secret commitments and promises to prospective allies expanded the stakes of victory: the First World War can be read, in the Clausewitzian sense, as **politics pursued by military means**.

I From Accident to Calculation

Changing archival access reshapes the diplomatic history of the war.

THE “SLITHERED INTO WAR” NARRATIVE

Early accounts—including **David Lloyd George’s memoirs**—presented the outbreak as a tragic accident: nations had “slithered over the brink,” producing confusion, futility and incomprehensible bloodshed. The human cost and government control over diplomatic archives contributed to the neglect of wartime political objectives.

WAR GUILT AND AN ARCHIVE REVOLUTION

After Versailles, **Article 231**, later called the **“War Guilt Clause,”** made responsibility for the war a central controversy. Governments selectively published records to support competing conclusions. Wider access to archives in the **1960s and 1970s** revealed deliberate diplomacy and recognizable national-interest calculations throughout the conflict.

HISTORICAL MISCONCEPTION

War without political purpose?

No. Mass loss of life does not make diplomacy meaningless. Governments were simultaneously bargaining over security and territory.

HISTORIOGRAPHY

Revisiting the archives

- **1919** Versailles war-guilt dispute
- **1960s** New archival research
- **1970s** Wider diplomatic reappraisal

II Allied Powers: Expanding Aims

Defensive declarations give way to territorial bargaining.

BRITAIN: A RELUCTANT EXPANSIONIST

Britain entered to defend the **European balance and naval supremacy**. It nonetheless depended on Russia's commitment to victory; **Arthur Balfour** warned in 1914 that a conclusive outcome required Russia wholeheartedly on the Allied side. British statesmen remained wary that **France and Russia** might threaten imperial interests after a German defeat. **Lord Kitchener** hoped to conserve British forces so London could determine the eventual settlement. Recruiting other powers, especially Italy, meant promising territories and inheriting their ambitions as Allied obligations.

FRANCE: SECURING THE RHINE

France initially wanted to recover **Alsace-Lorraine**, lost in the Franco-Prussian War. Its proposed security order expanded to the **1790 frontiers**, including the **Saarland**, and to autonomous **Rhineland buffer states** under French influence. The **Salonika campaign** also served French designs for an eastern Mediterranean sphere to offset Russian gains.

RUSSIA: CONSTANTINOPLE AND THE STRAITS

Russia demanded **Constantinople** and access to the **Bosphorus**. The **March 1915 Straits Agreement** marked a dramatic reversal of Britain's older commitment to Ottoman integrity. Russia also wanted German power reduced on both frontiers and envisaged a **Polish buffer state** under the Russian "sceptre."

ALLIED WAR AIMS

Three different priorities

Britain	Balance and empire
France	Rhine and security
Russia	Straits and buffers

EXAM INSIGHT

The entente's double edge

Britain needed **Russian participation** to defeat Germany yet feared a postwar **France–Russia ascendancy**. Alliance did not erase rivalry.

III Germany and the September Memorandum

A vision of continental economic and political hegemony.

Germany dominated the diplomatic calculations of its Central Power partners: **Austria-Hungary, Ottoman Turkey and Bulgaria**. Chancellor **Bethmann Hollweg's September Memorandum (1914)** sketched terms designed to prevent France from returning as a Great Power and to push Russia back from Germany's eastern frontier.

GERMAN WAR AIMS IN THE SEPTEMBER MEMORANDUM

Concept	Proposed order
Mitteleuropa	A Germany-centred customs union extending across Western Europe, Poland, Scandinavia and the Central Powers, giving Berlin continental economic leverage.
Vassal states	Belgium and Poland outwardly independent but dependent on Germany militarily and economically.
Territorial revision	Weaken France and reduce Russia's strategic and territorial position.

Fritz Fischer later challenged the argument that German actions were solely defensive, treating such aims as evidence of a willing expansionist war. The **Treaty of Brest-Litovsk (March 1918)** underscored the scale of eastern German demands: Russia surrendered **90% of its coal mines and 50% of its industry**.

KEY TERM

Mitteleuropa

A proposed **Germany-led economic bloc** that would secure control through trade structures as well as territorial pressure.

HIGH-YIELD FIGURES

Brest-Litovsk, 1918

90%
Coal mines

50%
Industry

Russia's reported territorial and industrial losses.

IV The Price of Intervention

Neutral states become prizes in a diplomatic bidding contest.

PROMISES USED TO RECRUIT NEW BELLIGERENTS

Power / agreement	Bargain and consequence
Italy · Treaty of London, April 1915	The Entente promised **Trentino, South Tyrol, Istria and northern Dalmatia**; Allied war aims expanded to include Italian claims.
Bulgaria · 1915	The Central Powers won Bulgaria with promises of **Macedonian territory** it had lost in earlier wars.
Romania · Treaty of Bucharest, 1916	The Allies promised a dramatic territorial enlargement—**Transylvania, Bukovina and the Banat**—in exchange for entry.

This contest to **"purchase" allies** locked the principal powers into each recruit's claims. What began as a struggle for survival increasingly became a competition to **partition territories** and design the postwar balance.

V The Diplomatic Transformation of 1917

Revolution exposes secret treaties; America complicates the settlement.

RUSSIA'S REVOLUTION AND SELF-DETERMINATION

The fall of the Tsarist regime and the Bolshevik seizure of power resulted in the **publication of secret wartime treaties**. Their disclosure discredited exclusive traditional diplomacy and helped promote the language of **self-determination**.

MEMORY ANCHOR

The bidders, 1915–16

- **1915** Italy → Entente
- **1915** Bulgaria → Central Powers
- **1916** Romania → Entente

EXAM FRAME

How promises prolong war

1. Recruit new ally
2. Offer territorial reward
3. Adopt ally's demand
4. Compromise gets harder

1917 PIVOT

Two challenges to old diplomacy

Bolsheviks
Expose secret treaties

Wilson
Question territorial deals

THE UNITED STATES ENTERS AS AN ASSOCIATED POWER

The United States entered as an **“associated,” rather than “allied,” power**. **Woodrow Wilson** distrusted Europe’s territorial bargains and offered an alternative idealist language. Britain and France faced the problem of reconciling earlier secret promises with growing American influence over peace terms.

VI Why Compromise Peace Became So Difficult

Territorial promises made compromise harder to accept.

Territorial claims such as a French-dominated **Rhine**, a Russian **Constantinople** and an Italian **Tyrol** were impossible for opponents simply to accept. Because the powers had promised outcomes to their own electorates and their partners, **compromise became ever harder**. Each government pursued identifiable goals, but its territorial demands often excluded the settlement its opponents could accept.

Wartime diplomacy helps explain why military confrontation continued despite enormous human losses. Secret and public commitments transformed battle into a contest over the world’s map. Some of the rival claims made between **1914 and 1918**—especially in the Near and Middle East—have continued to shape international relations. Once governments promised territories to secure allies, withdrawing those promises threatened the coalition on which victory depended.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Did shared victory aims mean peace?

No. Allied cooperation concealed incompatible postwar claims; even victorious partners would have to settle their promises.

§ Revision: The Architecture of an Unending War

Promises enlarged the conflict and mortgaged the peace.

MAJOR WARTIME AGREEMENTS AND THEIR CONSEQUENCES

Agreement	Date	Participants	Principal outcome
September Memorandum	Sep 1914	Germany	Plan for *Mitteleuropa* and the reduction of French and Russian power.
Straits Agreement	Mar 1915	Britain, France, Russia	Constantinople promised to Russia; Ottoman dismemberment contemplated.
Treaty of London	Apr 1915	Britain, France, Italy	Italian intervention secured through Austrian and Balkan territorial promises.
Treaty of Bucharest	Aug 1916	Allies, Romania	Romanian entry secured with promises of territorial expansion.
Treaty of Brest-Litovsk	Mar 1918	Germany, Russia	German eastern objectives imposed; Russia exits the war.

REVISION QUOTATION

Arthur Balfour, 1914

“The war cannot possibly be conclusive in our favour ... unless the Western Allies have **Russia wholeheartedly on their side** till the end.”

CHAPTER 10

Wartime Promises and the Postwar Empires

Study notes: Wartime Promises and the Postwar Empires — The Architecting of a New Global Order

CENTRAL THESIS

The First World War dismantled the **German and Ottoman empires**, but its settlement reflected a fundamental tension between **wartime military promises** and **imperial territorial ambitions**. The League of Nations **mandate system** reconciled these ambitions with anti-imperial rhetoric while often preserving colonial rule under another name.

TIMELINE

- **1914**
- **1915**
- **1916**
- **1917**
- **1918**
- **1919**
- **1960**

The war extended far beyond Europe. The defeat of Germany and the Ottoman Empire created a political vacuum across the **Middle East, Africa and the Pacific**. Secret treaties, the search for additional allies and competing versions of national self-determination shaped the new imperial map—and left disputes that would outlast the peace.

I The Middle East: Four Conflicting Promises

Britain's wartime needs pull its diplomacy in incompatible directions.

Before 1914 Britain generally defended the **Ottoman Empire's integrity** as a barrier to Russian expansion toward India. The Ottomans' entry into the war on the side of the Central Powers in **October 1914** reversed that strategy. Britain became the leading military power operating in the Middle East and negotiated several overlapping settlements.

THE RUSSIAN CARROT: CONSTANTINOPLE, MARCH 1915

To retain Russia's participation in the war, Britain and France promised it the **Dardanelles, Sea of Marmara, Bosphorus and Constantinople (Istanbul)**—the "richest prize" of the struggle. The **Constantinople Agreement** proposed Russian control of the city while retaining its status as a **free port**. It abandoned Britain's century-old resistance to Russian control of the Straits.

THE ARAB PROMISE: HUSAYN–MCMAHON, 1915–16

Britain sought an Arab ally in **Emir Husayn of Mecca**. In correspondence with **Sir Henry McMahon**, it offered to "recognize and uphold the independence of the Arabs" across much of Arabia and the Fertile Crescent. After the **Gallipoli** setback, London hoped a friendly Arab state would bolster British prestige and perhaps curb French influence. Yet the letters excluded areas including **Mersin** and parts of Syria west of Damascus. Whether **Palestine** fell inside the independence promise remained deeply disputed. Interpreting references to Ottoman administrative districts, or **vilayets**, contributed to that controversy.

DIPLOMATIC MEMORY LINE

Four commitments, 1915–17

- **1915** Straits → Russia
- **1915–16** Arab independence letters
- **1916** Sykes–Picot partition
- **1917** Balfour national home

EXAM MISCONCEPTION

One coherent British promise?

No. London issued overlapping commitments to **Russia, Arab leaders, France and Zionists** for strategic purposes that were not mutually consistent.

KEY OTTOMAN TERM

Vilayet

An **Ottoman administrative district**; interpreting geographical exclusions in the Husayn–McMahon correspondence became controversial.

SECRET PARTITION: SYKES–PICOT, 1916

While negotiating with Husayn, Britain secretly agreed with France to divide Ottoman lands into spheres of influence. Under **Sykes–Picot**, France received the **blue zone** around Lebanon and coastal Syria; Britain claimed a **red zone** covering central and southern Mesopotamia. **Palestine** was to be internationalized to accommodate wider Christian-power interests. The agreement sat uneasily beside the rhetoric of Arab independence.

THE ZIONIST COMMITMENT: BALFOUR, NOVEMBER 1917

Foreign Secretary A. J. Balfour announced British support for a **“national home for the Jewish people”** in Palestine. Britain's strategic calculation was that backing Zionist aspirations could bolster its own claim to influence and help bypass the earlier proposal for international administration of Palestine.

FOUR OVERLAPPING WARTIME COMMITMENTS IN THE MIDDLE EAST

Agreement	Date	Beneficiary	Core promise or plan
Constantinople	1915	Russia	Control of the Straits and Istanbul.
Husayn–McMahon	1915–16	Hashemite Arabs	Independence across much of the Middle East, subject to disputed exclusions.
Sykes–Picot	1916	Britain and France	Direct zones and spheres of influence; international Palestine.
Balfour Declaration	1917	Zionist movement	British support for a Jewish national home in Palestine.

II Africa: A Second Imperial Partition

A geographically brutal war ends by reallocating German possessions.

THE MILITARY AND HUMAN REALITY

The African campaigns were often treated as a European-war "sideshow," but fighting across immense distances was destructive. British, French, Belgian, South African and Portuguese forces attacked German possessions in **Togoland, Cameroons, Southwest Africa and East Africa**. Small mobile columns fought with machine guns amid severe disease and supply problems. In German East Africa **Paul von Lettow-Vorbeck**, commanding German officers and local ***askaris***, tied down substantial Entente resources until after the European Armistice. The figures estimate that **two million Africans** served as soldiers or porters and approximately **200,000 died**, principally from disease.

THE SETTLEMENT: TRANSFERS, NOT INDEPENDENCE

Victorious powers took over Germany's African possessions as **League mandates**. Most of Togoland, Cameroons and Tanganyika fell in **Class B**; Southwest Africa became a **Class C** mandate under South Africa. Section IV compares what these categories permitted. For African populations, the immediate change was a transfer of imperial managers rather than independence.

HUMAN COST · SOURCE FIGURES

African campaigns

2 million
Soldiers and porters

~200,000
Deaths, mostly from disease

KEY TERM

Askaris

Locally recruited African soldiers who served in the region's colonial forces, including Lettow-Vorbeck's East African campaign.

III The Far East: Japan's Imperial Opportunity

The German defeat in Asia and the Pacific accelerates Japanese ambition.

OCCUPATION ACROSS THE EQUATOR

Japan entered the war as a **British ally** and seized German interests in the **Pacific north of the Equator**—the Mariana, Caroline and Marshall islands—as well as **Tsingtao (Kiaochow)** in China. **Australia** occupied German New Guinea, and **New Zealand** took Samoa south of the Equator. By the end of 1914, German holdings in the Far East had been dismantled.

THE TWENTY-ONE DEMANDS, 1915

Japan presented **China** with demands that would have greatly enlarged Japanese control, potentially reducing China to a protectorate in practice. Some demands were withdrawn under **United States pressure**, but Tokyo entrenched its position in **Manchuria and Shantung**.

THE RACIAL EQUALITY CLAUSE, 1919

At the **Paris Peace Conference**, Japan proposed a **racial equality clause** for the Covenant of the League of Nations. Opposition led by **Australia and the United States** blocked the proposal. The rejection intensified Japanese resentment toward Western powers and, in the interpretation, contributed to the alienation later exploited by militarist movements.

PACIFIC DIVISION

German Pacific possessions

North	South
Japan: Micronesia	Australia and New Zealand

CAUSAL CONNECTION

Japan's postwar grievance

1. **Wartime territorial gains**
2. **Racial equality proposed**
3. **Clause rejected**
4. **Western order challenged**

IV The Mandate System: Annexation by Another Name

The League reconciles colonial expansion with internationalist language.

The **League of Nations mandate system** was a compromise between the victorious states' desire to control former enemy territories and **Woodrow Wilson's anti-imperial language**. It framed administration as an international duty rather than outright annexation, yet the practical outcome often resembled colonial control.

THREE CLASSES OF LEAGUE MANDATES

Class	Typical region	Form of administration
A	Middle East	Independence provisionally recognized, with outside administrative advice and assistance.
B	Most former German African colonies	Colonial-style rule with international oversight for trade and religious freedoms.
C	Pacific islands and Southwest Africa	Administered under the mandatory power's laws as if an integral territory; no near-term independence.

The postwar settlement **re-legitimized imperial control** under a new international formula. In the **Middle East**, overlapping British commitments and new boundaries contributed to long-running conflict. In **Africa**, former German possessions passed to other colonial powers and independence remained decades away. In the **Far East**, Japan emerged as a regional power while racial exclusion in diplomacy exposed the limits of the promised new world order.

INSTITUTIONAL COMPARISON

Mandate classes

A	Provisional independence
B	Regulated colonial rule
C	Integral administration

CRITICAL DISTINCTION

Mandates ≠ independence

International oversight did **not** mean the governed population had immediately acquired sovereignty.

§ Revision: The Enduring Imperial Framework

The war changed sovereignty's vocabulary more readily than its underlying distribution.

REVISION: THE THREE REGIONAL RESULTS OF WARTIME DIPLOMACY

Region	Immediate result	Enduring issue
Middle East	Conflicting promises and British–French mandates	Disputed national claims and boundaries
Africa	German territories redistributed as mandates	Continuation of external rule until later decolonization
Far East	Japan gains German possessions and influence	Power rivalry and resentment of racial exclusion

SOURCE QUOTATION · MATTHEW HUGHES

Annexation in all but name

"The mandate system was accepted by the British Empire... but the mandates were **annexation in all but name**."

KEY TERMS

Four revision anchors

Mandate	League-authorized administration
Vilayet	Ottoman district
Zionism	Jewish nationalist movement for a state in Palestine
Askaris	African colonial troops

CHAPTER 11

Envisioning a New World Order

Study notes: Envisioning a New World Order — The Ideological Battle Between Wilson and Lenin

CENTRAL THESIS

The Great War destroyed the dynastic order and opened a contest between **Woodrow Wilson's liberal internationalism** and **Vladimir Lenin's revolutionary socialism**. Both rejected the imperial system that produced the war, but Wilson imagined peace through **democracy, markets and collective security**, while Lenin believed capitalism itself must be overthrown by **international class revolution**.

TIMELINE

1917

1918

1919

1920

The collapse of the empires of **Nicholas II, Wilhelm II and Franz Joseph** transformed Central and Eastern Europe. From that destruction came competing designs for a world beyond the prewar imperial order, advanced by the **United States** and revolutionary **Soviet Russia**. The ideological rivalry between Wilson and Lenin has been described as a kind of **“First Cold War.”**

I Wilson: Liberal Internationalism

Moral force, democracy and open economic exchange against the balance of power.

THE CRITIQUE OF OLD DIPLOMACY

Woodrow Wilson regarded the traditional European **balance-of-power** system as a self-defeating contest in which one power’s gain required another’s loss. Secret diplomacy, temporary alliances and armaments competition made conflict likely. He believed the **United States**, drawing on European civilization but claiming no territorial ambition, was unusually placed to defend neutral principles of **peace and justice**.

MORALITY, DEMOCRACY AND THE MONROE DOCTRINE

Wilson grounded foreign policy in **Christian moral language**, even invoking “holy scripture” and honour. He distinguished the **German people** from their **autocratic rulers** and insisted that democratic accountability could underpin reliable international commitments. In the account he also treated the **Monroe Doctrine** as a model for excluding external intervention from a region without controlling its constituent states' internal affairs.

WILSONIAN RECIPE

A new rulebook for peace

Government	Democracy and accountability
Economy	Open markets and labour rights
Security	League and common trust

EXAM INTERPRETATION

The Monroe Doctrine paradox

Wilson portrayed the doctrine as **regional restraint**. Compare that ideal with the claim that America had no external territorial ambitions: distinguish **his vision** from a neutral description of US conduct.

THE FOURTEEN POINTS AND A LEAGUE OF NATIONS

In **January 1918**, Wilson announced his **Fourteen Points** as the foundation for a just peace. The proposed order combined national **self-determination**, economic openness, the rights of labour and a voluntary **League of Nations** to arbitrate disputes. Rather than the "sinister balance of power," he envisioned an association of nations bound by **trust, international opinion and democratic reform**. Even initially undemocratic states might eventually choose to join this association of "free and rich nations."

THE COMPONENTS OF WILSON'S PROPOSED PEACE

Principle	Meaning	Intended effect
National self-determination	National communities should decide questions of sovereignty.	Limit domination and humiliation of smaller nations.
Open markets	More equal world-trade opportunities and access to the seas.	Replace economic exclusion with competition.
Labour rights	Protection of workers across borders.	Make commerce fairer to labour and capital.
League of Nations	Voluntary international organization for peaceful dispute resolution.	Replace ad hoc power politics with collective trust.

II Lenin: Capitalism and World Revolution

War is rooted not in bad diplomacy, but in capitalist economic structures.

Vladimir Lenin rejected Wilson's programme as a **"utopian dream."** Whether a government was formally democratic or autocratic mattered less than its underlying economic order. As long as the **capitalist system** survived, the pressure toward imperial conflict would remain.

KEY TERM

Finance capital

For Lenin, the **fusion of banking and industrial capital** underpinning monopoly capitalism and its drive for overseas resources.

LENIN'S CAUSAL CHAIN

From capitalism to imperial war

1. **Competition concentrates**
2. **Monopolies and finance**
3. **Search for colonies**
4. **Imperial conflict**

IMPERIALISM: THE HIGHEST STAGE OF CAPITALISM

Lenin treated imperialism as an outcome of **monopoly capitalism**. Free competition gave way to **cartels and trusts**; bank and industrial interests merged into **finance capital**; and the search for **raw materials, colonies and markets** turned economic rivalry into global territorial struggle. The Great War was, in this analysis, a **predatory contest for economic gain** among capitalist powers.

FROM IMPERIALIST WAR TO CIVIL WAR

Lenin called on the **proletariat** to stop fighting for the bourgeois state and instead turn the imperialist conflict into **class struggle at home**: a revolutionary effort to "smash the machinery of the bourgeois state." The **Third International (Comintern)**, established in **1919**, would support communist revolution beyond Russia. The larger objective was an international **socialist federation** managing the productive forces for the many under a **dictatorship of the proletariat**.

> *"The period of imperialism is the eve of the social revolution of the proletariat." — Vladimir Lenin*

III Self-Determination: One Phrase, Two Projects

Political independence and economic emancipation are not the same thing.

TWO MEANINGS OF NATIONAL SELF-DETERMINATION

Wilson	Lenin
An **exercise in democracy**: negotiated settlements and viable independent states, such as **Poland and Czechoslovakia**.	A **tactical step against imperialism**: formal independence is hollow if capitalist economic control persists.

SAME WORD, DIFFERENT AIM

Self-determination

Wilson
Democratic national sovereignty

Lenin
Freedom from capitalist domination

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Both anti-imperial = same policy?

No. Wilson wanted to reform relations **between states**; Lenin sought to revolutionize the **economic system** that shaped them.

TWO MEANINGS OF NATIONAL SELF-DETERMINATION (CONTINUED)

Wilson	Lenin
Nation-states coexist through **collective security and open exchange**.	Lasting liberation requires **socialist transformation** beyond the capitalist nation-state.

The disagreement concerned what made independence real. A new border could satisfy **Wilson's** political test while failing **Lenin's** economic one: an independent Poland might still depend on capitalist powers. For Lenin, liberation therefore required changes in **property and class relations**, not simply a new state.

IV Popularity and the Limits of Both Visions

Popular hopes run into domestic politics and the failure of world revolution.

WILSON: ACCLAIM ABROAD, DEFEAT AT HOME

European crowds in **London and Paris** welcomed Wilson with extraordinary enthusiasm, seeing hope for a **"peace without victory"** after years of suffering. Yet the **United States Senate** would not ratify the **Treaty of Versailles**. A major **Democratic defeat in the 1920 election** marked the rejection of his comprehensive internationalist programme at home and deprived his League project of American participation.

LENIN: REVOLUTIONARY APPEAL, SOVIET ISOLATION

Lenin's appeal reached radical workers and opponents of Allied involvement in the **Russian Civil War**. "**Hands off Russia**" campaigns mobilized support, and the **American Socialist Party** shifted from the Second to the Third International. But anticipated revolutions in **Hungary and Bavaria** were suppressed, and global socialist upheaval failed to spread. Soviet Russia became an isolated **pariah state** surrounded by capitalist rivals.

KEY TURNING POINTS

Promise and disappointment

- **1918** Wilson's Fourteen Points
- **1919** Comintern established
- **1919** US treaty ratification fails
- **1920** Democratic electoral defeat

EXAM COMPARISON

Why did both programmes stall?

Wilson	Lenin
US domestic resistance	Revolutions fail abroad

Wilson and Lenin both recognized the **death of the old imperial order** and feared the consequences of failing to replace it. Their rival programmes tried to remake international order, but each met limits: Wilson's domestic defeat weakened the League, while Lenin's failed worldwide revolution encouraged his successors to turn toward **“socialism in one country.”** Their clash between **liberal internationalism** and **revolutionary socialism** became central to the international history of the twentieth century and left the world vulnerable to further disorder.

§ Revision: An Unfinished New World Order

Neither the liberal league nor global revolution was fully realized.

REVISION: WILSON AND LENIN AT A GLANCE

Feature	Woodrow Wilson	Vladimir Lenin
Philosophical roots	Liberal capitalism; Christianity	Revolutionary Marxism
Instrument	League of Nations; voluntary cooperation	Third International; revolutionary organization
Political order	Interconnected sovereign nation-states	Dictatorship of the proletariat; socialist federation
Cause of war	Balance of power and secret diplomacy	Monopoly capitalism and imperialism
Path to change	Democratic reform and moral renewal	International revolution from below
Key text	The Fourteen Points	*Imperialism, the Highest Stage of Capitalism*

REVISION THESIS

Two diagnoses; two solutions

Wilson: Repair diplomacy and build cooperation.
Lenin: Overthrow the capitalist order generating imperial conflict.

TWO INSTITUTIONS

League vs. Comintern

League
States negotiate peace

Comintern
Workers spread revolution

CHAPTER 12

The Versailles System

Study notes: The Versailles System — Architecting a New International Order

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Versailles System** was both a **punitive settlement** intended to disable German power and a far-reaching experiment in **international law, disarmament, minority protection and collective governance**. Its security design failed, but its institutional innovations survived.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1921**
- **1923**
- **1924**
- **1925**
- **1926**
- **1929**
- **1933**
- **1936**
- **1938**

In the aftermath of the First World War, the Paris peace-makers attempted not merely to stop fighting but to build lasting international peace. British diplomat **Harold Nicolson** recalled their ambition: “We were preparing not Peace only, but Eternal Peace.” The **Treaty of Versailles** contained **440 clauses**; taken together with associated institutions and agreements, it sought to limit Germany while creating new ways to regulate international affairs.

Ⅰ Punishment Versus Stable Peace

France’s desire for security confronted British economic calculations and Wilsonian internationalism.

FRENCH SECURITY AND THE ANGLO-AMERICAN ALTERNATIVE

France, vulnerable to renewed German attack, pressed for tough reparations, restrictions and military safeguards. **David Lloyd George** increasingly questioned whether a crippled Germany could function as a market for Britain or resist political extremism. The **Fontainebleau Memorandum** argued for rehabilitation as well as restraint. **Woodrow Wilson** approached settlement through the **Fourteen Points**, national self-determination and a **League of Nations** intended to replace the old power-politics system.

These impulses produced a settlement of **dual character**: a punitive attempt to prevent German resurgence and an ambitious international experiment in **law, arms supervision, minority protection and economic coordination**. A later US State Department assessment warned that few treaties had been criticized more freely—or read less carefully.

EXAM INTERPRETATION

Punish or rehabilitate?

France	Britain
Prevent another German assault.	Preserve markets and avoid radicalism.

Wilson added a third premise: **rules and a League** should restrain war.

CONCEPTUAL PARADOX

Two faces of Versailles

Restraint	Reconstruction
Restrict German military power.	Build institutions for cooperation.

II Reparations and Economic Crisis

Disputed compensation led from financial coercion to American-backed stabilization.

The Allies could not agree on a complete reparations bill in 1919, so a **Reparations Commission** was created. The resulting debt system became a source of economic pressure and political controversy, especially when defaults led France and Belgium to occupy the **Ruhr**. German hyperinflation peaked in 1923; subsequent plans sought to stabilize payments and the currency.

REPARATIONS: ASSESSMENT, COLLAPSE AND RESTRUCTURING

Milestone	Date	Significance
Reparations assessment	1 May 1921	**$33 billion**, plus Belgian war debt, as assessed in 1921.
Occupation of the Ruhr	Jan 1923	French and Belgian occupation after a German default.
Hyperinflation peak	Nov 1923	One US dollar reportedly equalled **4.2 trillion German marks**.
Dawes Plan	1924	US-backed debt restructuring and a **$200 million** stabilization loan.
Young Plan	1929	Long-range repayments scheduled through 1988 and an international banking mechanism.

The **Rentenmark** helped arrest the currency collapse. The Nazi regime ultimately rejected reparations in **1933**. The financial negotiations nevertheless left a lasting institutional legacy in the **Bank for International Settlements** in Basel, a framework for central-bank cooperation.

KEY FIGURE

Currency collapse, 1923

4.2T

German marks to US$1 at the reported November 1923 peak.

ECONOMIC SEQUENCE

From coercion to management

- **1921** Reparation assessment
- **1923** Ruhr and hyperinflation
- **1924** Dawes stabilization
- **1929** Young restructuring

III War Guilt and the Origins of International Criminal Law

Versailles linked responsibility, reparations and prosecution.

ARTICLES 231, 227 AND 228

Article 231, often labelled the **“War Guilt Clause,”** supplied the legal foundation for reparations by assigning responsibility for war-related losses to Germany and its allies. **Article 227** sought to charge former Kaiser **Wilhelm II** with an offence against international morality; **Article 228** provided for prosecution of alleged violations of the laws and customs of war.

The immediate prosecutions were limited: the **Netherlands declined to extradite Wilhelm II**, and German trials produced only a few light sentences. Yet the principle of holding individuals answerable under international law helped anticipate the later **Nuremberg and Tokyo tribunals** and the International Criminal Court.

IV Disarmament and the Innovation of Verification

Military restrictions were extensive; inspectors acquired new rights.

GERMAN MILITARY LIMITS UNDER THE PEACE SETTLEMENT

Armed service	Treaty restriction
Army	Limited to **100,000** troops; conscription prohibited.
Navy	Six battleships allowed; **submarines prohibited**.
Air power	German military air force abolished.

TREATY TERMINOLOGY

Three important articles

231	Reparation liability
227	Former Kaiser charged
228	War crimes prosecutions

TREATY LIMIT

The size of Germany’s army

100,000

Maximum authorized soldiers; conscription banned.

GERMAN MILITARY LIMITS UNDER THE PEACE SETTLEMENT (CONTINUED)

Armed service	Treaty restriction
Rhineland	Demilitarized: no German troops or fortifications.

The **International Military Control Commission (IMCC)** introduced inspection rights, search powers and diplomatic immunities for international arms monitors. Germany nonetheless found ways to work around restrictions, including the development of tanks in **Sweden** and pilot training in **Soviet Russia**, facilitated by the cooperation associated with **Rapallo (1922)**.

Ⓥ Borders, Plebiscites and Minority Rights

National self-determination became an imperfect principle of territorial organization.

THE SAAR, DANZIG AND ETHNIC MINORITIES

The peace-makers used **plebiscites** to settle some frontier questions instead of relying exclusively on Great Power bargaining. The **Saar Basin** came under **League administration for 15 years**. The **Free City of Danzig** provided Poland access to the sea without assigning the largely German port directly to Poland. **Fourteen states** entered minority-rights arrangements intended to protect ethnic groups and allow petitions to the League. These provisions internationalized aspects of human rights while exposing conflicts between sovereignty and outside supervision.

TERRITORIAL MODELS

Two distinct settlements

Saar
League rule for 15 years.

Danzig
Free City under League protection.

VI Locarno and Germany’s Return to Diplomacy

The mid-1920s briefly substituted negotiated compliance for confrontation.

STRESEMANN’S POLICY OF FULFILMENT

Under Foreign Minister **Gustav Stresemann**, Germany followed a policy of **“fulfilment”**—satisfying obligations to demonstrate that it could again be a trusted international actor. At **Locarno in 1925**, Germany voluntarily accepted its western frontiers with France and Belgium, while **Britain and Italy** guaranteed the arrangement. Germany joined the **League of Nations in 1926**, marking its diplomatic rehabilitation.

VII Erosion, Rearmament and Collapse

The Depression and Hitler’s challenges undermined treaty enforcement.

The settlement’s stability eroded amid the **Great Depression** and Nazi expansion. Hitler’s tactics were described as **“weekend surprises,”** announcements designed to catch foreign officials off guard. Rearmament, the return of conscription, the remilitarization of the Rhineland and the **Anschluss** eventually destroyed crucial treaty limits.

Versailles failed in its immediate political objective of preventing another European war, yet its significance was not confined to punishment. The **League of Nations**, **Permanent Court of International Justice**, **International Labour Organization** and **International Commission for Air Navigation** helped establish patterns later used in the **United Nations** and international systems of aviation, finance, arms regulation and human rights. The settlement was a faltering but consequential effort to replace peace by treaty alone with **peace through institutions**.

KEY DIPLOMATIC DATES

From Locarno to the League

- **1925** — Locarno western-border pact
- **1926** — Germany enters the League

TREATY CHRONOLOGY

German challenges to Versailles

The chronology records the **Luftwaffe** and **conscription** announcements under **1936**.

§ Revision: A Failed Peace With Enduring Institutions

The treaty could not guarantee peace, but it anticipated important forms of international governance.

REVISION CHRONOLOGY: TREATY VIOLATIONS (RECORDED DATES)

Date given	Challenge	Allied response
8 Mar 1936	Re-establishment of the **Luftwaffe**.	Denunciation and no military intervention.
16 Mar 1936	Return of **conscription**; army reported at 550,000.	Protests without intervention.
Mar 1936	German troops return to the **Rhineland**.	Britain and France do not act militarily.
Mar 1938	**Anschluss** with Austria; challenge to Article 80.	Appeasement rather than enforcement.

REVISION THESIS

An institutional legacy despite failure

Immediate failure: no durable security against renewed war. **Long-term innovation:** accountability, verification, rights and international organizations.

SOURCE QUOTATION

Harold Nicolson on ambition

“We were preparing not Peace only, but **Eternal Peace**.”

CHAPTER 13

The Legacy of the First World War

Study notes: The League of Nations — The Paradox of Permanent Peace

CENTRAL THESIS

The **League of Nations** was a radical experiment in **collective peace**, but its founders remained dependent on Great Power influence and national sovereignty. Its failure to deter war obscures a lasting legacy in **financial reconstruction, refugee relief, minority protection and international diplomacy**.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1920**
- **1922**
- **1923**
- **1924**
- **1925**
- **1932**
- **1939**

The **League of Nations**, established amid the peace settlements after the First World War, promised a revolutionary alternative to two millennia of power politics. Yet its founders remained, in the account's words, **"prisoners of their diplomatic heritage."** British and French imperial calculations repeatedly competed with collective security. Its eventual inability to restrain aggression has obscured substantial work in finance, refugees, minority protection and arbitration. Lenin dismissed it as a **"band of robber nations"**; others called it a **"toothless tiger."**

I A New Order Embedded in the Peace Treaties

The Covenant proposed collective dispute settlement while remaining tied to unequal postwar settlements.

The **Covenant of the League** was incorporated as the **first 26 articles** of the main peace treaties rather than established as an entirely independent compact. League responsibilities extended to territorial arrangements, supervised territories and later financial assistance.

FOUR PEACE TREATIES AND THE LEAGUE'S EXPANDING RESPONSIBILITIES

Treaty	Signing location	Connection to the settlement
Versailles	Paris suburb	Germany; League roles in Saar/Danzig and boundary settlements.
Trianon	Paris suburb	Hungary; later League-backed economic regeneration loans.
Neuilly	Paris suburb	Bulgaria; later League action in a regional crisis.
Sèvres	Paris suburb	Ottoman settlement associated in the account with mandates.

KEY TERM

League Covenant

The **26 articles** setting out the League's operating rules, incorporated at the opening of major postwar treaties.

CONCEPTUAL REVOLUTION

From force to conference

State claims backed by force

↓

League consultation and arbitration

↓

Peace as a collective responsibility

THE PHILOSOPHY: PEACE BY CONFERENCE

The old assumption that a sovereign state could legitimately use force to secure interests came under challenge. The League promised **conference and arbitration instead of war**, questioned the Social Darwinist assumption that the strongest states should prevail, and insisted that diplomacy could create a common security interest. This immediately raised the dilemma of how collective decisions could coexist with the **foreign-policy autonomy of states**.

II The Anglo-French Engine and America's Absence

Universal aspiration, unequal Great Power control.

A LEAGUE SHAPED BY BRITAIN AND FRANCE

The League's membership extended beyond Europe, but its politics were dominated throughout the 1920s by **London and Paris**. **Woodrow Wilson** helped conceive the organization, but the **US Senate** refused to ratify the associated peace treaty. American absence weakened the global balance of the institution and left European Great Powers as its central diplomatic actors.

MANDATES AND THE QUASI-IMPERIAL PROBLEM

Through the **Permanent Mandates Commission (PMC)**, the League supervised territories removed from the defeated Central Powers. **Jan Smuts** helped develop mandate classifications: **Class A** in the Middle East (including Palestine, Iraq, Syria and Lebanon) and **Classes B and C** covering territories subjected to different degrees of colonial administration and oversight. Critics regarded the scheme as **imperialism in new language**, particularly where European powers drew boundaries using a "red crayon to a map."

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Universality meant equality?

No. The organization claimed global scope, but the absence of the United States and Anglo-French priorities concentrated political influence.

THREE MANDATE CLASSES

Imperial administration under supervision

A	Middle Eastern territories
B	Colonial-style administration
C	Integral-style rule by mandatory power

III Financial Reconstruction and Humanitarian Work

The League proved more capable in technical administration than in coercing major states.

STABILIZATION LOANS AND MONETARY REFORM

With support from figures such as **Montagu Norman** at the Bank of England, the League helped arrange reconstruction loans for vulnerable successor states and required oversight by its **Financial Committee**. Reconstruction loans amounted to **650 million gold crowns for Austria (1922)** and **more than £14 million for Hungary (1924)**. League-backed stabilization efforts also reached **Bulgaria, Greece and Estonia**. The work was presented both as reconstruction and as a means of resisting political radicalization.

REFUGEES AND MINORITY PROTECTION

The collapse of the Russian, German and Habsburg empires displaced large populations. Norwegian explorer **Fridtjof Nansen**, the League's High Commissioner for Refugees, introduced the **Nansen Passport (1922)** to help stateless and displaced persons travel. Meanwhile, minority arrangements offered legal protection to ethnic, religious and linguistic communities. The account reports **13 states** with such protections by **1932**; governments often resisted them as external intrusion into national sovereignty.

IV Arbitration in Practice: Five Crises

Results depended heavily on whether Britain and France could agree—and on the rank of the aggressor.

LEAGUE ARBITRATION: SELECTED EPISODES

Dispute	Date	Outcome / significance
Åland Islands	1920	League mediation presented as a successful small-state dispute

HIGH-YIELD FIGURE

Austria's stabilization loan

650M

Gold crowns reportedly loaned under League administration in 1922.

HUMANITARIAN INNOVATION

Nansen Passport

A **1922** travel document intended to assist stateless refugees following revolution and the dissolution of empires.

EXAM DISTINCTION

Two kinds of success

Financial
Currency and debt stabilization

Humanitarian
Refugee travel and minority claims

LEAGUE ARBITRATION: SELECTED EPISODES (CONTINUED)

Dispute	Date	Outcome / significance
Vilna	1920–23	Polish occupation; the League could not secure an effective plebiscite.
Upper Silesia	1922	Industrial district divided between Germany and Poland; uneasy Great Power compromise.
Corfu	1923	Mussolini seized the island and forced settlement outside the League through the Conference of Ambassadors.
Greek–Bulgarian crisis	1925	British–French cooperation helped compel Greek withdrawal after invasion.

THE PATTERN BEHIND SUCCESS AND FAILURE

In smaller disputes where the Great Powers' interests coincided, the League could achieve meaningful results. The **Corfu incident** exposed limits when a permanent Council member was involved: Mussolini evaded League jurisdiction and **Article 16 sanctions** were too vague to ensure action. The contrasting **Bulgarian crisis** suggested the League could perform well when Britain and France acted in unison. Conference and arbitration changed the procedure for resolving disputes, but enforcement still depended on agreement among the Great Powers.

The League could not compel the surrender of absolute sovereignty needed for robust collective security. Strong nationalism, uneven Great Power commitment and Anglo-French disputes undermined it, and it did not answer the challenge of aggressive dictators in the 1930s. Yet its efforts to **stabilize economies, protect minorities, assist refugees and institutionalize international conference** supplied models later adopted by the **United Nations**. Its failures should be studied alongside the novel practices that made it a genuine turning point in international history.

ARBITRATION TEST CASES

1920–25 in five snapshots

- **1920** Åland Islands
- **1920–23** Vilna: plebiscite not secured
- **1922** Upper Silesia
- **1923** Corfu failure
- **1925** Bulgarian intervention

CAUSAL EXPLANATION

Why outcomes differed

Aligned powers
Bulgarian crisis: action possible

Divided powers
Corfu: enforcement weak

LEAGUE ARBITRATION

Disputes involving Åland and Vilna

The account discusses **Åland** and **Vilna** among the territorial disputes considered by the League.

§ Revision: An Imperfect League From an Imperfect Peace

Collective security remained hostage to sovereignty, but the League's social and technical legacy endured.

Revision test: Compare Corfu with the Greek–Bulgarian crisis, then use one financial and one humanitarian example to explain why the League's record cannot be judged by collective security alone.

REVISION ARGUMENT

More than a failed police force

Political limit: sovereignty and power rivalry. **Institutional achievement:** financial reconstruction, refugees, minority protections and a continuing framework for diplomacy.

NOTABLE QUOTATION

The imperfect settlement

"It was inevitable that an **imperfect League** would emerge from what was an equally **imperfect peace settlement**."

CHAPTER 14

Why International Finance Mattered: 1919–1939

Study notes: Why International Finance Mattered — The Interwar Financial Order

CENTRAL THESIS

The financiers who sought to restore **liberal internationalism** after 1918 helped create a **double fragility**: vulnerable cross-border payments and deteriorating political solidarity. The **1929–33 crisis** did not directly cause the next war, but it undermined liberal governments and helped authoritarian expansion gain strength.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1924**
- **1925**
- **1928**
- **1929**
- **1931**
- **1932**
- **1933**

The interwar collapse is often explained chiefly through politics, yet its foundations also lay in an **unstable global financial order**. Bankers pursued restored trade, stable currencies and international capital flows with considerable autonomy from the governments whose security depended on their decisions. Their programme sought prosperity through **liberal internationalism**, but its vulnerabilities eventually separated states that needed to cooperate.

Ⓘ Britain: Global Finance and the Gold Standard

Restoring London's central position carried domestic and diplomatic costs.

THE BRITISH BLUEPRINT

After the **1918 Armistice**, the **City of London** aimed to recover its pre-war standing in global finance. Officials and bankers linked a functioning European economy to the reintegration of **Germany**. Britain's return to the **gold standard in April 1925** at the pre-war rate of **$4.86 per pound** protected sterling's prestige, but contributed to **high interest rates, unemployment and weak industrial recovery**.

THE GOLD EXCHANGE STANDARD

Because the world faced limited gold reserves, the **Bank of England** and the **League of Nations Financial Committee** encouraged smaller countries to hold **sterling or dollars** as reserve assets in place of gold itself. This made financial stability dependent on confidence in a few key currencies.

POLICY CONSEQUENCE

Gold-standard restoration

Return at pre-war parity (1925)

↓

Prestige protected, but sterling overvalued

↓

Tight credit weakens industry and employment

KEY TERM

Gold exchange standard

A system in which some states held **sterling or dollar reserves** rather than backing every unit of currency with physical gold.

EXAM DISTINCTION

Finance versus diplomacy

Bankers	Governments
Re-establish capital flows and stable exchange	Maintain national security and industrial employment

GERMAN REPARATIONS AND THE RUHR

British **financial appeasement** favoured a solvent Germany that could pay debts and trade with Britain. London's financial circles denounced the **French and Belgian occupation of the Ruhr (1923)** following German default as "madness." The **Dawes Plan (1924)** formed part of the stabilization effort. The **London Conference of 1924** curbed France's independent sanctions power and moved reparations administration toward a commission in which **American financial interests held a veto**, as described in the account.

II The American Paradox

Wall Street internationalism collided with Washington protectionism.

By **1929**, the **United States** occupied the centre of international trade and payments. Yet **Wall Street financiers** wanted overseas lending and portfolio investment, while a more **isolationist Washington** demanded repayments, protected domestic markets and avoided European commitments. This mismatch made the world reliant on American credit without providing an open American market through which borrowers could earn dollars.

TWO INCOMPATIBLE AMERICAN APPROACHES IN THE 1920S

Issue	Wall Street: internationalist	Washington: protectionist / isolationist
Goal	Expand foreign lending and investment.	Protect domestic markets and avoid European entanglements.
Trade	Permit imports so foreign debtors could earn repayment funds.	High tariffs, including Fordney–McCumber and Smoot–Hawley.
War debts	Forgiveness or reduction to stabilize Europe.	Insistence on repayment and "rugged individualism."
Leadership	Benjamin Strong (New York Fed); J. P. Morgan Jr.	Harding, Coolidge and Hoover.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

The crash started everything?

Not in this account. The withdrawal of American capital began in **1928**; the global payments system was already vulnerable before October 1929.

CAUSAL CHAIN

A dollar shortage for Europe

1. **US trade surplus**
2. **Tariff barriers limit dollar earnings**
3. **American loans fund repayments**
4. **Capital returns to New York**

THE FATAL LOAN DEPENDENCY

The United States ran a large **balance-of-payments surplus**, yet closed its markets to many imports. European borrowers therefore needed repeated **American loans** to service debt. The **New York stock-market boom of 1928** pulled capital back to the US, weakening European credit *before* the 1929 market crash. **Herbert Hoover** dismissed Benjamin Strong as a “mental annex to Europe.”

III France and the Myth of Financial Imperialism

French financial policy is presented as defensive, but suspicion turned technical decisions into crises.

DEFENCE RATHER THAN EXPANSION

British observers depicted France’s abundant capital as a weapon used to contain Germany and dominate Eastern Europe. France's financial policy also reflected **defensive alliances with Poland, Romania and Yugoslavia** and the substantial expense of **rebuilding devastated French territory** without the reparations initially promised.

THE STERLING–FRANC DISPUTE

The **Bank of France** accumulated substantial **sterling balances** while supporting the franc. Its request to exchange **£20 million** of sterling for gold, described here as a technical response to speculation, was interpreted in London as hostile political pressure. In **1931**, leaders including **Briand and Laval** attempted interest-rate reductions and loans to support Britain and Germany, but mutual distrust obstructed cooperation.

HISTORICAL INTERPRETATION

Was French finance imperialist?

Historical interpretation: French credit policy primarily defended its borders and currency. British fears of an aggressive “financial imperialism” made cooperation harder.

SIGNIFICANT RESERVE DISPUTE

Sterling demanded as gold

£20M

The amount France sought to convert from sterling to gold, provoking British suspicions.

Ⅳ The Global Breakdown, 1929–1933

A fragile payments network translated local setbacks into general depression.

The chronology also records **Strong's central-bank warning (1927)** and, in **1933**, Hitler's rise and a US banker inquiry. The **Great Depression** was more than the Wall Street crash. Weakly regulated finance, international debts, vulnerable reserve currencies and rising tariff barriers turned downturn into a **global trade and payments collapse**. The financial breakdown involved **Creditanstalt in Austria**, British withdrawal from gold and the breakdown of reparations and war-debt cooperation.

HOW THE FINANCIAL CRISIS SPREAD, 1928–1932

Date	Event	International significance
1928–29	New York market boom draws funds away from Europe.	Cuts off short-term finance and exposes borrowers.
1930	Smoot–Hawley tariff introduced in US trade policy.	Protection and retaliation narrow markets; the account gives March as the signature date.
May 1931	Austrian **Creditanstalt** collapses.	Banking contagion; France linked rescue to blocking an Austro-German customs union, which Britain called "blackmail."
Sept 1931	Britain leaves gold; sterling depreciates sharply.	Sterling depreciates about **30%**, imposing heavy losses on the Bank of France's large sterling holdings.
1932	Lausanne Conference effectively ends German reparations.	US still refuses to cancel Allied war debts.

FINANCIAL TURNING POINTS

From stabilization to crisis

- **1928** — US capital begins returning home
- **1929** — Wall Street crash
- **1931** — Creditanstalt; sterling crisis
- **1932** — Reparations end; war debts remain

CONTAGION MECHANISM

Why the depression spread

International lending contracts
↓
Bank and currency crises
↓
Trade barriers and deflation
↓
Political cooperation collapses

The financiers of the 1920s pursued an international market order without adjusting it to the new political and debt landscape left by the Great War. **British attempts to build peace through trade** and **French efforts to purchase security through financial policy** failed. The crisis of **1929–33** did not mechanically produce the Second World War, but **discredited liberal governments**, divided the democracies and made authoritarian expansion easier in **Germany, Italy and Japan**.

§ Revision: Finance and the Fragility of Peace

A liberal programme could prove politically destructive without being a conscious conspiracy.

THREE INTERCONNECTED FAILURES OF INTERWAR FINANCE

Concept	Interwar practice	Consequence
Liberal internationalism	Independent global banking and capital movement.	Systemic vulnerability beyond national control.
Gold standard	Restoration of pre-1914 parity in a transformed economy.	Deflation, unemployment and commercial conflict.
Allied solidarity	Disputes over reparations and war debts.	Breakdown of cooperation by 1932.

REVISION THESIS

A double fragility

Financial: credit and currency interdependence.
Political: democracies unable to cooperate over debts, tariffs and security.

EXAM CAUSATION

Crisis was not a direct war trigger

Not deterministic
Depression did not automatically cause war

Enabling condition
Liberal collapse aided fascism and militarism

CHAPTER 15

The Far Eastern Crisis and the Balance of Power, 1920–1941

Study notes: The Far Eastern Crisis — From Washington Cooperation to Pacific War

CENTRAL THESIS

The Far Eastern crisis was a prolonged contest between **Western-led status-quo imperialism** and **Japanese revisionism**. The cooperative **Washington System** depended on diplomatic restraint; depression, Chinese nationalism and Japanese military independence destroyed that restraint, producing escalating confrontation and war in **1941**.

TIMELINE

- **1922**
- **1929**
- **1931**
- **1933**
- **1934**
- **1937**
- **1939**
- **1940**
- **1941**

The clash in East Asia unfolded over two decades rather than in a single explosion. After the First World War, Western powers sought to replace the scramble for China with rules of **equal access and limited naval competition**. Japan came to regard these as restrictions imposed by states still enjoying their own imperial privileges. As the **Great Depression** broke down economic cooperation, nationalists and military commanders increasingly turned toward force.

Ⅰ The Washington System: A Fragile Peace

Pacific arrangements sought to manage naval rivalry and access to China.

TWO FOUNDATIONS OF COOPERATION

The postwar Far Eastern order rested on the **League of Nations** and the **Washington Treaty System (1922)**. The arrangements purported to preserve **Chinese sovereignty** and the **Open Door** for commerce while limiting competition among Pacific naval powers. This compromise amounted to the "orderly exploitation" of China rather than a complete rejection of imperialism.

THE THREE WASHINGTON TREATY ARRANGEMENTS

Treaty	Objective	Principal treaty terms
Nine-Power Treaty	China and trade	Chinese territorial integrity; **Open Door** commercial access.
Four-Power Treaty	Pacific security	Consultation among Pacific powers; fortification restrictions are also listed here.
Five-Power Naval Treaty	Battleship limitation	Capital-ship ratio of **5 : 5 : 3** for Britain, the US and Japan.

KEY PRINCIPLE

Open Door

Equal commercial access for foreign powers in **China**, while formally respecting China's territorial integrity.

NAVAL LIMIT

A disputed ratio

5:5:3

Washington capital-ship ratio: Britain, United States and Japan.

PACIFIC TREATY SYSTEM

Fortification limits and naval policy

The Washington treaty system addressed restrictions on Pacific fortifications in addition to naval ratios and commercial arrangements.

The **5:5:3** naval ratio appeared to Japan as a symbol of inferiority. Washington diplomacy also ended the **Anglo-Japanese Alliance**, leaving Tokyo feeling rebuffed by Britain and threatened by America's growing strength. Japan therefore resented an arrangement that Western powers treated as cooperation.

II Eroding the Status Quo

Chinese nationalism, Soviet force and weak Japanese civilian control destabilized agreements.

THREE SOURCES OF DESTABILIZATION

First, **Chiang Kai-shek** and the **Kuomintang** sought to unify China and abolish foreign **extraterritorial rights**, threatening outside interests. Second, the **USSR** defended its **Chinese Eastern Railway** position, using force in **1929** after a clash with Chiang's forces. Third, unstable Japanese cabinets, political assassination and military insubordination weakened Tokyo's civilian government.

The **Kwantung Army**, stationed in Manchuria, increasingly acted autonomously and pushed national policy toward unilateral expansion. This created a gap between diplomats who had accepted international rules and officers prepared to break them.

III The Depression and the Manchurian Rupture

A weakening economy and military initiative overwhelm collective security.

EROSION OF COOPERATION

Three pressures

- China challenged foreign privileges.
- The USSR defended its railway interests.
- Japanese officers acted beyond civilian control.

KEY ACTOR

Kwantung Army

The Japanese force in **Manchuria** whose autonomous decisions pushed Japan toward expansion, often beyond civilian political control.

MANCHURIA SEQUENCE

A failed collective-security test

1929	Depression begins
1931	Mukden; invasion
1932	Manchukuo regime
1933	Japan leaves League

THE MUKDEN INCIDENT (18 SEPTEMBER 1931)

Officers including **Ishiwara Kanji** and **Itagaki Seishiro** staged an attack on the **South Manchuria Railway** and used it to justify an invasion of **Manchuria**. Japan established the puppet regime of **Manchukuo**. The crisis directly repudiated the Washington security framework. The **Stimson Doctrine** expressed US non-recognition of territorial changes achieved by force.

LYTTON AND THE LEAGUE

The **League of Nations**, preoccupied with the Depression and lacking the will to use force, dispatched the **Lytton Commission**. Its findings criticized Japanese militarism while acknowledging disorder in China. Japan rejected the report and **left the League in March 1933**. Economic nationalism and the failure of collective enforcement had thus reinforced one another.

Ⅳ From Regional Revisionism to War in China

The mid-1930s brought diplomatic defiance, naval competition and wider combat.

THE AMAU DECLARATION AND NAVAL REARMAMENT

The **Amau Declaration (1934)** opposed foreign assistance to China, asserting what resembled a Japanese **“Monroe Doctrine”** over East Asia. Japan demanded battleship parity at the **London Naval Conference** in the mid-1930s, then abandoned naval limitations when parity was refused, rekindling the arms race.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

A spontaneous border clash?

No. Kwantung officers **staged** the railway incident that became the pretext for invasion.

EXAM DISTINCTION

Escalation, not a single leap

1934–36
Regional claims and naval treaty breakdown

1937 onward
Full-scale China war and diplomatic alignment

CHRONOLOGY

Naval and military escalation

1. **Amau Declaration (1934)**
2. **Demand for naval parity**
3. **Full invasion of China (1937)**

WAR AND THE ANTI-COMINTERN ALIGNMENT

In **1937**, Japan launched a full-scale invasion of China. Bombing attacks on civilians helped transform Western perceptions of Japan into those of an international aggressor. Japanese alignment with **Germany and Italy** through the **Anti-Comintern Pact** also alarmed Britain because it threatened both communism and the wider imperial balance. The precise pact chronology in the submitted briefing requires checking.

Ⓥ China as Proxy and the European War

China becomes a theatre in a broader power struggle.

OUTSIDE ASSISTANCE AND NOMONHAN

From **1938**, the **US, Britain and the USSR** increasingly supported China as a strategic counterweight to Japan. The USSR and US furnished **advisers, aircraft and equipment**; Britain accelerated the **Burma Road** supply link to Chiang Kai-shek. At **Nomonhan (1939)**, a major Soviet–Japanese frontier battle ended in **Japanese defeat**, exposing weaknesses against mechanized armies.

THE EUROPEAN STRATEGIC WINDOW

The **Nazi–Soviet Pact** shocked Japan by aligning Germany with the Soviet rival it had feared. The subsequent **fall of France** and heavy British commitments in Europe created an opportunity for a **southern advance** toward Dutch and British possessions in Southeast Asia. The chronology dates the Nazi–Soviet Pact to **August 1933**.

STRATEGIC LESSON

Nomonhan (1939)

Japan’s defeat in a large frontier battle against Soviet forces underscored the danger of a northern war against mechanized opponents.

STRATEGIC CROSSROADS

Two directions for Japan

North
Face Soviet military power

South
Seize European colonial raw materials

VI The Final Descent, 1940–1941

Trade sanctions and strategic calculation narrow the choices.

WESTERN COORDINATION AND EMBARGOES

With Japan expanding, the US, Britain, the Dutch and Australia moved toward regional defence cooperation, described in the account as an **ABDA** coalition. In the **summer of 1941**, the United States and Britain **froze Japanese assets** and placed restrictions on **oil and scrap steel**. Access to strategic raw materials became the "sinews of war." The formal timing of ABDA arrangements needs verification against the original source.

JAPAN'S TWO CALCULATED OPTIONS

Japan could either **negotiate a settlement** that would require retreat from China and loss of regional ambition, or **strike south** while its armed forces still enjoyed an immediate advantage. Leaders hoped to win a short conflict before the Western industrial powers could mobilize superior resources. The assumption that Western societies lacked the will for prolonged war proved a fundamental miscalculation.

The Far Eastern crisis exposed the weaknesses of an international system that relied on **moral suasion and economic guidelines** while failing to manage changing power realities. The Depression undermined cooperation; Japan treated territorial conquest as the path to status; and the Western democracies misjudged the deterrent value of force. Japan ultimately wagered on a **short war** despite the industrial and demographic superiority of its adversaries. The resulting conflict brought about the destruction of the Japanese Empire.

DECISION TRAP

Economic coercion becomes strategy

Oil and assets restricted (1941)

↓

Japan faces resource crisis

↓

Retreat in China or seize supplies

↓

Gamble on rapid military victory

KEY STRATEGY

Southern Advance

Japan's proposed movement into **Southeast Asian colonial territories** to secure oil and other raw materials.

§ Revision: The Failure of Rationalism

Regional grievance, depression and strategic miscalculation culminated in Pacific war.

Key terms for revision: Open Door Policy (equal commercial access to China); **Kwantung Army** (autonomous force in Manchuria); **Manchukuo** (Japanese puppet state); **Stimson Doctrine** (US non-recognition of territorial changes achieved by force); **Southern Advance** (resources-oriented Southeast Asian strategy).

> *"China was the bone that the victorious Great Powers of the First World War would gnaw at their leisure, and as long as they were in agreement there would be no cause for dispute. That agreement, however, would prove continually harder and harder to achieve."*

REVISION THESIS

From cooperation to confrontation

International arrangements could not survive an economic collapse, military autonomy and incompatible visions of power in China and the Pacific.

THE CRISIS IN SIX DATES

A rapid revision strip

1922	Washington System
1931	Manchuria invaded
1933	Japan leaves League
1937	China war expands
1939	Nomonhan
1941	Embargo and war

CHAPTER 16

The Challenge to Empire in the Middle East and Asia

Study notes: The Illusion of Progress — The Challenge to Empire in Interwar Asia and the Middle East

CENTRAL THESIS

The supposed interwar **“rise of nationalism”** did not simply transfer mass loyalty from empire to nation. **Western-educated elites** were often tied to colonial power, whereas many decisive challenges came from **spontaneous popular or subaltern movements** driven by taxation, hunger, injustice and repression. Nationalist histories later claimed these struggles as steps toward independence.

TIMELINE

- **1918**
- **1919**
- **1920**
- **1922**
- **1925**
- **1927**
- **1930**
- **1931**
- **1935**
- **1939**

In the aftermath of the First World War, **Britain and France** reached their greatest territorial extents by absorbing former imperial territories through League of Nations **mandates**. The era is often described as a straightforward "rise of nationalism," but the evidence in the account suggests a more divided landscape: nationalist elites borrowed Western concepts without always rallying ordinary people, while popular groups resisted oppression through their own actions and grievances.

The central question is why widespread resistance in **India**, the **Middle Eastern mandates** and **French Indochina** failed to dislodge European rule before 1939.

I The Post-War Mirage: Paris and Mandates

The rhetoric of self-determination coexisted with new imperial administration.

THE PROMISE OF 1919

The language of **Woodrow Wilson's national self-determination** and the **Bolshevik repudiation of colonialism** drew nationalist delegations to the Paris Peace Conference. Yet Britain and France used German and Ottoman defeat to enlarge their authority. Under the **League of Nations Mandate System**, "advanced" states were meant to prepare supposedly less developed societies for self-government; in practice the arrangement often resembled **colonialism under a new label**.

THREE TERMS BEHIND THE POST-WAR IMPERIAL SETTLEMENT

Term	Meaning in the account
Mandate system	Administration by supposedly "advanced" states, presented as preparation for independence but often preserving colonial rule.
Self-determination	A powerful but imprecise Wilsonian promise lacking mechanisms to enforce it against British or French interests.

KEY TERM

Mandate system

A **League-backed trusteeship** presented as preparation for self-rule but, in this analysis, frequently an instrument of imperial extension.

INTERPRETIVE CAUTION

Self-determination ≠ immediate independence

The **Paris settlement** generated political expectations, yet Britain and France often retained control over the territories in question.

THREE TERMS BEHIND THE POST-WAR IMPERIAL SETTLEMENT (CONTINUED)

Term	Meaning in the account
Mission civilisatrice	The European “civilizing mission,” depicting empire as a necessary developmental stage for subject peoples.

II The “Rise of Nationalism” Reconsidered

Subaltern history emphasizes the independence of popular resistance from elite narratives.

THE CONVENTIONAL STORY

A nationalist narrative associated with scholars such as **Hans Kohn** describes a Western idea of nationalism spreading “downwards” until it mobilized the masses. The linear progression from elite nationalism to mass mobilization was not universal. **Elite nationalists** often had economic and social connections with imperial administrators, and many preferred political argument to risky popular action.

THE SUBALTERN PERSPECTIVE

The **Subaltern Studies** approach focuses on the “contested, untidy nature of events.” Instead of reading every revolt as an expression of elite national planning, it asks how peasants, laborers and local communities responded to **taxation, coercion and exploitation** on their own terms. Later nationalist accounts could reshape failed or spontaneous uprisings into heroic stories of unified national destiny.

> *“To admit that colonial rule was oppressive, exploitive, and frequently brutal... required far too much honesty; it was preferable to believe that non-European peoples were simply progressing through a necessary stage of “development.””*

HISTORICAL METHOD

Two ways to explain rebellion

Elite-nationalist lens
Nation-building spreads from leaders to the masses

Subaltern lens
People resist immediate grievances; elites later construct narratives

EXAM INSIGHT

Separate motivation from later memory

Ask whether a revolt was **organized by nationalist leadership**, sparked by local material grievances, or claimed retrospectively as a nationalist milestone.

III India: Non-Cooperation and Its Limits

Gandhi transformed political methods without immediately dismantling the Raj.

THE CRISIS OF IMPERIAL LEGITIMACY

The **Amritsar Massacre (1919)**, in which British troops killed **379 demonstrators** according to the account, severely damaged the moral authority of British rule. **Mohandas Gandhi** responded through methods that attacked legitimacy rather than seeking a conventional battlefield victory.

GANDHI'S LANGUAGE OF RESISTANCE

Satyagraha meant peaceful resistance or non-cooperation against the Raj's moral and legal claims. **Swaraj** referred to "self-rule," deliberately broad enough to unite different political groups. **Hartals** were organized stoppages and public protests. Gandhi's appeal was powerful, but the coalition did not eliminate tensions among the **Indian National Congress**, popular Hindu identity and the **Muslim League**.

INSTITUTIONAL LIMITS

The **Government of India Act (1935)** left important functions in British hands, including powers linked in the account to revenue, law and the Viceroy. The author stresses the persistence of imperial structures and argues that British parliamentary priorities continued to shape reform more than nationalist pressure alone.

THREE GANDHIAN TERMS

Methods and political goal

1. **Satyagraha — peaceful non-cooperation**
2. **Swaraj — self-rule**
3. **Hartal — collective strike or protest**

BRITISH RAJ

Amritsar, 1919

379

Reported deaths at Amritsar; a watershed for Raj legitimacy.

IV Turkey, Egypt and the Arab Mandates

Different political outcomes concealed common colonial tensions.

TURKEY: AN EXCEPTIONAL OUTCOME

Turkey stood apart from the British and French mandate regions, winning independence through the **Turkish War of Independence (1919–22)** and overturning the **Treaty of Sèvres**. Within this account's postwar comparison, Turkey is presented as the only genuinely independent Middle Eastern case.

EGYPT: THE 1919 UPRISING

The **Wafd**, headed by **Sa'd Zaghlul**, pursued independence in a Wilsonian idiom. Following his exile, protests expanded spontaneously across urban lawyers and students as well as rural peasants. Their tactics included **strikes, boycotts and attacks on railway and telegraph lines**. Britain's **1922 declaration of independence** retained control over foreign affairs, communication and minority protection, making sovereignty severely qualified.

IRAQ AND SYRIA: SUPPRESSED REVOLTS

In both mandate rebellions below, local grievances met European military force. The political outcomes differed: Britain installed **King Faysal** for indirect rule in Iraq, while Syrian nationalist elites turned toward collaboration through the **National Bloc**. The comparison shows how suppression could redirect resistance without ending colonial control.

CASE COMPARISON

Different routes to autonomy

Turkey
War of independence overturned Sèvres

Egypt
1922 declaration left vital British powers intact

COMMON MISREADING

A declared state is not always sovereign

Egypt in 1922 illustrates how nominal "independence" could coexist with extensive external control.

REGIONAL CHRONOLOGY

The interwar Middle East

- **1919** Egyptian uprising
- **1920** Iraqi revolt
- **1922** Turkish victory; Egyptian declaration
- **1925–27** Syrian Great Revolt

TWO MAJOR MANDATE REBELLIONS

Region	Immediate grievances	Military and political outcome
Iraq, 1920	Taxes; forced labour or conscription for public works; calls for Islamic government.	British aerial suppression; Faysal installed to govern indirectly.
Syria, 1925–27	Arbitrary French rule, conscription of tribal leaders, punitive administration.	French bombardment of Damascus (the account cites 1,500 deaths); National Bloc develops cooperation strategy.

(V) French Indochina: Resistance and Communism

Failed formal nationalism and rural unrest opened space for communist organization.

THE COLONIAL ECONOMY

French rule over **Vietnam, Cambodia and Laos** subordinated the region to export production, especially **rubber and rice**. Resistance grew against economic exploitation, oppressive taxes and the government's use of force.

FROM THE VNQDD TO THE ICP AND THE PEASANT SOVIETS

The **Vietnamese Nationalist Party (VNQDD)** backed the **Yen Bay Mutiny (1930)**, but its suppression shattered conventional nationalist leadership. That year, **Ho Chi Minh (Nguyen Ai Quoc)** founded the **Indochinese Communist Party (ICP)**. Meanwhile the **Nghe An/Ha Tinh Soviet uprisings (1930–31)** grew from peasant hunger, taxes and oppression. Although communists later claimed credit, the account stresses the **spontaneous** origins of much of the resistance; French air attacks and starvation tactics crushed it.

INDOCHINA IN THREE STEPS

Changing forms of resistance

- **1930** VNQDD's Yen Bay mutiny fails
- **1930** Ho Chi Minh establishes ICP
- **1930–31** Nghe An/Ha Tinh peasant revolts

EXAM INTERPRETATION

Who owned the rebellion?

Distinguish a **party's subsequent claim to leadership** from the causes and organization of the original peasant movements.

The period from **1918 to 1939** was marked by **resistance without inevitable liberation**. Nationalist elites frequently combined imported language with ties to imperial power; people resisted through concrete economic and social grievances; and European rulers relied on **divide-and-rule methods, armored vehicles and aerial bombing** to suppress revolts. Later histories could recast the failures and fractures of interwar movements as stages in a united nationalist story.

§ Revision: Why Empire Survived

Interwar protest was real and often powerful, but not a linear march to independence.

Revision essentials: the **mandate system** renewed empire under international language; **Turkey** offers the contrast of successful independence; **Gandhi's satyagraha** contested Raj legitimacy while political control remained constrained; and **subaltern resistance** helps explain how mass grievances differed from elite-nationalist programmes.

> *"Nation-building... was as much about failure as it was about success... commitment to the nation competed with other more deeply rooted loyalties."*

REVISION THESIS

The paradox of anticolonial politics

Elite nationalism did not automatically direct popular resistance; the imperial system remained militarily and politically resilient despite recurrent unrest.

END-OF-CHAPTER RECALL

Two contrasts to remember

Elite and mass
Constitutional ideas versus immediate grievances

Symbol and power
Self-rule rhetoric versus coercive imperial control

CHAPTER 17

Mussolini's War in Ethiopia

Study notes: The Crucible of Barbarism — Ethiopia and the Fracture of the International Order

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Italo-Ethiopian War (1935–36)** exposed the hollowness of collective security: Italy's conquest brought domestic triumph to **Fascism** while eroding the **League of Nations**, driving Mussolini toward Hitler and normalizing terror against civilians. Its significance reaches beyond an African colonial campaign into the crisis of the European order.

TIMELINE

1896

1923

1934

1935

1936

The invasion of Ethiopia in **1935** was not simply a late episode of the Scramble for Africa. It was a defining crisis of the 1930s "**Dark Valley**," linking older imperial ambitions to the mass violence and diplomatic realignment that preceded the Second World War. **Sir Robert Vansittart** dismissed the affair as a "trivial" pretext, but its consequences for the **League**, **British and French diplomacy**, and the emerging **Rome–Berlin alignment** were substantial.

I The Ethiopian Anomaly: A Sovereign African State

Military capacity, internal organization and international recognition supported independence.

ADOWA: THE MEMORY OF RESISTANCE

At the **Battle of Adowa (1896)**, **Emperor Menelik II** defeated an invading Italian army. The account contrasts approximately **100,000 Ethiopian troops** with **20,000 Italians**; Italy was forced to acknowledge Ethiopian sovereignty. This made independent Ethiopia an important symbol for the wider **African diaspora**, **Pan-Africanism** and **Rastafarianism**.

THE MILITARY–FEUDAL ORDER

Ethiopian power rested on a **military-feudal hierarchy** whose aristocratic **Rases** mobilized the peasantry. Shared **Christian traditions** and **Amharic language** are presented as elements of cohesion. Under **Haile Selassie (Ras Tafari)**, centralizing reforms sought to build an officer corps and a more unified state.

DIPLOMACY AS A DEFENSIVE SHIELD

In **1923**, Ethiopia entered the **League of Nations** under Haile Selassie's leadership, hoping international membership and the Covenant would deter territorial aggression. What had worked through military strength against Italy in 1896 was increasingly entrusted to **international law** by 1935.

A DEFINING DEFEAT

Adowa, 1896

100,000 : 20,000

Approximate Ethiopian-to-Italian troop strength given in the account.

HISTORICAL PARADOX

Two kinds of security

1896	1935
Military victory forces recognition	Legal protection fails to deter invasion

KEY TERM

Rases

The Ethiopian **aristocratic leaders** whose military and political roles helped mobilize forces within the traditional feudal structure.

ETHIOPIA BEFORE TWO ITALIAN INVASIONS

Aspect	Menelik II, 1896	Haile Selassie, 1935
State structure	Military-feudal hierarchy	Centralizing reforms and nascent absolutism
Armed forces	Large feudal militia	Transition toward a modern officer corps
Primary strength	Numbers and united Rases	League membership and diplomatic legitimacy
Outcome	Victory at Adowa	Conquest and occupation

II The Dynamics of Fascist Colonialism

National prestige, ideology, industry and public ritual reinforce one another.

REVERSING THE HUMILIATION OF ADOWA

The **Wal Wal Incident (1934)**, a frontier confrontation, provided a pretext for invasion. To **Benito Mussolini**, Ethiopia's independence recalled the Italian humiliation of 1896. The Fascist regime presented expansion as a test of national vitality, the triumph of the **"New Man"** and proof that Italy was no longer an international lightweight.

THE "PROLETARIAN NATION" CLAIM

Mussolini depicted Italy as a **"proletarian nation"** with abundant labor but inadequate land and capital. Colonies were supposed to offer territory for emigrants, strengthen authoritarian unity and showcase industries such as **Fiat and Ansaldo**. A supposedly "virile" imperial project would become a national **"gymnasium of boldness."**

IDEOLOGICAL MECHANISM

Mussolini's imperial promise

Adowa remembered as humiliation

↓

"Proletarian nation" seeks land and prestige

↓

Conquest presented as Fascist renewal

DOMESTIC MOBILIZATION

The Wedding Ring Ceremony

The surrender of personal gold rings made **imperial warfare a public ritual of solidarity**, helping the regime convert sanctions into nationalist enthusiasm.

THE PEAK OF FASCIST CONSENSUS

The war was widely portrayed as the **zenith of domestic support** for Fascism. At the **1935 "Wedding Ring Ceremony,"** thousands of Italian women surrendered gold rings to help offset international sanctions. The ritual tied private sacrifice, public enthusiasm and loyalty to the **Duce** together.

III Collective Security Fails

Britain and France could neither defend the League nor retain Mussolini as an ally.

STRESA AND BRITISH PUBLIC OPINION

In **April 1935**, the **Stresa Front** joined Britain, France and Italy in opposition to German rearmament. Mussolini treated this diplomacy as toleration of his Ethiopian plans. Britain, however, faced the **Peace Ballot**, in which the account cites **11 million** participants supporting League action and sanctions against aggressors. Policymakers tried to satisfy this demand while preserving Italy as a potential counterweight to Hitler.

PARTIAL SANCTIONS AND THE OPEN SUEZ CANAL

The League imposed **limited economic sanctions**, but Britain did not close the **Suez Canal** to Italian shipping. Troops and supplies continued to pass. Italy could therefore continue its campaign despite sanctions: Britain and France condemned aggression but withheld measures that might stop it.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

Sanctions guaranteed collective security?

Sanctions were imposed, but **enforcement was partial**: the Suez Canal remained open to Italian troop and supply traffic.

DIPLOMATIC BREAKDOWN

From coalition to mistrust

Apr 1935	Stresa Front
1935	Peace Ballot and partial sanctions
Dec 1935	Hoare–Laval proposals leak
1936	League credibility collapses

EXAM DISTINCTION

Two incompatible priorities

Collective security	Balance against Hitler
Defend a League member from conquest	Keep Mussolini diplomatically aligned

HOARE–LAVAL AND THE COLLAPSE OF CREDIBILITY

The secret **Hoare–Laval proposals (December 1935)** offered a division of Ethiopia designed to appease Italy. When the plan leaked, indignation undermined the diplomats and destroyed confidence in the League's impartiality. Rather than securing both peace and Italian friendship, the episode helped alienate Italy and weakened British and French efforts to restrain Hitler.

IV The New Barbarism: War Against Civilians

Colonial conquest became a testing ground for extreme violence.

CHEMICAL WEAPONS AND AERIAL BOMBARDMENT

The invading Italian forces used **chemical weapons, including mustard gas**, and carried out devastating **aerial bombardment**. The discussion also mentions "nerve gas." The attacks reached **civilian populations** rather than distinguishing reliably between combatants and noncombatants.

RACIAL IDEOLOGY AND TOTAL WAR

Fascist justifications drew upon assertions of **African racial inferiority**, converting colonial power into an ideological license for terror and "extermination." This brutality foreshadowed the destruction of civilian life during the European and global wars of the 1940s.

> *"It is not only upon warriors that the Italian Government has made war. It has above all attacked populations far removed from hostilities... It is collective security: it is the very existence of the League of Nations... it is international morality that is at stake."*
> *— Haile Selassie, Geneva, 1936*

MORAL AND LEGAL CHALLENGE

A member's appeal went unanswered

Haile Selassie insisted that the aggression was not merely a dispute over Ethiopia but a test of the **League Covenant and international morality**.

ANALYTICAL LINK

Colonial war and European war

Explain how **chemical weapons, bombing of civilians and racialized domination** in Ethiopia anticipate techniques and justifications used in later total warfare.

By **1936**, Ethiopia had been conquered, **collective security** was discredited and Mussolini’s earlier partnership with **Britain and France** had given way to closer cooperation with **Nazi Germany**. Hitler’s support for Italy, alongside Mussolini’s growing acceptance of German plans concerning Austria, encouraged the axis alignment. Ethiopia became a hinge between older colonial conquest and the harsher state violence of the later decade.

§ Revision: Power Realigned

The conquest strengthened Fascism while dissolving confidence in the interwar order.

Revision essentials: remember **Adowa (1896)** as Ethiopia's earlier independence victory; **League membership (1923)** as its legal hope; **Stresa, partial sanctions and Hoare–Laval (1935)** as the collapse of diplomatic consistency; and **chemical and aerial attacks** as the war's devastating innovation. The terms **Wal Wal Incident** (1934 border clash), **Dark Valley**, **sanctions** and **Anschluss** place the war in its broader European context.

TERMS ANCHORING THE ETHIOPIAN CRISIS

Term	Meaning or significance
Dark Valley	The troubled 1930s: depression, drift and the bitter consequences of the First World War.
Adowa (1896)	Italian defeat central to Mussolini's rhetoric of national humiliation.
Wal Wal Incident	1934 frontier confrontation used as a pretext for invasion.
League sanctions	Incomplete restrictions that failed to prevent conquest and fueled Fascist national unity.
Anschluss	German annexation of Austria, made more feasible as Italy moved closer to Berlin.

REVISION THESIS

An alliance-destroying colonial war

Ethiopia demonstrated that the **League could not defend a member**, strengthened Mussolini at home and altered the diplomatic balance toward **Hitler**.

KEY EVENTS

Four milestones

- **1896** Adowa defeats Italy
- **1923** Ethiopia enters League
- **1935** Invasion and failed sanctions
- **1936** Conquest; international appeal

CHAPTER 18

The Challenge in Europe, 1935–1941

Study notes: The Architects of Ruin — The Collapse of the European Order, 1935–1941

CENTRAL THESIS

The European order established in **1919–20** collapsed under a dynamic, ideologically driven challenge led by **Nazi Germany**. Revisionist powers exploited the structural fragility, demographic anxieties and diplomatic disunity of the states charged with defending Versailles. The outcome was not treaty adjustment but the **destruction of the European status quo**.

TIMELINE

1919

1935

1936

1938

1939

1940

1941

Between **1935 and 1941**, Europe's international system underwent a transformation tantamount to the "utter destruction" of the old continental balance. The principal division lay between the **challengers**—powers seeking to revise the settlement through ideology and force—and the **challenged**—states whose security rested on the post-1918 order but whose capacity and will to defend it increasingly diverged.

I The Anatomy of the Challenge

Revisionism ranged from unlimited German ambition to localized frontier claims.

The **Versailles settlement** depended on the victory of the Allied powers in 1918. By the mid-1930s, the states dissatisfied with that order posed different degrees of challenge. **Britain and France** were its principal guardians; **Poland, Czechoslovakia and Yugoslavia** owed much of their international position—and in this interpretation even their very existence—to its territorial settlements. For such states, border revision was often an **existential threat**, not a minor concession.

A HIERARCHY OF EUROPEAN CHALLENGES

Power	Nature of challenge	Central aims
Germany	Foremost aggressor	Overturn Versailles; pursue *Lebensraum*; dominate Europe and potentially the wider world.
Italy	Secondary aggressor	Break the "Mediterranean prison"; seek a new Roman imperial order.
Soviet Union	Shifting position	Initially concerned with stability, then revision of frontiers in 1939.
Eastern European states	Localized revisionism	Hungary contested Trianon; Poland and Lithuania disputed frontiers.

POWER MATRIX

Challengers and challenged

Revisionists
Germany, Italy, and shifting Soviet policy

Guardians
Britain, France and the successor states

EXAM FRAMING

Not every revision was equivalent

Separate **limited border grievances** from programmes for **conquest and domination**; the challenge varied radically by state.

II Germany: Treaty Revision and Radical Ideology

A widely shared anti-Versailles grievance intersected with Hitler's far broader programme.

THE OVERTHROW OF VERSAILLES

Many Germans rejected the 1918 defeat through the **"stab-in-the-back"** narrative. Opposition centered on **territorial losses to Poland**, the treaty's **100,000-man army ceiling** and prohibition of a military air force, and the **war-guilt and reparations provisions**. These grievances reached beyond committed Nazis: they resonated within German public and elite opinion.

BEYOND TREATY REVISION: HITLER'S WORLD PICTURE

Hitler's goals extended far beyond revising an unpopular peace. The account emphasizes **antisemitism**, race as the supposed motor of history, perpetual **Social Darwinist struggle** and ***Lebensraum*** in Eastern Europe at the expense of the Soviet Union. Its **intentionalist interpretation** treats Hitler's power and expansionist aims as real, deliberate and long-standing—not a mere product of diplomatic accidents.

THE ECONOMIC IMPULSE

German rearmament created compounding strains on supplies of **steel, aluminium and oil**. The **Four-Year Plan (1936)** sought to ready industry and the armed forces for war. In this interpretation, rearmament increased demand for resources; conquest promised those resources and enabled further expansion.

KEY TERM

Lebensraum

"**Living space**": Hitler's racial-imperial demand for territorial expansion into the East, above all at the Soviet Union's expense.

THREE GRIEVANCES

Versailles as Hitler's starting point

1. Territorial losses and borders
2. Military restrictions
3. War guilt and reparations

WAR ECONOMY

The resource spiral

Rearmament strains steel, oil and aluminium

↓

Four-Year Plan seeks readiness

↓

Expansion promises resources for further war

III The Italian and Soviet Dimensions

Other revisionist powers reshaped the strategic environment but followed distinct paths.

MUSSOLINI AND THE “MEDITERRANEAN PRISON”

Benito Mussolini believed Italy’s ambitions were constrained by British and French control of **Gibraltar, Malta, Cyprus and Suez**. He celebrated war as a forge of national destiny and pursued dominance in **the Adriatic, Albania, Yugoslavia and Ethiopia**. Unable to confront Britain and France unaided, he joined Hitler in the **Rome–Berlin Axis (1936)** and later the **Pact of Steel (1939)**.

STALIN’S REVISIONIST PIVOT

The **Soviet Union** initially approached the 1930s as a relatively status-quo power, preoccupied with internal upheaval and the purges. In **1939**, the **Nazi–Soviet Pact** enabled Stalin to pursue territorial recovery in **Poland, the Baltic region and Romania**. A state that had previously sought stability now helped dismantle the territorial settlement.

IV The Crisis of the Status Quo

The powers committed to Versailles were divided by their own political and strategic weaknesses.

FRANCE: THE “HOLLOW YEARS”

French security was shaped by the human cost of the First World War. During the **“hollow years” (1936–39)**, the number of young men reaching military age was sharply reduced by the wartime birth deficit. France had relied on a **demilitarized Rhineland** as an open approach to Germany. Its remilitarization undermined that strategy. The account argues that after the **Ruhr occupation of 1923**, France increasingly lacked the political will to enforce Versailles through force.

TWO OTHER POWERS

Different revisionist pathways

Italy
Mediterranean ambition and Axis alignment

USSR
From security concerns to 1939 territorial revision

ALLIANCE SIGNALS

The shifting axis

- **1936** Rome–Berlin Axis
- **1939** Pact of Steel
- **1939** Nazi–Soviet Pact

FRENCH VULNERABILITY

The “hollow years”

1936–39

A sharp wartime birth deficit reduced the number of French men reaching military age.

BRITAIN: IMPERIAL RESPONSIBILITIES AND REVISIONIST SYMPATHY

Britain saw itself as a **global imperial power** and often treated continental disputes as only one among several theatres of concern. Many Britons viewed **Versailles as excessively severe** and German demands for change as partly legitimate. A strong commitment to the security of Europe emerged slowly, after several components of the postwar arrangement had already collapsed.

Ⓥ The Chain of Success, 1935–1941

German boldness and the hesitant response of the defenders progressively destroyed the old order.

FROM TREATY DEFIANCE TO GENERAL WAR

Date	Turning point	Consequences
March 1935	Conscription and the Luftwaffe	Open rejection of Versailles disarmament clauses.
March 1936	Remilitarization of the Rhineland	France loses its forward strategic “open door.”
March 1938	*Anschluss*	Austria annexed into an enlarged Germany.
September 1938	Munich Agreement	Sudetenland ceded; Czechoslovakia severely weakened.
March 1939	Occupation of Prague	Czechoslovak state broken apart.
September 1939	Invasion of Poland	Destruction of a state, not merely a limited frontier revision.
May–June 1940	Fall of the West	Germany defeats the Netherlands, Belgium and France.
June 1941	Operation Barbarossa	Hitler launches war in the East for *Lebensraum*.

COMMON MISREADING

Weakness was not only military

The account emphasizes **demography, political will and rival imperial responsibilities**, not an automatic German advantage in every weapons category.

ESCALATION STRIP

Five turning points

- **1935** Open German rearmament
- **1936** Rhineland remilitarized
- **1938** Anschluss and Munich
- **1939** Prague and Poland
- **1941** Barbarossa

EXAM COMPARISON

Why the response failed

Challengers
Boldness, surprise, coercion

Defenders
Protest, negotiation, delayed readiness

By **June 1940**, Germany dominated much of Europe, achieving in weeks what it had failed to achieve in years during the First World War. The explanation does not attribute this solely to superiority in troop or tank numbers. It emphasizes **speed, ruthlessness, operational dynamism and ideological conviction**, which repeatedly left Germany's opponents unable to respond effectively. The **striking asymmetry** was political as well as military: challengers used surprise, audacity and unorthodox diplomacy; defenders relied on diplomatic protest, negotiation and delayed mobilization. Success invited ever bolder demands until the status quo was destroyed.

§ Revision: The Triumph of Dynamism

The old balance collapsed because its defenders could not match a determined ideological challenge.

WHY THE STATUS QUO COLLAPSED

Dimension	The challengers	The defenders
Motivation	Revision, racial ideology, imperial ambition	Avoid war; preserve empire and hard-won security.
Method	Surprise, force and unorthodox diplomacy	Protest, bargaining, hesitant rearmament.
Outcome	Domination of western/central Europe by 1940	Partition, occupation and disarray.

Revision essentials: distinguish **legitimate treaty grievances** from Hitler's far more expansive ideological programme; connect Italian and Soviet revisionism to German success; explain how **French demography and strategy** and **British global commitments** weakened resistance; and trace the escalation from **1935 rearmament** to **Barbarossa in 1941**. The lesson is that a settlement cannot survive if its founders lose the collective will to defend it.

REVISION THESIS

The order was destroyed, not adjusted

Ideological expansion met divided, reluctant defenders. By 1940–41, the crisis of Versailles had become a general European war.

RECALL THE ARGUMENT

From grievance to catastrophe

Versailles contested
↓
Revisionists exploit divisions
↓
The status quo is dismantled by force

CHAPTER 19

Appeasement

Study notes: The Strategy of Settlement — Re-evaluating British Appeasement in the 1930s

CENTRAL THESIS

For British policymakers, **appeasement** meant seeking a negotiated “general settlement,” not simply surrendering to a dictator. This deliberate strategy combined treaty revision, economic recovery, security guarantees and even colonial bargaining. Its premise was **reciprocity**; it ceased to be viable when Hitler repeatedly demonstrated that he would not honor the agreements on which it depended.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1931**
- **1933**
- **1935**
- **1936**
- **1937**
- **1938**
- **1939**

In later memory, **appeasement** is often shorthand for cowardice or futile concessions. In 1930s British diplomacy it could mean **pacification, reduced tension and the active pursuit of peace**. The account argues that policy under **Neville Chamberlain** followed a coherent—though ultimately unsuccessful—search for a comprehensive European **"general settlement"**. Its rationale and limits must be understood in the context of Versailles, imperial commitments and Britain's economic capacity.

Ⓘ The Intellectual Origins: From Versailles to Settlement

Economic recovery, security and treaty revision were imagined as mutually dependent.

Appeasement predated Chamberlain's premiership. Britain's officials increasingly doubted the legitimacy of **Versailles** or the stability of the **Weimar Republic** within the German political world. In **November 1931**, Foreign Office figures **Orme Sargent** and **Frank Ashton-Gwatkin** drafted an influential memorandum: French severity, they argued, magnified the German problem, while European recovery required German economic rehabilitation and credible French security.

> *"World recovery... depends on European recovery; European recovery on German recovery; German recovery on France's consent; France's consent on security... against attack." — Sargent and Ashton-Gwatkin, 1931*

THE PROPOSED "ALL-IN" SETTLEMENT

Component	Purpose
Reparations reduction	Rebuild economic confidence and limit political extremism.
Disarmament	Reduce tension and insecurity.

KEY TERM

Appeasement in its contemporary sense

For these British policymakers, a process of **pacification and negotiated settlement**—not a promise to concede any demand at any price.

SETTLEMENT LOGIC

The Sargent–Ashton-Gwatkin chain

Global recovery requires European recovery
↓
German recovery needs French acceptance
↓
French acceptance needs security

HISTORICAL MISREADING

It did not begin at Munich

The intellectual foundations of settlement policy lay in **the interwar peace debate and a 1931 Foreign Office memorandum**.

THE PROPOSED “ALL-IN” SETTLEMENT (CONTINUED)

Component	Purpose
Security guarantees	Reassure France against renewed German aggression.
Frontier rectification	Answer German grievances about postwar borders.

II Hitler and the Policy of Cautious Involvement

Britain sought limited negotiated reforms even as German policy became more threatening.

THE DISARMAMENT DILEMMA

When **Hitler became Chancellor in 1933**, Foreign Secretary **Sir John Simon** continued pragmatic engagement. The government explored permission for some German rearmament to prevent the **Disarmament Conference** from collapsing. Following Germany’s withdrawal from the **League of Nations**, Simon even entertained legalizing rearmament in exchange for a German return to the international system. He argued that Germany might prefer to be “**made an honest woman**” rather than continue illegitimate practices.

THE ECONOMIC “FOURTH ARM” OF DEFENCE

As **Chancellor of the Exchequer**, Neville Chamberlain warned that indiscriminate rearmament could undermine British economic survival. He treated economic strength as a **“fourth arm”** beside the Army, Navy and Air Force. British planning gave growing emphasis to the **Royal Air Force**, reflecting the contemporary belief that **“the bomber will always get through.”** By **1935**, the **Defence Requirements Sub-Committee** identified Germany, rather than Japan, as the principal long-term threat.

STRATEGIC TRADE-OFF

The “fourth arm” of defence

Military readiness
Army, Navy and RAF need funding

Economic strength
Rearmament must not bankrupt the national economy

THREAT ASSESSMENT

1935

Germany

Identified by the Defence Requirements Sub-Committee as the ultimate potential enemy.

III Colonies and a Diplomatic Modus Vivendi

Colonial concessions were considered tools for inducing a more stable German relationship.

Officials including **Anthony Eden**, who succeeded Simon as Foreign Secretary, considered a replacement for the **Locarno framework**. The proposed **1936–37 settlement** included an **air pact** of reciprocal guarantees, possible acceptance of German changes in the **Rhineland**, economic support for German exports, and even **retrocession of former German colonies** held under mandates.

THE LOST RHINELAND BARGAINING COUNTER

Hitler's **unilateral remilitarization of the Rhineland in March 1936** eliminated one of Britain's principal bargaining levers. British officials nevertheless continued exploring colonial transfers as a means of making Germany a trustworthy **"good European"**. Britain still offered concessions in return for German cooperation, but Hitler's unilateral action had removed a concession it had hoped to trade.

IV Chamberlain: Personal Diplomacy amid a Triple Threat

Europe, the Mediterranean and East Asia placed conflicting demands on British strategy.

THE SEARCH FOR A GENERAL SETTLEMENT

After becoming **Prime Minister in May 1937**, Chamberlain intervened more directly in foreign relations. He faced a **"triple threat"**: **Germany** in Europe, **Italy** in the Mediterranean and **Japan** in East Asia. To reduce the danger of simultaneous conflict, he sought to **detach Italy from Germany** through personal communication with **Mussolini**, despite Eden's reservations.

DIPLOMATIC LEVERS

Four proposed bargains

1. **Air pact and mutual assurances**
2. **Rhineland revision**
3. **Trade and economic support**
4. **Possible colonial retrocession**

COMMON MISREADING

Colonial talk was not a settlement

Considering a transfer of former German colonies was **diplomatic leverage**, not evidence that a comprehensive agreement had already been achieved.

THREE-THEATRE RISK

Chamberlain's strategic nightmare

Germany
Continental Europe

Italy
Mediterranean security

Japan
Far Eastern empire

THE EDEN DISAGREEMENT AND THE MARCH 1938 APPROACH

The disagreements over **Anglo-Italian and Anglo-American relations** contributed to **Eden's resignation in 1938**. The account stresses that this was not simply an absolute moral rejection of all dealings with Germany. In **March 1938**, Ambassador **Sir Nevile Henderson** offered colonial satisfaction in return for a broader German contribution to peace. Hitler's scornful response demonstrated the shrinking prospect of an "all-in" arrangement.

Ⓥ Munich: A Prelude to the Larger Settlement

Chamberlain saw the Sudetenland agreement as the possible start of a broader peace.

The **Anschluss (March 1938)** was followed by German pressure on **Czechoslovakia**. Britain judged direct military defence of the Czechs logistically "**insuperable**." In **September 1938**, after three journeys to Germany, Chamberlain joined the **Munich Agreement**, transferring the **Sudetenland** to Hitler. Chamberlain attached special significance to the subsequent **Anglo-German Declaration**: in his view, resolving the Czech question could become a "prelude" to a general European settlement.

MUNICH, SEPTEMBER 1938: PARTICIPANTS AND CONSEQUENCES

Power	Position at the conference	Immediate outcome
Britain	Mediator and leading negotiator	Avoided immediate war; sought broader settlement.
France	Czechoslovakia's ally	Followed British negotiations; avoided military confrontation.
Germany	Demands Sudetenland	Gained territory; signed separate declaration with Britain.
Italy	Presented as mediator	Offered an agenda reflecting German demands.

EXAM INSIGHT

Eden and Chamberlain

Explain the **Anglo-Italian and personal-policy disagreements** rather than reducing Eden's departure to a simple pro- versus anti-appeasement divide.

MUNICH CONTRAST

Different meanings of success

Chamberlain
Avoid war and open a wider settlement

Czechoslovakia
Excluded from negotiations; territory conceded

DECISIVE MOMENTS

From Anschluss to Munich

- **Mar 1938** — Anschluss
- **Sep 1938** — Munich and Sudetenland
- **Sep 1938** — Anglo-German Declaration

MUNICH, SEPTEMBER 1938: PARTICIPANTS AND CONSEQUENCES (CONTINUED)

Power	Position at the conference	Immediate outcome
Czechoslovakia	Excluded from the talks	Surrendered territory without direct participation.

> *"The settlement of the Czechoslovakian problem... is, in my view, only the prelude to a larger settlement in which all Europe may find peace." — Neville Chamberlain, 1938*

VI 1939: The Pivot to Resistance

The seizure of Prague showed that Hitler would not honor negotiated limits.

When Germany occupied the remaining **Czech provinces, Bohemia and Moravia, in March 1939**, the breach of the Munich understanding fundamentally altered Chamberlain's assessment. He concluded that "**settlement is impossible with the present regime in Germany**" because Hitler could not be relied upon to carry out assurances. Chamberlain still sought a stable Europe, but now believed it required **Hitler's removal or a fundamental change in German conduct**.

FROM BARGAINING TO DETERRENCE

Britain extended a **guarantee to Poland**, which became a formal alliance in **August 1939**; introduced **peacetime conscription in April**; committed to a larger continental army; and explored an unsuccessful **triple alliance with France and the Soviet Union**. Chamberlain's refusal to negotiate with Hitler after the invasion of Poland remained, in the source's phrase, **"adamantine"** until his death.

POLICY REVERSAL

1939: trigger and policy responses

- **Mar** — Occupation of Prague
- **Apr** — Peacetime conscription
- **Aug** — Formal Polish alliance
- **1939** — Failed Soviet alliance talks

CAUSAL INTERPRETATION

Why reciprocity collapsed

The **occupation of Prague** showed that accepting prior agreements did not restrain Hitler. That credibility crisis—not simply regret about Munich—explains the change in policy.

The British National Government sought substantial modifications of Versailles to bring Germany into a stable framework of treaty-based cooperation. **Appeasement**, in this interpretation, was not an improvised refusal to defend Britain but a strategy of **reciprocity** constrained by economic vulnerability and the threat of conflict in three theatres. Hitler’s repeated unilateral actions, culminating in the **occupation of Prague in March 1939**, destroyed the premise that agreements would be observed.

§ Revision: A Reciprocal Strategy That Failed

Understanding the logic of appeasement does not erase its consequences.

Revision essentials: begin with the **1931 Sargent–Ashton-Gwatkin memorandum**, then trace **Simon's cautious involvement**, Chamberlain's **economic "fourth arm"** and **colonial lever**, the ambitions of **Munich (1938)**, and the **1939 pivot to deterrence**. Distinguish contemporary appeasement as "pacification" from its later negative reputation; evaluate a **proactive but flawed** search for peace without implying its success.

> *"It was not the squalid maneuvering of the craven desperate to avoid war at all costs." — Andrew Crozier*

REVISION THESIS

A strategic policy with a broken premise

Appeasement aimed to revise and stabilize European relations. Once **reciprocity failed**, Britain moved toward resistance and military preparation.

RECALL THE ARGUMENT

Settlement → Munich → resistance

Reciprocal treaty revision proposed
↓
Munich seen as a first settlement
↓
Prague disproves Hitler's reliability
↓
Britain turns to deterrence

CHAPTER 20

Stalin and the West

Study notes: Ideology, Realism, and the Path to Total War

CENTRAL THESIS

Soviet diplomacy under **Stalin** married the pursuit of **security, time and Western technology** to the conviction that capitalism and communism were fundamentally opposed. Its tactical turns—from trade to collective security, the Nazi–Soviet Pact and the 1941 British alliance—did not remove this underlying contradiction.

TIMELINE

- **1917**
- **1922**
- **1927**
- **1933**
- **1934**
- **1935**
- **1938**
- **1939**
- **1941**

Under **Joseph Stalin**, Soviet relations with the West combined a need for Western **technology, trade and strategic breathing space** with a revolutionary worldview in which capitalism and socialism were ultimately antagonistic. The Soviet leadership remembered Western intervention in the Russian Civil War, feared "capitalist encirclement," and nevertheless used capitalist expertise to construct an industrial and military state. In the 1930s, the rise of Hitler pushed Moscow between **collective security** and bargaining with Germany.

Ⅰ The Legacy of Hostility, 1917–1927

Intervention, economic retreat and the fear of a capitalist attack shaped Soviet assumptions.

A STATE BORN AMID ENCIRCLEMENT

The Bolsheviks did not forget **British and French assistance to the anti-Bolshevik "White" armies (1918–21)**. Through the **Treaty of Brest-Litovsk (1918)**, they accepted a severe territorial price to leave the First World War and preserve their government. Under Lenin, the **New Economic Policy (NEP)** permitted limited market activity to revive a shattered economy, while immediate international revolution was subordinated to survival.

THE 1927 WAR SCARE

The **Arcos Crisis** began with a British police raid on Soviet trade offices in London over suspicions of subversion. Soviet leaders treated the resulting tensions as evidence of hostile capitalist encirclement, despite the absence of clear Western invasion plans. The scare became a powerful justification for abandoning the NEP and accelerating forced industrialization.

THREE STRATEGIC SCENARIOS IN SOVIET PLANNING (N. SNITKO, 1930)

Scenario	Strategic objective	Underlying assumption
I. Imperialist aggression	Defend Soviet territory	A capitalist coalition attacks the USSR.

KEY TERM

Capitalist encirclement

The Soviet belief that hostile capitalist powers surrounded the revolutionary state and might combine against it.

ORIGINS OF SUSPICION

Three early milestones

- **1918** — Brest-Litovsk; revolution survives
- **1918–21** — Foreign support for White armies
- **1927** — Arcos raid and war scare

PLANNING SCENARIOS

Three possible conflicts

Defensive response
A hostile capitalist coalition attacks.

Exploit division
Capitalist states fight each other; USSR stays out.

Revolutionary offensive
A stronger USSR supports revolutions abroad by force.

THREE STRATEGIC SCENARIOS IN SOVIET PLANNING (N. SNITKO, 1930) (CONTINUED)

Scenario	Strategic objective	Underlying assumption
II. Inter-imperialist war	Stay aloof or exploit the division	Capitalist powers fight each other while the USSR gains time.
III. Revolutionary offensive	Aid revolutions abroad	A stronger USSR uses force to support socialist upheaval.

II Revolution from Above: Trade and Subversion

Stalin sought capitalist technology to build a state that expected conflict with capitalism.

INDUSTRIALIZATION AS NATIONAL DEFENCE

Stalin's **First Five-Year Plan** and **forced collectivization** were presented as responses to an external capitalist danger. Rapid industrial growth promised a military-industrial base able to defend Soviet power and, in revolutionary theory, to support future struggles abroad. Stalin thus justified coercion at home as preparation for a possible external war.

THE METRO-VICKERS AND RAPALLO PARADOXES

The **Comintern** advocated revolution against capitalist governments, but Soviet factories depended on Western engineers and equipment. In the **Metro-Vickers affair (1933)**, six British engineers were tried on espionage and sabotage allegations, yet Soviet contracts with the firm continued. Soviet cooperation with **Weimar Germany under Rapallo (1922)** included secret military and economic ties; the USSR later sought naval design help from **Fascist Italy**, associated in the account with the destroyer *Tashkent*.

CAUSAL ARGUMENT

Industrialization and external danger

Perceived capitalist encirclement

↓

Forced industrialization and collectivization

↓

Industrial power for military survival

COMMON MISREADING

Ideology did not prevent trade

The Comintern promoted revolution while Moscow continued buying **capitalist expertise**. Soviet rhetoric and purchasing policy were not identical.

III Nazi Germany and Collective Security, 1933–1938

A concrete German threat led Moscow to seek diplomatic partners against fascism.

THE POPULAR FRONT TURN

Hitler's accession in 1933 transformed the threat from an abstract capitalist danger into the prospect of German attack. The Soviet Union entered the **League of Nations in 1934**. Foreign communist parties were instructed to temper hostility toward moderate socialists and build **Popular Front** anti-fascist coalitions.

THE WEAK FOUNDATIONS OF MUTUAL ASSISTANCE

In **1935**, Moscow signed mutual-assistance agreements with **France and Czechoslovakia**. They had little operational substance: French anti-communism obstructed trust and detailed military arrangements were absent. Historians disagree about Soviet aims. The **"realist" interpretation** treats collective security as an effort to delay war; the competing **"German" interpretation** stresses Moscow's willingness to bargain with Germany to divide the capitalist powers. The interpretations describe a dispute, not settled proof of a single motive.

IV Munich: The Breaking Point in 1938

Exclusion from negotiations reinforced suspicion that the West would deflect Hitler eastward.

The **Munich Conference (1938)** ceded the Sudetenland to Germany without Soviet participation. Stalin could suspect that Britain and France were encouraging Hitler to turn toward the USSR. Yet direct Soviet intervention faced severe practical limits: forces would need passage through **Poland or Romania**, neither of which trusted Soviet intentions. The **Great Purges of 1936–38** had damaged the Red Army's leadership and further weakened foreign confidence in Soviet military effectiveness.

DIPLOMATIC PIVOT

1933–35: toward cooperation

- **1933** Hitler becomes Chancellor
- **1934** USSR joins League of Nations
- **1935** Pacts with France and Czechoslovakia

HISTORIOGRAPHY

How sincere was collective security?

Realist reading
Pragmatic attempt to delay war.

German-school reading
Preference for bargains that divide capitalist rivals.

WHY MUNICH MATTERED

Two barriers to Soviet help

Geography
Poland and Romania resisted Soviet troop passage.

Military capability
The purges weakened the Red Army and confidence in it.

> *“The Soviet Union could, with good reason, suspect that Hitler’s attentions were being directed eastwards and toward its borders.”*

Ⓥ The Nazi–Soviet Pact and Territorial Expansion

A deal with Germany promised time, a buffer and a European war among rival capitalist states.

LITVINOV, MOLOTOV AND THE PACT

In **May 1939**, Stalin replaced **Maxim Litvinov**, associated with collective security, with **Vyacheslav Molotov**. Anglo-French negotiations with Moscow advanced slowly while Berlin moved quickly. The **Molotov–Ribbentrop Pact (August 1939)** enabled the partition of Poland and assigned Soviet spheres of influence in Eastern Europe. Stalin hoped to **gain time for rearmament** and, according to the account, to encourage a war in which Germany and the Western powers would exhaust one another.

THE BUFFER-ZONE ARGUMENT

Moscow characterized occupation of the **Baltic states** and the **Winter War against Finland** as measures to create strategic depth. Soviet leaders feared that Finland might be used as a base for a future German assault on **Leningrad**. Moscow presented expansion as defence; that justification does not make the occupations cease to be territorial expansion.

STRATEGIC LOGIC

The pact as a calculation

Western talks stall; Molotov replaces Litvinov

↓

August 1939: deal with Berlin

↓

Time for rearmament and room for expansion

VI The Icebreaker Controversy and June 1941

Plans for a future offensive must be distinguished from readiness to attack in 1941.

TWO COMPETING HISTORICAL READINGS

Defector **Viktor Suvorov's "Icebreaker" thesis** argues that Stalin prepared a July 1941 strike and that **Operation Barbarossa** was therefore pre-emptive. Historians such as **David Glantz** challenge this: the Red Army was poorly organized and logistically unready for such an offensive. The source's qualified interpretation is that Soviet planning imagined **eventual offensive warfare**, but Stalin's immediate objective in June 1941 was to avoid provoking Hitler and buy more time—even while receiving warnings of invasion.

A NEW ALLIANCE OF NECESSITY

Germany invaded the Soviet Union on **22 June 1941**. Moscow then entered an **Anglo-Soviet alliance** not because ideological differences had disappeared, but because Britain and the USSR now faced the same enemy. The Soviet state entered this struggle with a large, rapidly built industrial base but an armed force not yet prepared for the assault.

Stalin's western policy was **dual-track**: trade and technical cooperation could serve industrialization even while the leadership described capitalist conflict as ultimately unavoidable. The USSR shifted from **economic stabilization** to **rapid rearmament**, from **collective security** to the **1939 pact**, then to an uneasy alliance with Britain after the German invasion. These were tactical responses to changing dangers within a persistent ideological framework.

DEBATE, NOT CONSENSUS

The Icebreaker thesis

Suvorov
Stalin was about to attack in July 1941.

Glantz and critics
Soviet forces were too unready for that claim.

DATE TO REMEMBER

Barbarossa

22 JUN 1941

German attack turns Soviet–British hostility into a wartime partnership.

§ Revision: Ideology, Realism and Survival

Soviet diplomacy changed tactics without abandoning its underlying world picture.

SOVIET STRATEGIC EVOLUTION, 1921–1941

Era	Primary objective	Principal development
1921–27	Stability and trade	NEP; 1927 Arcos crisis and war scare.
1928–33	Forced industrialization	Five-Year Plans; Western technical imports.
1934–38	Collective security	League entry; anti-fascist pacts and Popular Front.
1939–40	Gain time and strategic depth	Nazi–Soviet Pact; Winter War and Baltic expansion.
1941	Survival	Barbarossa; alliance with Britain.

Revision distinction: The “Icebreaker” claim of an imminent Stalinist invasion is **contested**. The account distinguishes the Soviet expectation of an eventual offensive from a demonstrated capacity or decision to attack Germany in summer 1941.

REVISION SYNTHESIS

Four shifts in Soviet policy

1. **NEP and cautious trade**
2. **Industrialization under threat**
3. **Anti-fascist collective security**
4. **1939 pact, then 1941 alliance**

CHAPTER 21

The United States and the End of Isolation

Study notes: The United States and the End of Isolation, 1939–1941

CENTRAL THESIS

The United States entered the Second World War through an **incremental, strategically calculated retreat from neutrality**. Roosevelt connected British survival and resistance to Japan with American security, using changes in law, aid programmes, naval deployments and executive bargains before the attacks of December 1941 made formal participation unavoidable.

TIMELINE

1938

1939

1940

1941

Between **1939 and 1941**, the United States moved from legislated neutrality toward material support for Britain, naval confrontation with Germany and ultimately world war. **Franklin D. Roosevelt** regarded an Axis victory as a threat not only to Europe but to American military security, prosperity and political values. The account stresses that the shift was **deliberate and incremental**—and controversial because executive commitments frequently ran ahead of public assurances.

Ⅰ Roosevelt's Interventionist Rationale

Military, economic and ideological fears connected the European war to American security.

ROOSEVELT'S THREE ARGUMENTS AGAINST AXIS DOMINANCE

Threat	Rationale
Military	Axis control of Europe and Africa might create "jumping-off places" for attacks on the Western Hemisphere; Roosevelt contrasted Africa–Brazil and Washington–Denver distances.
Economic	Nazi slave labor could undersell US goods and press American wages and labor standards downward.
Ideological	Roosevelt portrayed Nazism as hostile to law, liberty, morality and religion; its dominance would threaten democratic life.

These claims transformed aid to Britain from an act of altruism into an argument for **American self-preservation**. Nevertheless, a vocal isolationist movement continued to insist that oceans, the US Navy and neutrality legislation were sufficient to keep the country out of war.

THREE-FOLD THREAT

Why Roosevelt feared Axis victory

Military Western Hemisphere security

Economic Trade and labor standards

Ideological Democracy and liberty

EXAM ANGLE

Aid could be self-defence

Explain why Roosevelt framed support for Britain as a matter of **US security** rather than purely European sympathy.

II The Breakdown of Neutrality, 1938–1940

Washington replaced an arms embargo with carefully limited sales to belligerents.

FROM THE NEUTRALITY ACTS TO CASH-AND-CARRY

In the **1930s**, Roosevelt accepted laws restricting US loans and arms sales to combatants. Following **Kristallnacht (November 1938)**, he recalled the US ambassador from Berlin. Hitler's **invasion of Poland (September 1939)** prompted a push to repeal the arms embargo. In **November 1939**, **cash-and-carry** allowed belligerents to buy US munitions if they paid immediately and transported them on their own ships—conditions better suited to sea-power Britain.

FRANCE'S DEFEAT CHANGED THE CALCULATION

Roosevelt had hoped Britain's navy could blockade or "**quarantine**" Germany without a large trans-Channel war. The rapid **fall of France in June 1940** destroyed that assumption and intensified the sense of US vulnerability. Congress approved military appropriations totaling around **$3.2 billion** by mid-1940, exceeding Roosevelt's initial requests in the historical account.

III A Peacetime Draft and Destroyers for Britain

Emergency preparation brought conscription and far-reaching executive commitments.

THE BURKE–WADSWORTH ACT (1940)

The first American peacetime draft aimed to expand the Army toward **500,000**. Supporters argued volunteers could not meet the emergency, especially if Axis powers threatened European possessions in the Americas. Opponents warned of **militarism and lost civil liberties**, asserting that the country was safe behind its large navy.

NEUTRALITY TIMELINE

The legislative turn

- **1938** — Kristallnacht prompts diplomatic protest
- **Sep 1939** — Invasion of Poland
- **Nov 1939** — Cash-and-carry enacted
- **Jun 1940** — France falls

KEY TERM

Cash-and-carry

Belligerents could buy US arms only by **paying cash** and **shipping them on their own vessels**.

DESTROYERS-FOR-BASES

A bargain under pressure

50 / 99

Fifty older destroyers transferred for British base leases lasting 99 years.

DESTROYERS-FOR-BASES (SEPTEMBER 1940)

On **2 September 1940**, the United States transferred **50 older destroyers** to Britain for **99-year leases** on naval and air facilities in the Western Hemisphere, including the Bahamas, Jamaica and Trinidad. Historians **Bailey and Ryan** emphasize the ships' strategic value for Atlantic survival; **Robert Shogan** stresses the dangerous precedent set by a largely secret executive bargain.

IV Lend-Lease: The Crucial Decision

American aid shifted from immediate payment to a direct material stake in British survival.

A FINANCIAL EMERGENCY

By late **1940**, Britain's dollar reserves were dwindling. **Winston Churchill** warned that Britain could not continue without American assistance. Under **Lend-Lease**, the president could "lease or lend" defence articles to any country whose security was deemed vital to the United States, breaking the cash requirement that had limited earlier aid.

THREE READINGS OF LEND-LEASE

Perspective	Argument
Roosevelt administration	Aid created a material American interest in Germany's defeat and a closer Anglo-American partnership.
America First Committee	Condemned it as a virtual act of war and a danger to national solvency.
David Reynolds	Argues immediate 1941 munitions amounted to only about 1% of British supply in the historical account; the longer impact included US pressure against imperial trade preferences.

HISTORIOGRAPHICAL CONTRAST

Destroyers: rescue or risky precedent?

Bailey & Ryan
Strategic margin in the Atlantic.

Robert Shogan
Secret diplomacy expanded executive power.

LEND-LEASE LOGIC

From exhausted reserves to aid

British dollar reserves run low
↓
Cash-and-carry becomes unsustainable
↓
US lends or leases defence material

EXAM DISTINCTION

The immediate and long-term effects

1941 munitions
Limited immediate share in the historical account.

Longer horizon
Greater American influence over trade and Britain's empire.

V The Atlantic: An Undeclared Naval War

Roosevelt extended US protection to the sea routes connecting America and Britain.

FROM PATROL TO CONFRONTATION

US forces occupied or secured positions in **Greenland and Iceland**, essential for Atlantic routes and refuelling. Under a broad **Western Hemisphere neutrality patrol**, American ships shared information on German submarines with British warships. The patrol boundary reached the **26th meridian**.

THE GREER INCIDENT AND SHOOT-ON-SIGHT

After the destroyer **Greer** exchanged fire with a German U-boat in **September 1941**, Roosevelt described submarines as the **“rattlesnakes of the Atlantic”** and announced stronger protections for merchant shipping in vital waters. The **shoot-on-sight** policy moved US naval protection toward armed support for Britain, even though the United States had not formally entered the war.

VI The Pacific Deadlock and Entry into War

Economic sanctions narrowed Japan’s choices until the diplomatic process failed.

THE SANCTIONS ESCALATOR

In **July 1940**, Washington restricted exports of high-octane aviation fuel and scrap iron to Japan. After Japan moved into **southern Indochina in July 1941**, Roosevelt froze Japanese assets; this effectively halted trade and threatened a navy dependent on imported oil. The account gives Japan roughly **18 months of naval oil reserves**.

ATLANTIC ESCALATION

Four steps short of war

1. **Greenland and Iceland positions**
2. **Neutrality patrol and intelligence**
3. **Greer clashes with U-boat**
4. **Shoot-on-sight protection**

OIL CLOCK

Japan’s strategic dilemma

18 MONTHS

Approximate Japanese naval oil supply in the account after the 1941 sanctions.

PACIFIC DECISION CHAIN

How diplomacy collapsed

US asset freeze and trade embargo

↓

Plan A / Plan B versus Hull’s demands

↓

Pearl Harbor, 7 December 1941

FROM PLAN A AND B TO PEARL HARBOR

Japanese proposals **Plan A** and **Plan B** sought a negotiated restoration of trade and an end to American support for China. Secretary of State **Cordell Hull's ten-point proposal** demanded Japanese withdrawal from China and Indochina, which the Japanese military regarded as unacceptable. An unrealized **modus vivendi** offered the idea of a short-term accommodation with Japan. Japan's **Tripartite Pact (1940)** with Germany and Italy meanwhile encouraged Roosevelt to view Europe and the Pacific as one global confrontation.

WAR ARRIVES

Japan attacked **Pearl Harbor on 7 December 1941**. **Four days later**, Hitler declared war on the United States. Roosevelt could now pursue the defeat of Germany—his stated overriding strategic priority—within a formally global war.

Roosevelt presented assistance to Britain as the best way to **avoid fighting later** and defend American security. Yet legislation, naval deployments and executive agreements drew the US closer to belligerency. The historical assessment remains contested: advocates praise Roosevelt's reading of the Nazi danger, while critics stress the **secrecy, evasions and expansion of presidential authority** involved in his gradual approach.

COMMON MISREADING

Two theatres, one strategic war

The **Tripartite Pact** did not deter Roosevelt; it encouraged him to treat the European and Pacific crises as parts of one struggle.

§ Revision: The End of American Isolation

The road to war involved calculated aid, contested executive power and an escalating Pacific impasse.

BALANCE SHEET OF AMERICAN INTERVENTION, 1939–1941

Instrument	What changed
Cash-and-carry	Arms sold for immediate payment and buyer-provided transport.
Destroyers-for-bases	US warships exchanged for long-term British base leases.
Lend-Lease	Presidential provision of defence material to strategically vital states.
Modus vivendi	Unrealized proposal for a short-term accommodation with Japan.

Revision essentials: distinguish **cash-and-carry** from **Lend-Lease**; explain how the **fall of France** and the **Battle of the Atlantic** drove Washington toward Britain; connect the **oil embargo** and failed negotiations to the **Pearl Harbor** decision; and assess the debate over Roosevelt's democratic mandate and executive powers.

REVISION CHRONOLOGY

The path from neutrality

- **1939** — Cash-and-carry
- **1940** — Draft; destroyers-for-bases
- **1941** — Lend-Lease; Atlantic clashes
- **Dec 1941** — Pearl Harbor; German war declaration

> *"I have said this before, but I shall say it again and again: Your boys are not going to be sent into any foreign wars."*
> *— Franklin D. Roosevelt, 1940*

CHAPTER 22

The Grand Alliance, 1941–1945

Study notes: Personal Diplomacy and the Architecture of Victory (1941–1945)

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Grand Alliance** united Britain, the Soviet Union and the United States not by a common ideology but by the necessity of defeating the Axis. **Germany First**, unconditional surrender and personal diplomacy kept it together. Yet disagreements over strategy, self-determination, Poland and spheres of influence made the wartime victory a prelude to **Cold War tension**.

TIMELINE

1941

1942

1943

1944

1945

The wartime coalition that Churchill called the **Grand Alliance** was an uneasy partnership between **Winston Churchill**, **Franklin D. Roosevelt** and **Josef Stalin**. Some forty-five governments ultimately participated in the Allied cause, but the principal decisions lay with the **Big Three**. Their political systems and postwar expectations diverged even as their common enemy made cooperation indispensable.

I Foundations of a Fragile Unity

Shared survival required commitments without a comprehensive formal alliance treaty.

PRINCIPLES OF WARTIME COOPERATION

In **August 1941**, Roosevelt and Churchill drafted the **Atlantic Charter**, setting out aspirations for self-determination, free trade and a different international order. Churchill called it **“not a law, but a star”**; Britain’s imperial priorities and Soviet security concerns made its ideals contested from the outset. The **Declaration by United Nations (January 1942)** committed the signatories to use their resources against the Axis and **not to conclude a separate peace**.

THE GERMANY-FIRST COMMITMENT

The **ABC-1 talks (early 1941)** established the priority of defeating Germany before Japan, a policy that became the *sine qua non* of cooperation. It reassured Moscow that the United States and Britain would devote the main weight of their power to the European war. An agreement on military priority did not erase the different visions of the peace that would follow.

KEY DEFINITION

The Grand Alliance

An informal but decisive **British–American–Soviet wartime partnership** directed by the Big Three, not a comprehensive peacetime union.

THREE ALLIED AIMS

Cooperation without unanimity

Britain Empire and balance	**United States** Free trade and security	**USSR** A secure political buffer

FOUNDING COMMITMENTS

From principles to mobilization

- **Early 1941** — ABC-1: Germany First
- **Aug 1941** — Atlantic Charter
- **Jan 1942** — Declaration by United Nations

THREE PARTNERS, THREE SETS OF INTERESTS

Issue	Britain	United States	Soviet Union
Primary goal	Preserve empire and European balance.	Liberal trade and lasting international security.	Security through politically friendly neighbours.
Atlantic Charter	Cautious about colonial self-determination.	Internationalist and anti-colonial possibilities.	Territorial security took precedence.
Military preference	Mediterranean and peripheral attrition.	Large cross-Channel invasion.	Immediate western front to relieve Soviet forces.

II The Strategic Friction over a Second Front

Military plans were inseparable from the politics of reassuring Stalin.

THE POLITICAL QUESTION

Soviet Foreign Minister **V. M. Molotov** argued that the western **Second Front** was a matter for **“statesmen, not generals.”** For Stalin, a delay in opening a direct front in France threatened Soviet survival and suggested possible Western bad faith. Roosevelt wanted to sustain Stalin’s confidence, while operational planners debated whether the Allies were ready for a cross-Channel landing.

THE MEDITERRANEAN DIVERSION

Churchill persuaded Roosevelt to undertake **Operation TORCH (North Africa, 1942)** rather than a premature invasion of France. With a **“crocodile”** analogy, he favoured attacking the Mediterranean “soft underbelly” while preparing for an assault on northern Europe. His preference for peripheral **attrition**, coloured by First World War memories, was followed by Allied landings in **Sicily and Italy (1943)**. Stalin accepted these campaigns but insisted that they were no substitute for **50–60 divisions fighting in France**.

EXAM DISTINCTION

Why the Second Front mattered

Military
Divert German forces from the Soviet front.

Political
Demonstrate that Britain and the US would not abandon Stalin.

STRATEGIC SEQUENCE

A slower path to France

Cross-Channel invasion postponed
↓
TORCH in North Africa, 1942
↓
Sicily and Italy, 1943
↓
OVERLORD committed at Teheran

III Teheran: The Apogee of Cooperation

In November 1943 the Big Three made their most consequential shared military commitments.

OVERLORD AND THE SHAPE OF EUROPE

At the **Teheran Conference (November 1943)**, the leaders committed to **Operation OVERLORD**, the major cross-Channel landing planned for **May 1944**. It closed off Churchill's hopes of making the Mediterranean the principal path to victory. Political bargains were equally significant: Churchill demonstrated a **westward shift of Poland's borders** with matchsticks, envisioning compensation in former German territory for Soviet gains in the east.

ROOSEVELT'S FOUR POLICEMEN

Roosevelt proposed that the **United States, Britain, the Soviet Union and China** act as **"Four Policemen"** to preserve peace. This imagined a postwar security system in which smaller states would put trust in Great Power leadership. The scheme reveals how the promise of collective internationalism could coexist with explicit recognition of unequal international power.

> *"Whoever occupies a territory imposes on it his own social system." — Axiom attributed to Stalin in the account*

TEHERAN DECISIONS

Military and political maps

Nov 1943	Big Three meet in Teheran
1944 plan	OVERLORD across the Channel
Poland	Westward frontier adjustment
World order	Roosevelt's Four Policemen

A POWER PARADOX

The Four Policemen

Collective peace
An international body would deter aggression.

Great Power control
Four dominant states would act as sheriffs.

IV Poland and the Balkan Percentages

The meaning of liberation exposed incompatible interpretations of sovereignty.

THE POLISH LITMUS TEST

As Allied armies advanced into Europe, **Poland** became a measure of whether the alliance could survive peace. For London and Washington, self-determination implied genuine national independence and representative government. Stalin required a **"friendly" government** on the Soviet frontier and interpreted security through political control of neighbouring states. The physical fact of **military occupation** increasingly shaped the settlement more than wartime declarations.

THE PERCENTAGES AGREEMENT (OCTOBER 1944)

Churchill and Stalin discussed the Balkan spheres shown below to contain rival interventions. Dividing influence this way ignored the popular sovereignty proclaimed in the **Atlantic Charter**. **Poland was not included**, although its proposed border shift was already being discussed.

THE 1944 PERCENTAGES UNDERSTANDING IN THE BALKANS

Country or area	Proposed distribution of influence
Greece	90% British; 10% Soviet
Romania and Bulgaria	90% Soviet; 10% British
Yugoslavia and Hungary	50% British; 50% Soviet

COMMON MISREADING

An agreed liberation?

The Allies **did not share one meaning** of self-determination. Soviet military security could mean Moscow-friendly regimes, while Western proposals emphasized independent political choice.

PERCENTAGES RECALL

The sovereignty test

Recall the three Balkan distributions from the table. Why did dividing influence conflict with the Atlantic Charter, and why did it leave **Poland** unresolved?

Ⓥ Yalta and the Breakdown of Wartime Trust

A declaration of political freedom sat uneasily beside Soviet military power.

THE DECLARATION ON LIBERATED EUROPE

At **Yalta (February 1945)**, the last meeting of the original Big Three, the leaders endorsed a **Declaration on Liberated Europe**. Its promises of political choice raised expectations that could not easily be reconciled with Soviet control in Eastern Europe. In **Poland**, Stalin supported the **Lublin-based government**, resisting demands for a genuinely inclusive administration.

LEADERSHIP AND NATIONALISM AFTER VICTORY

The death of **Roosevelt in April 1945** and succession of **Harry Truman** were followed by a more confrontational American style. The wartime *modus vivendi* became increasingly difficult to sustain. Stalin anticipated that liberated countries would remain intensely **nationalistic**, potentially challenging both the European empires and Soviet spheres of influence. The Grand Alliance had not resolved the relationship between Great Power direction and national choice.

Unconditional surrender, announced at **Casablanca (1943)**, was intended to prevent a separate peace and make the political remaking of defeated Germany possible. The **European Advisory Commission (EAC)** drew up occupation arrangements that would endure far beyond their supposedly temporary wartime purpose. Anglo-American cooperation rested on shared institutions, intelligence and language but was strained by disputes over **British imperial preference** and Washington's free-trade agenda; the Soviet–Western bond endured only so long as the defeat of Hitler was overriding.

EXAM ANGLE

The Polish litmus test

Use **Poland** to explain why the wartime military coalition could not easily become a postwar diplomatic settlement.

YALTA CONTRADICTION

Promises versus occupation

Declaration on Liberated Europe
↓
Expectation of political choice
↓
Soviet-backed Lublin government in Poland
↓
Deteriorating Western–Soviet trust

The Grand Alliance was a **marriage of necessity**, not a permanent peace settlement. Its decisive achievements were **Germany First**, commitment to **unconditional surrender** and coordinated operations culminating in **OVERLORD**. Yet the Atlantic Charter's principles collided with **imperial preferences, Soviet security zones and rival concepts of liberation**. Its legacy included Great Power cooperation in the **United Nations Security Council** and the beginnings of the **Cold War**.

§ Revision: Victory and the Seeds of Bipolarity

The alliance achieved military victory but never became a lasting union.

Revision prompts: explain why the Second Front was a diplomatic as well as a military question; contrast the aims of all three powers; connect **Teheran → the Balkan percentages → Yalta**; and distinguish a wartime coalition from the postwar order its members hoped to build.

REVISION ANCHOR

Four turning points

1. **Atlantic Charter and Germany First**
2. **TORCH versus the Second Front**
3. **Teheran and postwar plans**
4. **Yalta and Poland**

KEY INSTITUTION

European Advisory Commission

The **EAC** planned Germany's occupation zones; arrangements described as temporary became long-lived divisions.

REVISION COMPARISON

Different ties within the Alliance

Anglo-American

Shared warfare and intelligence; tension over imperial trade.

Soviet–Western

Common enemy; conflict over fronts, ideology and Eastern Europe.

CHAPTER 23

A Bipolar World

Study notes: The Architecture of Global Tension (1944–1991)

CENTRAL THESIS

The Cold War’s **bipolarity** joined ideological antagonism and a massive nuclear threat to an often **stable, predictable relationship** among the Great Powers. Neither bloc was fully unified or economically equal. The system moved through repeated cycles of confrontation and cooperation until **economic weakness, political change and Gorbachev’s reforms** ended Soviet bipolar power in 1991.

TIMELINE

- **1944**
- **1946**
- **1947**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1957**
- **1962**
- **1963**
- **1968**
- **1975**
- **1979**
- **1983**
- **1985**
- **1989**
- **1991**

The Cold War was commonly portrayed as a world split into two camps, the United States and the Soviet Union. This **bipolar** image obscured their unequal economic resources, the internal disagreements of their allies and the alternating patterns of mistrust and accommodation. Despite an arsenal described in the account as approaching **50,000 nuclear weapons**, the rivalry was often remarkably predictable. As **Ronald Reagan told Mikhail Gorbachev in 1985**, the weapons reflected political mistrust as much as they created it.

Ⅰ Two Blocs, Two Unequal Orders

Alliance discipline concealed internal diversity and very different sources of power.

THE CONTRASTING POLITICAL LOGIC OF THE COLD WAR BLOCS

Characteristic	Western bloc	Eastern bloc
Organizing idea	Liberal democracy, capitalism and containment.	Authoritarian socialism and Marxist-Leninist expectations.
Key alliance	NATO.	Warsaw Pact.
Internal ties	Atlanticism; shared capitalist interests.	Military discipline and Soviet-led coercive cohesion.
Internal disagreements	French “Third Force”; British Atlanticism.	Yugoslav, Albanian and Chinese departures or disagreements.

THE WESTERN SEARCH FOR LEADERSHIP AND AUTONOMY

The **United States**, once guarded against foreign entanglements, came to interpret security broadly and sometimes assumed that states must be **“with us or against us.”** Washington initially imagined its European presence as a **stopgap** until Europeans could assume their own defence. Yet **Britain and France** also sought autonomy from American direction. French fears of German recovery and ambitions for a **“Third Force”** show why alliance membership did not erase national interests. The table distinguishes these Western tensions from departures and disagreements in the Eastern camp.

CORE CONCEPT

Bipolarity

An international order organized around **two rival Great Power centres**, without requiring equivalent economic strength or uniform obedience within their blocs.

COMMON MISREADING

Two equal, seamless blocs?

Appearances
Two cohesive rival camps.

Political reality
US–Soviet asymmetry and disagreements among allies.

BLOC FRICTIONS

Neither alliance was monolithic

West French Third Force

East Yugoslav dissent

Both Security versus autonomy

THE SOVIET VIEW OF IDEOLOGICAL DESTINY

Moscow regarded Marxist-Leninist socialism as being on the **“right side of history”**, with capitalism expected eventually to fail. The **Brezhnev Doctrine** made Soviet intervention in allied socialist states a means of preserving bloc cohesion, dramatically illustrated in **Czechoslovakia in 1968**. Later Soviet conceptions of continuing socialist development were more cautious than earlier promises of rapid prosperity.

II The Emergence of Bipolarity, 1944–1950

The breakdown of wartime cooperation hardened into rival security and economic systems.

The wartime **percentages discussions (1944)** between Churchill and Stalin anticipated separate spheres: Soviet predominance in Romania and British predominance in Greece. In **1946**, **George Kennan’s Long Telegram** and Churchill’s **Iron Curtain speech** captured the collapse of confidence. The **Truman Doctrine** and **Marshall Plan (1947)** linked American economic recovery measures to strategic **containment**. Stalin saw the Marshall programme as a bid for US control and rejected Soviet participation. The **1949 division of Germany** into the Federal Republic (FRG) and German Democratic Republic (GDR) symbolized the European partition.

III The Global Confrontation and Nuclear Brinkmanship

Cold War rivalry spread beyond Europe and made strategic danger worldwide.

BIPOLARITY EMERGES

Four dated stages

- **1944** Spheres of influence
- **1946** Long Telegram; Iron Curtain
- **1947** Truman Doctrine; Marshall Plan
- **1949** FRG and GDR formed

EXAM ANGLE

Economic recovery as security

The **Marshall Plan** was both a programme of reconstruction and a step in **containment**; explain why Moscow interpreted it as strategic pressure.

KOREA AND ALLIANCE EXPANSION

The **Korean War (1950)** moved bipolar rivalry decisively into Asia and encouraged Washington to see a coordinated communist challenge on a global scale. It contributed to the strengthening of **NATO**, including the admission of **Greece and Turkey**, and to West German remilitarization. The superpowers' rival commitments increasingly affected conflicts far from the original European fault line.

SPUTNIK, BERLIN AND CUBA

The Soviet launch of **Sputnik (1957)** heightened Western anxiety about missiles and space technology. NATO emphasized **extended nuclear deterrence**—the promise of nuclear protection for allies. The **Berlin crises** and above all the **Cuban Missile Crisis (1962)** demonstrated the extreme risk of testing an opponent within its perceived security sphere. Cuba brought the confrontation close to nuclear war and encouraged efforts to regulate it.

Ⓘⓥ Détente: Negotiating a Regulated Rivalry

Treaties and European rapprochement softened tension without ending opposing systems.

MANAGING NUCLEAR DANGER

After Cuba, Washington and Moscow pursued limited rules of competition. The **Partial Test Ban Treaty (1963)** and **Non-Proliferation Treaty (1968)** were intended to reduce the danger of an uncontrolled nuclear confrontation. Such agreements did not mean ideological reconciliation; they showed the practical benefits of recognizing mutual vulnerability.

GLOBAL EXPANSION

From Europe to nuclear danger

Korean War, 1950

↓

Western alliance expansion

↓

Sputnik and missile fears, 1957

↓

Cuban Missile Crisis, 1962

NUCLEAR SCALE

The danger behind stability

~50,000

The approximate nuclear-weapons figure in the account.

KEY TERM

Extended nuclear deterrence

A superpower's nuclear threat is used to **protect allied states** rather than only its own national territory.

OSTPOLITIK AND HELSINKI

West German Chancellor **Willy Brandt's Ostpolitik** sought **"change through rapprochement"**, normalizing relations with Eastern Europe while accepting the immediate political reality. The **Helsinki Final Act (1975)** marked the high point of European détente. The Soviet bloc accepted its **Basket III human-rights provisions**, assuming that they would carry little practical force. The account argues that these commitments eventually strengthened pressures for liberalization within socialist societies.

Ⓥ The Final Stress: Afghanistan, Reagan and Gorbachev

A renewed confrontation encountered the weakening foundations of Soviet power.

THE RETURN OF HIGH TENSION, 1979–1983

The **Soviet invasion of Afghanistan (1979)** disrupted détente. **Ronald Reagan** adopted a more confrontational stance, calling the USSR an **"evil empire."** His **Strategic Defense Initiative (SDI)**, or "Star Wars," raised the possibility that US defensive technology might undermine Soviet nuclear deterrence. In **1983**, anxiety intensified following the downing of **KAL 007** and NATO deployment of US missiles in Europe.

GORBACHEV'S REORIENTATION

When **Mikhail Gorbachev came to power in 1985**, he sought Soviet security through **reduced confrontation**, arms reductions and reform rather than permanent international class conflict. Erosion of ideological commitment weakened the rationale for the **Warsaw Pact**. The account emphasizes growing economic backwardness relative to capitalist economies and the information revolution, alongside internal political disintegration. The USSR eventually **collapsed at the end of 1991**.

DÉTENTE CHRONOLOGY

Three stages

1963	Partial Test Ban Treaty
1968	Non-Proliferation Treaty
1975	Helsinki Final Act

EXAM DISTINCTION

Two mechanisms of détente

Arms agreements
Manage the immediate danger of nuclear escalation.

Helsinki rights
Create a basis for longer-term political change.

FINAL STRAINS

From Afghanistan to reform

1. **Afghanistan, 1979**
2. **Reagan and SDI**
3. **1983 war scare**
4. **Gorbachev after 1985**

FORCES UNDERMINING THE BIPOLAR ORDER

Pressure	Consequence
Economic decay	The Soviet system fell behind globalized capitalist economies and information technology.
Ideological retreat	Abandoning international class struggle removed a central justification for bloc coercion.
Internal disintegration	Political fragmentation ended the Soviet Union in 1991.

VI A Stable Confrontation, an Asymmetric Ending

The international system changed faster than many observers anticipated.

The Cold War combined the dangers of **nuclear confrontation** with unexpectedly stable Great Power expectations: each side understood the risk of invading the other's core sphere. The system vanished with startling speed, but **NATO** and the **European Community** survived and gained renewed importance. The end was **asymmetric**: rather than both blocs making equal ideological concessions, Soviet leaders moved towards some Western political and economic assumptions as their own system weakened.

The Cold War illustrates that **mistrust produced armaments**, while those armaments also enforced restraint. Its long duration rested on strategic predictability despite recurrent crises and profound disagreements within both alliances. **Helsinki, economic globalization, Soviet weaknesses and Gorbachev's choices** help explain why the Soviet-led bloc dissolved, leaving a temporary **unipolar transition** and a surviving Atlantic alliance.

ENDING BIPOLARITY

An interconnected collapse

Economic and technological lag
↓
Ideological retreat and reforms
↓
Reduced coercion within the bloc
↓
Soviet internal disintegration

INTERPRETIVE CHECK

What survived, what disappeared?

Survived
NATO and European Community structures.

Collapsed
Warsaw Pact rationale and Soviet state power.

§ Revision: The Paradox of Bipolar Stability

Fear sustained order until the Soviet system could no longer reproduce it.

Revision prompts: explain bipolarity without assuming equal power; trace **1946/47 → Korea → Cuba → détente → Afghanistan → Gorbachev**; distinguish nuclear **deterrence** from cooperation; and contrast the endurance of **NATO** with the collapse of the Warsaw Pact and USSR.

COLD WAR PHASES: QUICK CHRONOLOGY

Period	Principal development	Historical significance
1944–49	Spheres, containment, Marshall Plan, German partition.	Bipolar order emerges.
1950s–1962	Korea, missiles, Berlin and Cuba.	Rivalry globalizes; nuclear peril peaks.
1963–75	Arms-management treaties, Ostpolitik, Helsinki.	Rivalry is regulated through negotiation.
1979–83	Afghanistan, SDI and war scares.	A renewed period of confrontation.
1985–91	Gorbachev’s reforms and Soviet dissolution.	The bipolar structure ends.

REVISION ROADMAP

Five eras of a long rivalry

- **1940s** Division and containment
- **1950s–62** Global crises
- **1963–75** Détente
- **1979–83** Renewed confrontation
- **1985–91** Reform and collapse

> *“We don’t mistrust each other because we are armed; we are armed because we mistrust each other.” — Ronald Reagan to Mikhail Gorbachev, 1985, as quoted in the account*

CHAPTER 24

A Third World?

Study notes: The Trajectory of a Global Third Force — Origins, Evolution, and Decline

CENTRAL THESIS

The **“Third World”** began as a diplomatic project of decolonized and newly independent states seeking an **autonomous third force** outside the Cold War blocs. Through **Bandung, non-alignment, the UN and the NIEO**, it acquired symbolic power and collective bargaining weight; yet political diversity, economic vulnerability and the disappearance of bipolarity fragmented the enterprise.

TIMELINE

- **1945**
- **1952**
- **1955**
- **1960**
- **1961**
- **1964**
- **1970**
- **1973**
- **1974**
- **1979**
- **1980**
- **1991**

The phrase **“Third World”** was more than a geographical or developmental label. It expressed the aspiration of post-1945 states to escape a world supposedly divided between a capitalist **First World** and a communist **Second World**. As decolonization accelerated, governments sought influence without being absorbed into either security bloc. Their achievements were substantial in representation and political symbolism, but less durable in economic leverage and collective discipline.

Ⅰ Origins: The Third Estate and the UN Majority

A growing Afro-Asian presence transformed a metaphor into diplomatic leverage.

ALFRED SAUVY AND THE MEANING OF “THIRD WORLD”

French economist **Alfred Sauvy** coined *tiers monde* in **1952**, drawing an analogy with the **Third Estate** of pre-revolutionary France. Just as commoners challenged the privileged clergy and nobility, newly independent states wished to obtain standing in a global system dominated by a small number of Great Powers. During the **1950s and 1960s**, the term chiefly described a politically active **third force**; in the **1970s**, its economic meaning—inequality, exploitation and underdevelopment—became more pronounced.

AFRO-ASIAN REPRESENTATION AT THE UNITED NATIONS, AS STATED IN THE ACCOUNT

Year	Total UN members	Afro-Asian members	Share
1945	51	14 (three African, eleven Asian)	27%
1960	100	52	52%
1980	150	91	61%

REPRESENTATION SHIFT

Afro-Asian UN membership

27% → 61%

The 1945 and 1980 figures show the rise in Afro-Asian voting presence.

ORIGIN OF THE TERM

Tiers monde

Alfred Sauvy (1952) likened neglected states to the French Third Estate: numerous, subordinated and demanding representation.

KEY DISTINCTION

One term, two emphases

1950s–60s
Diplomatic third force outside the blocs

1970s
Economic weakness and North–South claims

These figures illustrate a central political development: the **numerical weight of Afro-Asian states in the UN** rose sharply, giving them a potential forum for common positions on colonialism, rights and global economic organization. The numbers did not, however, automatically translate into a single foreign policy or enforceable authority over the wealthier powers.

II Bandung, 1955: The Symbolic Birth

Political confidence preceded any tightly organized international movement.

TWENTY-NINE GOVERNMENTS, MANY ALLEGIANCES

At **Bandung, Indonesia (1955)**, **29 states** representing more than half of the world's population met to assert an Afro-Asian voice. The participants ranged from **Communist China** to American-aligned states such as **Thailand and the Philippines**, making a detailed common programme elusive. Bandung mattered above all for its **psychological and diplomatic effect**: it challenged Western assumptions that former colonies would remain automatically loyal to the West.

FROM AFRO-ASIAN TO TRICONTINENTAL

The early meetings did not include **Latin America**, whose relations with the United States had long been framed by the **Monroe Doctrine (1823)**. Over time a **tricontinental** identity joined Asian, African and Latin American anti-imperialist politics; **Fidel Castro** became one of its prominent advocates. The evolving coalition remained internally contradictory, combining capitalist, socialist, pro-Western and non-aligned governments.

BANDUNG, 1955

The scale of the meeting

29

States at Bandung; their ideologies and alignments were strikingly diverse.

EXAM CONTRAST

Symbolism versus agreement

Shared impact
Assert an Afro-Asian voice

Shared programme
Difficult because participants disagreed

III Five Architects of Non-Alignment

Different national interests gave the same project several distinct meanings.

FIVE INFLUENTIAL LEADERS AND THEIR INTERPRETATIONS OF A THIRD FORCE

Leader	Country	Distinctive contribution
Jawaharlal Nehru	India	**Neutralism:** active mediation and conflict resolution, not passive neutrality.
Gamal Abdel Nasser	Egypt	Anti-colonial reparation and the use of superpower competition to advance national interests.
Sukarno	Indonesia	An alternative power structure: *Nefo* (New Emerging Forces) versus *Nekolim* (neocolonialism, capitalism, imperialism).
Kwame Nkrumah	Ghana	Pan-Africanism, regional unity and international recognition for the "New Africa."
Josip Broz Tito	Yugoslavia	Non-alignment beyond an Afro-Asian identity, giving Yugoslavia space outside Moscow's orbit.

These leaders shared a wish to avoid being **"squeezed" between the superpowers**. The table shows why that shared refusal did not amount to one programme: peace-making, bargaining leverage, emerging-force solidarity, African unity and autonomy from Moscow served different national priorities.

LEADERSHIP CLUSTERS

Remember the five architects

Nehru Active neutralism

Nasser Bargaining leverage

Tito Beyond Afro-Asia

Sukarno New Emerging Forces

Nkrumah Pan-African unity

SUKARNO'S LANGUAGE

Nefo versus Nekolim

Nefo: New Emerging Forces. **Nekolim**: neocolonialism, capitalism and imperialism—Sukarno's opposing categories.

IV The Non-Aligned Movement: From Politics to Economics

Minimal organization preserved independence but limited cohesion.

BELGRADE AND THE “MINIMALIST” MOVEMENT

The first formal **Non-Aligned Movement (NAM) summit** was hosted by **Tito in Belgrade in 1961**. Rather than establish a tightly integrated international bureaucracy, the movement sought to protect members’ sovereign freedom of action: **no permanent headquarters, no full-time secretariat and no written constitution** in the structure described in the account. The initial membership principle emphasized avoiding binding alignment with either Cold War military bloc.

SELECTED NAM SUMMITS: THE MOVEMENT'S CHANGING AGENDA

Summit	Year and place	Emphasis
I	1961 — Belgrade	Mediation between East and West; anti-colonial cooperation.
II	1964 — Cairo	Imperialism, racism and the arrival of new African governments.
III	1970 — Lusaka	Economic self-reliance, African socialism and development.
IV	1973 — Algiers	Economic bargaining and a “pressure group of the poor” in the oil-shock era.
VI	1979 — Havana	Ideological divisions and a crisis of collective identity.

As decolonization continued, the movement’s agenda moved increasingly from the politics of independence to questions of **development, economic equality and negotiating power**. Yet its flexibility was also a source of weakness: member states could adopt markedly different relationships with Washington, Moscow and their regional neighbours.

MOVEMENT PATH

From Bandung to Havana

- **1955** Bandung meeting
- **1961** Belgrade: first NAM summit
- **1973** Algiers: economic agenda
- **1979** Havana: major divisions

ORGANIZATION CHECK

No NATO-style machinery

The NAM described here deliberately lacked **permanent central institutions**. Non-alignment did not create unified military command.

Ⓥ Economic Diplomacy: UNCTAD, G77 and the NIEO

A voting majority could articulate demands without necessarily compelling implementation.

THE UNITED NATIONS AS A THIRD WORLD FORUM

Newly independent governments employed the UN to challenge colonial norms. The **1960 Declaration on Granting Independence to Colonial Countries and Peoples** was a major political statement against colonial rule. The **United Nations Conference on Trade and Development (UNCTAD, 1964)** provided an economic negotiating forum; the **Group of 77 (G77)** sought shared developing-country positions on trade and aid.

A NEW INTERNATIONAL ECONOMIC ORDER

The **New International Economic Order (NIEO, 1974)** proposed the North–South reforms listed below. Its central problem was enforcement: a UN General Assembly majority could demand redistribution but could not compel wealthier states to accept it, while the **IMF and World Bank** remained central to global finance. **Dependency theory** offered a neo-Marxist explanation of that inequality: the wealthy Northern core sustained underdevelopment in the Southern periphery.

THE NIEO PROGRAMME AND THE LIMITS OF LEVERAGE

Policy field	Proposed change	Obstacle described in the account
Trade	Lower barriers on Southern exports; stabilize commodity prices.	Northern governments did not accept binding obligations.
Industry	Transfer manufacturing and technology.	Structural economic inequalities endured.
Development aid	Target of 0.7% of developed-country GNP.	Voluntary commitments could not be compelled.
Food security	International action against famine.	Programme depended on cooperation and resources.

INSTITUTIONAL ROUTE

Turning numbers into demands

Decolonization expands UN membership

↓

UNCTAD and G77 coordinate economic demands

↓

NIEO seeks new North–South rules

↓

Wealthier powers resist binding reform

DEVELOPMENT AID

A prominent NIEO benchmark

0.7%

Target share of developed-country GNP devoted to development aid in the account.

VI Fragmentation and the Post-Cold War World

Political and economic differences eventually outweighed a shared third-force identity.

THE HAVANA DIVIDE AND THE LEADERSHIP VACUUM

By the **1979 Havana summit**, differences between pro-Soviet radicals, including **Cuba and Vietnam**, and more Western-oriented members such as the **Philippines and Chile** were difficult to reconcile. Renewed superpower tension and the **Soviet invasion of Afghanistan (1979)** sharpened disagreements. The original leaders had also given way to successors dealing with pressing domestic economic and political challenges.

WHEN BIPOLARITY DISAPPEARED

The **end of the Cold War** deprived a third diplomatic bloc of much of the strategic contrast against which it had defined itself. Economic globalization also brought very different development trajectories: some countries industrialized quickly while others remained deeply impoverished. More focused regional bodies, including **ASEAN** and the **African Union**, appeared more useful for certain practical tasks. The term **“Fourth World”** was used in the account for the most impoverished countries, particularly in sub-Saharan Africa.

The Third World achieved a **new diplomatic identity**, gained unprecedented representation in the United Nations and supplied enduring language for **anti-colonialism and North–South justice**. But no common ideology, military organization or economic programme could sustain its unity across different regimes and levels of development. Once the Cold War ended, the “Third World” became **too broad a category to remain analytically precise**.

EXAM INSIGHT

Votes do not equal enforcement

UN General Assembly	Global finance
Numerical and symbolic political strength	IMF, World Bank and richer-state leverage

THREE CAUSES OF DECLINE

Why third-force unity broke

1. **Havana exposes ideological division**
2. **Founding leadership recedes**
3. **Cold War bipolarity disappears**

HISTORICAL DISTINCTION

One “Third World”?

Shared label	Diverse reality
An anti-colonial diplomatic identity	Different regimes and development paths

§ Revision: The Power and Limits of a Third Force

Diplomatic voice did not become permanent economic unity.

Revision prompts: trace **Bandung → Belgrade → UNCTAD/G77 → NIEO → Havana**; distinguish **neutrality** from Nehru's active **neutralism**; explain the gap between a numerical UN majority and economic leverage; and show why the disappearance of bipolarity weakened the identity of a "third force."

REVISION THREAD

Three transformations

1950s Political identity	**1970s** Economic claims	**After 1991** Fragmentation

CHAPTER 25

Making the New Europe: European Integration since 1950

Study notes: The Political Economy and Institutions of European Integration

CENTRAL THESIS

Postwar European integration did not simply replace national interest with idealistic unity. It enabled governments to **exercise parts of their sovereignty collectively** to restore security, prosperity and democratic legitimacy. From the **Schuman Plan and Treaties of Rome** to enlargement and monetary integration, the European project persisted because states repeatedly found new national purposes for shared institutions.

TIMELINE

- **1947**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1951**
- **1954**
- **1955**
- **1957**
- **1966**
- **1973**
- **1975**
- **1981**
- **1986**
- **1992**
- **1995**
- **2002**
- **2004**

After the Second World War, Europe faced **physical devastation, economic stagnation, the Cold War** and the rapid contraction of European empires. Britain withdrew from India and Palestine, the Dutch lost their Southeast Asian empire, and France fought colonial wars in Indochina and North Africa. The difficult **winter of 1946–47** highlighted economic distress, while strong communist parties in France and Italy deepened Western anxieties. The architects of European integration sought a way for diminished states to **recover influence by acting together** rather than pursuing ineffective national solutions alone.

I The Search for a Foundation, 1947–1950

Early cooperation created forums but could not compel coordinated decisions.

THE MARSHALL PLAN, CEEC AND OEEC

The **Marshall Plan (1947)**, or European Recovery Program, was intended to revive European economies and weaken the appeal of communism. The United States also hoped American aid would encourage a more unified Europe. Governments first assembled in the **Conference on European Economic Cooperation (CEEC)**; the **Organization for European Economic Cooperation (OEEC)** followed as a permanent coordinating body. Yet the OEEC proved **ineffective as an engine of integration**: states, especially a reluctant **United Kingdom**, could obstruct its initiatives and avoid binding commitments.

THE COUNCIL OF EUROPE, 1949

A French-sponsored **Council of Europe** offered another forum for European consultation, but it too lacked the binding authority needed to direct national policies. For subsequent integration pioneers, the obstacle was not an absence of discussion but the inability of intergovernmental organizations to **make decisions that held governments to shared obligations**.

INSTITUTIONAL DISTINCTION

Coordination ≠ integration

OEEC / Council	ECSC model
Voluntary consultation; easy to obstruct	Agreed rules and binding authority

BEFORE THE SCHUMAN PLAN

Early cooperative experiments

- **1947** Marshall Plan; CEEC/OEEC
- **1949** Council of Europe
- **1950** Schuman Declaration

KEY TERM

Intergovernmentalism

Governments cooperate while **retaining control** over whether and how collective decisions bind them.

TWO DIFFERENT MODELS OF POSTWAR EUROPEAN COOPERATION

Feature	OEEC / Council of Europe	Schuman Plan / ECSC
Authority	Voluntary intergovernmental cooperation.	Binding supranational powers.
Decision-making	Can be impeded by dissenting governments.	Institutions exercise powers accepted in advance.
Purpose	Aid coordination and political discussion.	Joint management of strategically important sectors.

II The Schuman Plan: Supranationalism Breaks Through

Pooling coal and steel offered security through shared authority.

THE DECLARATION OF 9 MAY 1950

French Foreign Minister **Robert Schuman** proposed placing French and German **coal and steel production** under a common authority. **Jean Monnet** was the scheme's principal planner; Schuman was its public political sponsor. Two innovations mattered: **supranationalism**, in which accepted joint rules could bind participating states, and the deliberate decision to build around **Franco-German reconciliation**, even without Britain.

THE SIX AND THE ECSC

The **European Coal and Steel Community (ECSC)** united **France, West Germany, Italy, Belgium, the Netherlands and Luxembourg**. This core group of **Six** endured until the first enlargement in 1973. Coal and steel were strategically chosen: they were vital to industrial recovery and to the production of weapons. Common institutions offered a way to make German economic rehabilitation compatible with French security.

THE FOUNDING CORE

The original Community

6

France, West Germany, Italy, Belgium, the Netherlands and Luxembourg.

SECURITY THROUGH ECONOMICS

The Schuman logic

Franco-German rivalry and industrial needs
↓
Pool coal and steel production
↓
Binding common authority
↓
Greater security and economic recovery

DO NOT CONFUSE

ECSC success ≠ EDC success

Coal and steel pooling proceeded; the **European Defence Community** failed in the French Assembly in 1954.

THE FAILURE OF THE EUROPEAN DEFENCE COMMUNITY

The proposed **European Defence Community (EDC)** attempted to combine the armed forces of the Six so that West German rearmament would not require a fully independent German army. The **French National Assembly rejected ratification in 1954**. This failure checked supranational ambitions in defence, while the more conventional **Western European Union** offered an alternative route for Western security cooperation.

III Rome: Economic Integration and the Institutional Quartet

The Six rebuilt momentum around common markets and shared rule-making.

MESSINA AND THE TREATIES OF ROME

At **Messina (1955)**, the Six resumed negotiations, leading to the **Treaties of Rome (1957)**. These established **Euratom** for atomic-energy cooperation and the **European Economic Community (EEC)**. The EEC aimed to remove **internal customs tariffs**, establish a **common external tariff** and develop common policies, notably the **Common Agricultural Policy (CAP)**.

THE ORIGINAL COMMUNITY INSTITUTIONAL FRAMEWORK

Institution	Principal function
European Commission	Initiates and drafts proposals for common policy.
Council of Ministers	Member-state representatives take major legislative decisions.
European Parliamentary Assembly	Provides parliamentary scrutiny and oversight.
Court of Justice	Adjudicates legal disputes and safeguards the common legal order.

THE TREATIES OF ROME

EEC essentials

Market Remove internal tariffs

External Common customs tariff

Policy Common agriculture

INSTITUTIONAL ROLES

Commission proposes; ministers decide

Commission
Drafts and proposes policy

Council
Member-state ministers adopt major decisions

This quartet combined shared authority with national control: the Commission could initiate common policy, but member governments retained a decisive role through the Council. Section V traces how that balance shifted in practice.

IV Why Integrate? Three Interpretive Traditions

Peace ideals, state interests and economic necessities overlapped.

THE TRADITIONAL NARRATIVE OF PEACE

Early proponents such as **Monnet** and **Paul-Henri Spaak** emphasized the desire to make another European war impossible through durable cooperation. The experience of **1914 and 1939** gave the peace argument emotional force. But a purely heroic narrative can obscure the specific national calculations behind the institutions.

THE REVISIONIST AND REALIST ARGUMENT

Modern interpretations place greater emphasis on **national political interest**. **France** used integration to take the initiative in European diplomacy and manage the **German problem**; **West Germany** sought acceptance after the war, reconciliation with France and secure attachment to the Western camp; **Italy** could regain standing without appearing threatening. Collective institutions allowed states to regain an international role that isolated action could not provide.

ALAN MILWARD: RESCUE OF THE NATION-STATE

Economic historian **Alan Milward** described integration as the **“European rescue of the nation-state.”** Democratic governments required growth, employment and credible economic policy to retain electoral legitimacy. French access to **German coke**, anxieties about German steel competition and Dutch fears of a return to **1930s-style protectionism** all shaped the settlement. The Dutch advocate **Jan-Willem Beyen** pressed for a customs union that suited a small economy dependent on open markets.

THREE INTERPRETATIONS

Why did Europe integrate?

Idealist Prevent war

Realist National interests

Milward Rescue state

EXAM INSIGHT

Do not choose just one motive

Show how **reconciliation, national security and domestic prosperity** reinforced one another rather than treating them as mutually exclusive explanations.

THREE LENSES FOR EXPLAINING EUROPEAN INTEGRATION

Interpretive approach	Question it asks	Central claim
Peace / idealist	How could further European war be prevented?	Shared institutions help overcome historical rivalry.
Realist / revisionist	What did each government gain?	States pooled authority to recover security and influence.
Economic / Milward	How did governments preserve domestic legitimacy?	Prosperity and welfare enabled the nation-state to survive.

> *"We are in politics, not business." — Walter Hallstein, as quoted in the account*

Ⓥ Commission versus Council: Who Exercised Power?

The central executive's original promise gave way to increasingly assertive national governments.

FROM CENTRAL INITIATIVE TO NATIONAL CONTROL

The **ECSC High Authority** had embodied an ambitious central executive. The issue after Rome was how much freedom national governments would allow it in practice. Even **Monnet** and **Walter Hallstein**, sometimes called "Mr Europe," faced limits imposed by ministers. The crises and summits below show how governments asserted that control.

THE EMPTY CHAIR AND LUXEMBOURG, 1966

French President **Charles de Gaulle** challenged moves toward majority voting. The resulting **empty-chair crisis** and **Luxembourg Compromise (1966)** strengthened the practice of seeking unanimity when a government claimed a question involved its **"vital interest."** The accord narrowed the scope for overruling states and underscored the continuing power of the national executive.

POWER-SHIFT RECALL

How did governments regain leverage?

Luxembourg: vital-interest claims constrained majority decisions. **European Council:** national leaders set strategic direction.

GOVERNANCE MILESTONES

The member-state counterweight

- **1957** Rome sets Commission/Council roles
- **1966** Luxembourg Compromise
- **1975** Regular European Council summits

THE EUROPEAN COUNCIL, FROM 1975

The regular meetings of European **heads of state and government** from **1975** further elevated national political leadership. Prime ministers and presidents could give strategic direction to integration while ministers worked through the detailed legislation. The resulting system was not a simple transfer of sovereignty from capitals to Brussels; it was a constantly negotiated **collective exercise of state power**.

VI Deepening and Widening: The Agenda Expands

New members and new policy problems supplied fresh reasons to cooperate.

FROM ECONOMIC COMMUNITY TO MONETARY UNION

Cooperation spread beyond tariffs and industrial sectors. **Cross-border pollution** created an argument for environmental policy; the weakening of the **Bretton Woods** monetary system encouraged exchange-rate coordination and the **European Monetary System**. Integration ultimately advanced toward **Economic and Monetary Union (EMU)** and the **euro**, launched in physical currency form in **2002** in the account's chronology.

SUCCESSIVE ROUNDS OF ENLARGEMENT

Enlargement made the European project broader in geography and policy. The **United Kingdom, Ireland and Denmark** joined in **1973**. **Greece (1981)**, then **Spain and Portugal (1986)**, connected membership to democratic consolidation after authoritarian rule. **Austria, Finland and Sweden** joined in **1995**; the large **2004** expansion brought ten additional states, many from Central and Eastern Europe.

ENLARGEMENT MEMORY

Four major waves

1973	UK, Ireland, Denmark
1981/86	Greece, Spain, Portugal
1995	Austria, Finland, Sweden
2004	Ten new members

CORE PARADOX

Widening versus deepening

Widening
More member states and interests

Deepening
New policies, funds and monetary ties

KEY PHRASE

Mailbox democracy

A state outside the Union that nonetheless must **follow European rules without a voice** in shaping them, as described in the account.

SELECTED MILESTONES IN EUROPEAN INTEGRATION

Year	Event	Significance
1947	Marshall Plan and OEEC process	Economic recovery, but limited binding integration.
1950	Schuman Declaration	Franco-German coal/steel pooling and supranational breakthrough.
1954	EDC fails	Military integration stalls.
1957	Treaties of Rome	EEC customs union and Euratom founded.
1966	Luxembourg Compromise	Member-state vital-interest claims acquire political weight.
1973	First enlargement	UK, Ireland and Denmark join the Six.
1992 / 2002	Internal Market / Euro	Broader economic integration and common currency.
2004	Eastern enlargement	Ten new members reshape the Community’s geography.

DOES WIDENING UNDERMINE DEEPENING?

Observers feared that bringing more states into the Community would impede closer union. The relationship was not so simple: poorer entrants such as **Ireland, Greece and Spain** reinforced demands for **structural and cohesion funds**, while wealthy northern states such as **Sweden and Finland** preferred participation to becoming a **“mailbox democracy”** obliged to follow Brussels rules without helping make them. More members could therefore create new rationales for deeper common policies.

European integration emerged from the **insecurity and economic weakness** of postwar Europe and persisted because each generation discovered new tasks—industrial recovery, trade, agricultural policy, economic stability, regional redistribution, democracy and the environment—that were difficult to solve alone. Its enduring paradox is that **collective institutions could strengthen the nation-state** rather than simply abolish or supersede it.

§ Revision: The Resilience of a Shared Sovereignty

The Union survived because cooperation remained useful to its member governments.

Revision prompts: distinguish **intergovernmental** coordination from **supranational** authority; explain the **Schuman–Rome–Luxembourg** institutional sequence; compare **idealist, realist and Milward** interpretations; and show why **widening** has not always prevented **deepening**.

REVISION CLAIM

Sovereignty: loss or resource?

Simple surrender story

Integration replaces independent states

Chapter's argument

Governments exercise powers together to strengthen their capacity to govern

CHAPTER 26

The Making of Modern Southeast Asia in the Age of Decolonization and the Cold War

Study notes: The Crucible of Modernity — Southeast Asia, Decolonization and the Cold War

CENTRAL THESIS

The Second World War broke the myth of European invincibility and empowered mass nationalist movements. Decolonization then intersected with Cold War rivalry, but Southeast Asian leaders were not passive proxies: they pursued national aims while negotiating, exploiting or resisting outside powers. From the Vietnam conflicts to **ASEAN**, the region gradually emerged as a recognisable political and economic community.

TIMELINE

- **1939**
- **1941**
- **1945**
- **1946**
- **1947**
- **1948**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1954**
- **1955**
- **1956**
- **1961**
- **1967**
- **1975**
- **1979**

Between **1939 and 1975**, Southeast Asia's political map changed profoundly; the final section follows the consequences through the 1979 conflict and later economic reforms. European and American colonial control gave way to diverse independent states, but the route to decolonization differed sharply by colony. **Japanese conquest, popular nationalism and superpower competition** interacted rather than producing one uniform regional revolution.

Ⅰ The Prewar Imperial Order and Japanese Expansion

An overwhelmingly colonial region faced a newly assertive Asian military power.

IMPERIAL POSSESSIONS AROUND 1939, AS GROUPED IN THE ACCOUNT

Power	Territories described
Britain	India, Burma, Sri Lanka, Malaya, Singapore and Hong Kong
France	Indochina: Vietnam, Laos and Cambodia
Netherlands	Netherlands East Indies (Indonesia)
United States	Philippines
Independent in the regional comparison	Thailand (Siam) and Japan

A REGION VULNERABLE TO A NEW EMPIRE

The account describes an **"expanse of imperial red"** beside French, Dutch and American territories. Japan, encouraged by victories against China and Russia but short of domestic raw materials, sought a new regional empire. Its attack on **Pearl Harbor in December 1941** accompanied the wider offensive to seize Southeast Asian resources and displace European authority.

PREWAR POWER MAP

Who governed the region?

European empires
Britain, France and the Netherlands controlled much of the map.

Asian challenger
Japan sought resources and regional hegemony.

EXAM LENS

Do not begin with the Cold War

First establish the **pre-1941 colonial order** and the impact of Japanese conquest; superpower rivalry came to shape a conflict already rooted in empire and nationalism.

CONQUEST AS CATALYST

The turning point

- **1939** — Extensive European colonial rule
- **1941–42** — Japanese victories discredit European invincibility
- **1945** — Japanese surrender leaves contested political authority

China was divided between the **Guomindang** and the **Chinese Communist Party**, while Tokyo became the leading regional challenger. The next section explains how Japanese victories changed the possibilities for local nationalist movements.

II War, Occupation and the Rise of Mass Nationalism

Indigenous political leadership responded differently to Japanese rule.

THE DESTRUCTION OF THE OLD PRESTIGE

The “spectacular Japanese victories” of **1941–42** undermined the claim that European colonizers were naturally superior. Occupation caused suffering, but it also destabilized established administration, mobilized new political constituencies and gave nationalist leaders opportunities that prewar systems had denied them.

TWO NATIONALIST STRATEGIES

Ho Chi Minh in Vietnam was a communist resisting Japanese occupation and demanding independence. **Sukarno** in Indonesia was a non-communist who cooperated with Japan in ways that helped prepare for future independence. The same occupation thus produced different nationalist strategies: resistance in Ho’s case, cooperation intended to prepare independence in Sukarno’s.

In several colonies, **communists became leaders of militant nationalism**. US Secretary of State **Dean Acheson** argued in 1949 that colonial Stalinists were also nationalists; the account emphasizes that Ho Chi Minh’s nationalism was grounded in conviction rather than opportunistic adoption. Communist ideology and anticolonial national identity could therefore reinforce each other.

LEADERSHIP CONTRAST

Ho and Sukarno

Ho Chi Minh	Sukarno
Communist; resisted Japan; demanded immediate independence.	Non-communist; worked with occupiers to prepare independence.

INTERPRETIVE WARNING

Communism ≠ absence of nationalism

Communist-led movements could also be **authentically nationalist**. Explaining Vietnam solely as an instrument of Moscow or Beijing erases indigenous political objectives.

III Several Paths to Independence, 1945–1950

British negotiation contrasted with the Dutch effort to return to colonial rule.

BRITAIN: SUBSTITUTING INFLUENCE FOR CONTROL

Economic exhaustion and domestic mobilization pushed Britain toward **"transformation" rather than "liquidation." India and Pakistan gained independence in 1947**, followed by **Burma and Sri Lanka in 1948**. Britain hoped to preserve trade and strategic influence through the **Commonwealth**, while making remaining possessions such as Malaya and Singapore more viable.

THE DUTCH WAR IN INDONESIA

After **Sukarno declared independence in 1945**, the Netherlands attempted to reassert authority, including the **"police actions" of 1947–48**. US policy shifted when Sukarno suppressed a communist revolt in 1948: Washington increasingly feared that a long colonial war would weaken the Netherlands and European recovery. US pressure contributed to the transfer of sovereignty in **December 1949**.

The two cases show why independence cannot be reduced to a standard British-or-European retreat. Different colonial governments chose different combinations of negotiation, repression and economic calculation; indigenous leaders likewise made distinct choices.

IV Indochina: From Anticolonial War to Cold War Proxy

The international setting transformed a French colonial conflict into a broader confrontation.

DECOLONIZATION MILESTONES

The immediate postwar years

- **1945** Sukarno declares Indonesian independence
- **1947** India and Pakistan become independent
- **1948** Burma and Sri Lanka follow
- **1949** Dutch recognition / transfer in Indonesia

COLONIAL EXIT

Two imperial responses

Britain
Retreat while preserving Commonwealth links and influence.

Netherlands
Attempted renewed control; conceded after fighting and pressure.

THE FIRST VIETNAM WAR

Following Japan's surrender, **Ho Chi Minh proclaimed the Democratic Republic of Vietnam**. French forces returned, initially aided by **British-led Indian troops**; war broke out in **late 1946**. The initial struggle was a contest over colonial independence, not simply a derivative of Washington–Moscow rivalry.

THE 1949–50 TURN

The **communist victory in China** gave the Vietminh a powerful neighbouring ally. The **United States** increasingly financed French forces, seeking to contain communism and protect the economic environment of Japan. By **spring 1950**, the war had become a **Sino-American proxy struggle**, even as Vietnamese actors pursued their own political goals.

DIEN BIEN PHU AND GENEVA, 1954

France's defeat at **Dien Bien Phu** led to the **Geneva Accords**: Vietnam was provisionally divided at the **17th parallel**, with nationwide elections envisaged for **1956** but never held. The account stresses that **China and the USSR pressed the Vietminh to accept compromise** to meet their own security priorities.

> *"Diplomacy is rarely able to gain at the conference table what cannot be gained or held on the battlefield." — Walter Bedell Smith, as quoted in the account*

THE CONFLICT CHANGES

Colonial war → Cold War front

French return after 1945

↓

Vietnamese anticolonial resistance

↓

PRC victory and US funding, 1949–50

↓

Internationalized proxy confrontation

GEOGRAPHICAL REFERENCE

The 17th parallel

The **temporary dividing line** used in the 1954 settlement, linked in the account to elections planned for 1956 that did not take place.

EXAM CAUSATION

Do not turn Vietnam into a puppet war

Show how **local anticolonial agency** and **foreign support** interacted. China and the USSR sometimes pressed Hanoi toward outcomes it did not fully want.

V Containment: South Vietnam, SEATO and Dominoes

Washington tried to institutionalize a non-communist Southeast Asian order.

BUILDING AN ANTICOMMUNIST SOUTH

After Geneva, the United States supported **Ngo Dinh Diem** and the creation of the **Republic of Vietnam** in the south as an anticommunist state. Eisenhower's **domino theory** asserted that one communist victory could set off a regional chain reaction, making the defence of South Vietnam a lasting American priority.

SEATO AND THE SECURITY PERIMETER

The **Southeast Asia Treaty Organization (1954)** involved **the United States, Britain, Australia, New Zealand, France, Thailand, Pakistan and the Philippines**. It was intended to help protect **Laos, Cambodia and South Vietnam** against communist expansion, even though these three were not among the treaty signatories listed in the account.

VI Regional Cooperation: From Development to ASEAN

Countries also created institutions outside the logic of military alliances.

THE COLOMBO PLAN AND BANDUNG

The **Colombo Plan (1950)** promoted economic development as a means of weakening communist appeal and mobilized Commonwealth and later US support. The **Bandung Conference (1955)** brought together **29 states** under principles associated with *Panchsheel*: sovereignty, non-aggression, non-interference, equality and peaceful coexistence. Bandung helped establish the political climate for the **Non-Aligned Movement (1961)**.

THE DOMINO THEORY

Containment in three steps

Fear One state falls

Prediction Neighbours become vulnerable

Policy Support South Vietnam

KEY INSTITUTION

SEATO (1954)

An eight-member security arrangement formed to coordinate resistance to a feared spread of communism in Southeast Asia.

INSTITUTIONS IN CONTEXT

Development, non-alignment, integration

- **1950** Colombo Plan
- **1955** Bandung Conference
- **1961** Non-Aligned Movement
- **1967** ASEAN founded

ASEAN AND THE REGIONAL INTEREST

In **1967**, **Thailand, Indonesia, Singapore, Malaysia and the Philippines** founded the **Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN)** to coordinate development and promote regional security during the Vietnam War. Cooperation developed despite differences among national regimes and their relationships with the great powers.

The account contrasts the early vision of **"tentative regionalism"** with an eventual ASEAN-centred economic framework, including freer regional trade and inward investment. For Southeast Asia, institution-building became a way to make the region something more than a convenient label on the map.

VII Vietnam's Long Wars and the Postwar Regional Order

National mistrust survived ideological alignments.

THE SECOND VIETNAM WAR AND HANOI'S AGENCY

The second, American, war in Vietnam culminated in the **fall of Saigon in 1975** and communist unification. The account emphasizes **Hanoi's ability to draw on both Soviet and Chinese support** despite the Sino-Soviet split, rather than assuming Vietnamese policy was directed by either external patron.

THE THIRD VIETNAM WAR AND ECONOMIC ADAPTATION

Conflict between China and Vietnam in **1979**, following the overthrow of the **Khmer Rouge** in Cambodia, demonstrated that nationalist competition could outweigh communist ideological solidarity. Although China provided major aid during earlier struggles, the emergence of a unified Vietnam aligned with Moscow created a new strategic anxiety on China's southern border.

COMMON CONFUSION

SEATO is not ASEAN

SEATO was a Cold War security arrangement; **ASEAN** began as a Southeast Asian regional association for cooperation and development.

HISTORICAL INTERPRETATION

Ideology versus sovereignty

Cold War lens

Communist states should act as a single camp.

Regional reality

Vietnam–China rivalry persisted despite shared ideology.

THE REGION'S TRANSFORMATION

Independent Southeast Asia

10

Diverse sovereign states in the later regional configuration described by the account.

Later, Vietnam's **doi moi** reforms helped turn it from a perceived regional threat toward an economic partner. The wider region gradually moved from colonial extraction toward growing economic interdependence and cooperation through ASEAN and associated trade arrangements.

REGIONAL TRANSFORMATION SUMMARIZED IN THE ACCOUNT

Dimension	Long-term change
Political identity	From colonial domains to ten diverse sovereign states.
Economic organization	From extraction-oriented empires toward ASEAN trade cooperation.
Regional diplomacy	From tentative coordination toward more integrated regionalism.
Vietnam	From wars and regional confrontation toward doi moi and economic participation.

The Second World War demolished the credibility of European colonial supremacy, while **nationalist mobilization** created several distinct paths to independence. The Cold War then reshaped Vietnam and the security architecture of the region, but **Sukarno, Ho Chi Minh and later governments acted for national purposes**, not merely to satisfy superpowers. **ASEAN, economic adaptation and regional interdependence** eventually helped turn Southeast Asia into a functioning international region.

§ Revision: From Colonial Outposts to a Regional Community

Global geopolitics mattered, but regional actors had independent objectives.

Revision prompts: Explain **1941–45 as a catalyst**; contrast **British and Dutch decolonization**; describe the **1949–50 internationalization of Indochina**; distinguish **SEATO, Bandung and ASEAN**; and use **China–Vietnam conflict** to challenge a purely ideological account.

CHAPTER SYNTHESIS

Three forces make the region

War Shattered colonial prestige

Nation Local agency and independence

Cold War Outside rivalry reshaped choices

CHAPTER 27

The Middle East, 1945–1991: The Making of a Mare's Nest

Study notes: The Middle East, 1945–1991 — The Making of a Mare’s Nest

CENTRAL THESIS

The Middle East’s postwar turmoil cannot be explained by a simple **US–Soviet “superpower straightjacket.”** Britain’s imperial retreat, US strategies of intervention and delegation, and regional states’ own ambitions interacted to produce a **“mare’s nest”**: local rulers often recruited great powers to advance competing objectives, while outside governments repeatedly misread the political environment.

TIMELINE

- **1945**
- **1946**
- **1947**
- **1956**
- **1957**
- **1958**
- **1961**
- **1967**
- **1969**
- **1973**
- **1979**
- **1980**
- **1984**
- **1986**
- **1988**
- **1990**
- **1991**

From **British paramountcy after 1945** to the **Kuwait War of 1990–91**, Middle Eastern history followed overlapping struggles for sovereignty, oil, security and regional influence. The region did not simply follow superpower instructions: **local governments were also active users of US and Soviet power**.

Ⅰ The Erosion of British Paramountcy, 1945–1956

Britain's apparent postwar dominance masked economic and strategic weakness.

THE LIMITS OF THE POSTWAR POSITION

At the end of the war, Britain retained a substantial Middle Eastern military presence and appeared to have displaced rival imperial forces. Yet **Jewish and Arab nationalist claims in Palestine**, anti-British pressure in **Egypt and Iraq**, and the costs of occupying a vast regional system undermined its position. Britain retained military positions but lacked the money and reliable local support needed to turn them into effective control.

EXPLANATIONS OF BRITAIN'S POSTWAR DECLINE

Pressure	Mechanism
Nationalism	Rival claims in Palestine and anticolonial protest challenged Britain's ability to govern or broker settlements.
Loss of India (1947)	Weakened arguments for holding the Middle East primarily to guard imperial routes to India.
Economic weakness	Postwar financial distress and welfare-state ambitions constrained costly overseas obligations.
Strategic errors	Ernest Bevin's effort to work with Arab populations misread local rivalries and political divisions.

DECLINE OF PARAMOUNTCY

Why British power weakened

Postwar fiscal exhaustion

↓

Loss of imperial rationale and nationalist pressures

↓

Failed treaty and political strategy

↓

Suez, 1956: visible end of dominance

EXAM CAUTION

Imperial reach ≠ effective control

Britain still held military positions after **1945**, but money, political consent and reliable local partnerships were increasingly absent.

REVISED TREATIES, EVACUATION AND SUEZ

The account treats Britain’s willingness to revisit its treaties, including evacuation negotiations in **Egypt in 1946**, as a loss of control. In the **Suez Crisis (1956)**, Britain, France and Israel took coordinated action against Egypt, but pressure from the United States and Soviet Union helped end the intervention. Suez symbolized the collapse of **British paramountcy**.

> *“Illusion, incompetence, and loss of will were largely responsible for the erosion of British paramountcy in the Middle East between 1945 and 1956.” — Interpretation in the account*

II American Intervention and British Withdrawal, 1957–1968

Washington sought to contain Soviet influence in a politically fragmented region.

THE EISENHOWER DOCTRINE, 1957

After Suez, the **Eisenhower Doctrine** offered US military and economic assistance to states facing aggression by forces supposedly linked to international communism. The measure was hurried and insufficiently attentive to the region’s competing national and dynastic agendas.

IRAQ, LEBANON AND JORDAN IN 1958

The **Iraqi Revolution of 1958** overthrew the monarchy and killed **King Faisal II**, wrecking Britain’s **Baghdad Pact** strategy. The United States landed troops in **Lebanon**; Britain deployed paratroops to **Jordan**. These simultaneous responses demonstrated both Western anxiety and the absence of a stable regional order.

THE FIRST TURNING POINTS

Britain’s retreat

- **1945** — Nominal British regional predominance
- **1947** — India gains independence
- **1956** — Suez intervention fails

POLICY TERM

Eisenhower Doctrine

The 1957 US promise of aid to Middle Eastern states resisting **armed aggression attributed to international communism**; its interpretation was complicated by local conflicts.

REGIONAL CRISES

Four intervention moments

- **1956** — Suez weakens Britain
- **1958** — Iraq revolution; US Lebanon / UK Jordan deployments
- **1961** — British forces sent to Kuwait
- **1967** — British withdrawal from Aden

KUWAIT AND THE WITHDRAWAL FROM ADEN

In **Operation Vantage (1961)**, Britain sent troops to **Kuwait** to deter Iraqi territorial claims. Its withdrawal from **Aden in 1967** is portrayed in the account as a betrayal of past commitments to the **Federation of South Arabia**. The account associates the withdrawal with major depopulation and violence.

These cases suggest that **British retreat and US intervention were not a clean transfer of control**. Both powers became entangled in local disputes whose origins and dynamics were not reducible to the East–West conflict.

III The Nixon Doctrine and the Twin Pillars, 1969–1979

US policy relied increasingly on powerful regional partners rather than direct deployments.

DELEGATING REGIONAL SECURITY

The **Nixon Doctrine (1969)** followed the strains of the Vietnam War. Washington would supply arms and money to selected states that could act as **regional policemen**. In the Gulf the chief partners were **Iran under the Shah and Saudi Arabia**; Israel also became an important strategic asset against Soviet-supported regional rivals after the **1967 Six-Day War**.

IRAN, ISRAEL AND SAUDI ARABIA

Large US arms sales enabled the **Shah** to pursue an increasingly ambitious regional role. Heavy military spending encouraged the Shah's regional ambitions while diverting resources from domestic reform. **Saudi Arabia** played a complementary Gulf role, while **Israel** was seen as a strong military counterweight to Egypt, Syria and Iraq.

CAUSE VERSUS LABEL

Beware the Cold War shortcut

For each intervention, identify the **local dispute first** and then explain how London or Washington defined it through anti-communism and imperial security.

REGIONAL PARTNERS

A policy with distinct roles

Iran / Saudi Arabia
Gulf security partners under the "twin pillars" approach.

Israel
Military counterweight to Soviet-aligned Arab states.

THE OIL SHOCK AND THE IRANIAN REVOLUTION

The **1973 Yom Kippur War** was followed by an **OPEC-related oil embargo** and a roughly fourfold increase in prices, redistributing enormous financial resources toward oil producers. In **1979**, the Iranian Revolution removed the Shah, depriving the United States of a central pillar of its Gulf strategy and a major customer for American weaponry.

Ⅳ The Carter Doctrine and the Iran–Iraq War, 1980–1988

The United States shifted toward direct protection of Gulf interests.

THE CARTER DOCTRINE, 1980

Following the **Iranian Revolution** and the **Soviet invasion of Afghanistan**, the **Carter Doctrine** declared that attempts by outside powers to dominate the Persian Gulf would be resisted, including militarily. The account describes this as a transition from **delegated policing** toward the prospect of **direct US intervention** to protect strategic and oil interests.

A LONG AND DESTABILIZING WAR

The **Iran–Iraq War (1980–88)** generated high casualties and heightened tensions among neighbouring governments. Fearing an Iranian victory and the spread of revolutionary Islam, the United States gradually **tilted toward Iraq**, while also providing naval protection to Kuwaiti tankers. The account places the expansion of US–Iraqi ties in the mid-1980s.

IRAN–CONTRA AND THE CONTRADICTION OF POLICY

The **Iran–Contra (Irangate) affair** exposed secret US arms dealings with Iran while official policy generally favoured Iraq. The war did not produce a durable regional settlement; Iraq emerged as an uneasy American counterweight to Iran, despite its own destabilizing ambitions.

THE STRATEGY UNRAVELS

From delegation to crisis

US arms and funding to allies

↓

Regional partners become stronger and more autonomous

↓

1973 oil shock transforms leverage

↓

1979 revolution removes the Shah

ECONOMIC SHOCK

1973 oil prices

≈4×

Price increase following the Yom Kippur War and the oil embargo, in the historical account.

V The Kuwait War, 1990–1991

A former counterweight to Iran became the principal aggressor.

SADDAM’S INVASION AND THE COALITION RESPONSE

Iraq invaded Kuwait in August 1990, exposing the failure of the assumption that Saddam Hussein would be a predictable stabilizing force. The United States deployed troops in **Saudi Arabia** under **Operation Desert Shield**, while **President George H. W. Bush** assembled a multinational coalition of approximately **30 states**.

DESERT STORM AND THE INCOMPLETE SETTLEMENT

Operation Desert Storm (1991) expelled Iraqi forces from Kuwait. The coalition nevertheless left Saddam in power, partly because Western policymakers feared that disintegration of Iraq could strengthen Iran. The subsequent suppression of **Shiite and Kurdish uprisings** exposed a contradiction in the coalition’s policy despite the earlier victory over Iraqi occupation of Kuwait.

The Kuwait War illustrated the recurring contradiction of great-power engagement: the United States could assemble overwhelming military force but could not resolve the **regional political conflicts** that made its involvement necessary.

VI The “Mare’s Nest”: Local Agency and External Miscalculation

The region repeatedly defeated straightforward Great Power narratives.

US SECURITY LOGIC

Nixon versus Carter

Nixon, 1969
Arm and fund regional partners to police the Gulf.

Carter, 1980
Commit US force to oppose outside domination of the Gulf.

POLICY CONTRADICTION

The US was not consistently neutral

The account describes both an **American tilt toward Baghdad** and **secret arms sales to Iran**. This complicates any simple account of a single, coherent US Gulf policy.

KEY SCANDAL

Irangate / Iran–Contra

Secret arms transactions with **Iran** despite the public US stance and the broader effort to contain Iranian regional power.

FOUR STRATEGIC APPROACHES AND THEIR OUTCOMES

Concept	Strategic logic	Result
Bevin's partnership	Reach Arab populations through economic and political reform.	British resources were inadequate; regional rivalries persisted.
Nixon Doctrine	Support Iran and Saudi Arabia as Gulf security pillars.	Overreliance on Shah; Iranian Revolution disrupted the system.
Carter Doctrine	Reserve direct US force to defend the Persian Gulf.	Widening American military commitment, evident in 1990–91.
"Superpower straightjacket"	Explain regional politics through US–USSR competition.	Misses local actors' ability to enlist and manipulate external powers.

The key argument is not that outside intervention did not matter: it shaped politics, military spending, and war. Rather, **the governments of the Middle East had their own interests**. They frequently solicited international support to confront rivals or strengthen domestic legitimacy. As a result, imperial decline, Cold War containment, oil wealth, nationalism and regime security became tangled with each other.

From the retreat of **Britain** to the rise of **American intervention**, the Middle East presented no clean succession of regional managers. The **Eisenhower, Nixon and Carter doctrines** each sought a workable formula for security; each encountered autonomous local states, oil politics, ideological competition and conflicting regional ambitions. The **Iranian Revolution and Kuwait War** exposed the limits of both proxy policing and direct armed response. The region was **not merely a superpower chessboard**: local states actively shaped the rival powers' policies.

THE KUWAIT CAMPAIGN

Three major phases

- **Aug 1990** — Iraqi invasion of Kuwait
- **1990** — Desert Shield: Saudi-based defense and coalition building
- **Jan–Feb 1991** — Desert Storm: expulsion of Iraqi forces

ASSESS THE RESULT

Military victory, political limits

Achieved
Kuwait liberated from occupation.

Unresolved
Saddam remained; regime and communal conflict persisted.

INTERPRETIVE FRAME

Three levels of causation

Global US–Soviet rivalry

Regional State and regime competition

Domestic Nationalism, legitimacy and resources

§ Revision: A Persistent Mare’s Nest

The superpowers and the region’s states repeatedly made each other’s problems worse.

Revision prompts: Trace **Suez → Eisenhower → Nixon → Carter → Kuwait**; explain **Britain’s decline**; distinguish **Iran, Saudi Arabia and Israel** in US regional strategy; identify **the Iran–Iraq policy contradictions**; and illustrate why **local actors manipulated great powers**.

EXAM THESIS

Explain why “client” is misleading

Use an example such as **Iraq, Iran or Egypt** to show that local rulers could seek great-power sponsorship while advancing goals not fully shared by those patrons.

FINAL INTERPRETATION

Two inadequate explanations

Only superpower control

Ignores nationalism, rivalries and local initiatives.

Only local politics

Ignores military aid, oil interests and Western interventions.

CHAPTER 28

The Sino-Soviet Alliance

Study notes: The Fragile Colossus — The Rise and Fall of the Sino-Soviet Alliance

CENTRAL THESIS

The alliance of the world's two largest communist states collapsed under the strain of incompatible expectations. Moscow imagined a Soviet-led hierarchy; Beijing insisted that shared revolution must not limit Chinese sovereignty or equality. Strategic cooperation survived in 1950 and during Korea, but mistrust, ideological divergence and great-power rivalry transformed "brotherly" solidarity into armed confrontation by **1969**.

TIMELINE

- **1945**
- **1948**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1953**
- **1954**
- **1956**
- **1958**
- **1959**
- **1963**
- **1966**
- **1969**
- **1970**

The Sino-Soviet relationship was meant to demonstrate the unity of communism but became a **“dialogue of the deaf.”** Ideological conviction, differing perceptions of revolutionary status, and the legacy of foreign intervention made both governments suspicious. The central dispute concerned authority: could Moscow lead the communist world while Beijing retained **equal status and independent decision-making**?

Ⓘ The Inherited Problem: Stalin, Chiang and Mao, 1945–1950

The new alliance began with older Soviet commitments and mutual suspicion.

STALIN’S EARLIER SETTLEMENT WITH NATIONALIST CHINA

In the **1945 treaty with Chiang Kai-shek’s Guomindang government**, the Soviet Union secured interests in the **Changchun railway**, the use of **Port Arthur**, and arrangements acknowledging **Mongolia’s effective separation from China**. Those privileges made Stalin reluctant to replace an established diplomatic bargain immediately after Mao’s communist victory in **1949**.

A SECOND TITO?

Stalin had recently lost control over **Yugoslavia’s Josip Broz Tito**, who resisted Soviet discipline after the **1948 split**. Mao’s success as a largely independent peasant revolutionary raised the possibility of another communist leader unwilling to obey Moscow. Mao later recalled that Stalin suspected him of being a **“half-hearted Tito.”**

TREATY LOGIC

Why Stalin eventually agreed

1945 Soviet gains under Chiang
↓
1949 Mao victory changes Chinese government
↓
Fear of a Chinese–US rapprochement
↓
February 1950 treaty replaces the old framework

CAUSAL WARNING

Shared communism did not erase hierarchy

China demanded **sovereignty and status**; Stalin valued the security and economic privileges acquired in the earlier treaty. An ideological alliance was never automatically an equal one.

MAO’S MOSCOW VISIT

On his **first trip abroad, in December 1949**, Mao sought security guarantees, capital and technology, and a treaty that would “look good” and “taste good” to China. Stalin hesitated, concerned that abandoning his 1945 privileges might encourage Western challenges. He accepted a new agreement in **January 1950** partly because of the possibility that China might seek a relationship with the United States.

KEY COMMITMENTS AND LIMITS IN THE 1950 SINO-SOVIET AGREEMENT

Dimension	Arrangement emphasized in the account
Signature	14 February 1950
Security	Soviet assurances against American intervention
Economic cooperation	$300 million loan, trade arrangements and Soviet technical specialists
Secret arrangements	Preferential Soviet interests in Xinjiang and Manchuria
Territorial concessions	Eventual Soviet withdrawal from Port Arthur and transfer of the Changchun railway

II The Korean War: Strength and Resentment, 1950–1953

A common enemy could not settle how risks, decisions and costs should be shared.

MATERIAL SUPPORT

1950 Soviet loan

$300m

The loan promised to China as part of the 1950 alliance package.

TWO RESULTS OF KOREA

Solidarity versus grievance

Strengthened alliance

China and USSR fought against a common adversary.

Deepened resentment

Beijing bore manpower costs and disputed Soviet financial terms.

EXAM INSIGHT

Korea changed the balance inside the bloc

Explain the paradox: China’s willingness to fight helped **protect the communist camp** while making its leaders less willing to accept a subordinate role within it.

WHO WOULD PAY FOR COMMUNIST SECURITY?

According to the account, **Stalin** approved **Kim Il Sung's** offensive against South Korea after concluding that Washington's announced defense perimeter left the Korean mainland outside its core commitments. Moscow expected **China** to provide ground forces if military fortunes changed, keeping much of the risk of direct confrontation away from the USSR.

CHINA PAYS A HEAVY PRICE

When Chinese troops entered the conflict, Stalin supplied weapons but **charged China for the equipment**. Mao resented this and the lack of consultation over the war's origins. The war nevertheless bound the partners together as **"one horse cart"** in opposition to the United States.

A NEW CLAIM TO EQUALITY

The fighting also had a psychological effect. Chinese battlefield success against American-led forces challenged the **"father–son"** relationship implied by Moscow's seniority and elevated Mao's standing alongside Stalin. Cooperation thus generated both a stronger alliance and a **more assertive Chinese claim to equal leadership**.

III Khrushchev: Reconciliation and Ideological Rupture

After 1953, practical cooperation expanded before political differences sharpened.

THE TECHNICAL HONEYMOON, 1954–1956

After **Stalin's death in 1953**, Nikita Khrushchev withdrew Soviet forces from **Port Arthur**, removed Soviet co-ownership of Chinese enterprises and expanded transfers of **factory plans, industrial machinery, missile technology and MiG aircraft**. The initial post-Stalin period appeared to correct what Chinese leaders regarded as earlier quasi-imperial behavior.

HONEYMOON TO BREACH

The mid-1950s

- **1953** — Stalin dies; leadership changes
- **1954–56** — Aid and technology transfers expand
- **Feb 1956** — Secret Speech challenges ideological legitimacy

COMPETING REVOLUTIONARY STRATEGIES

Khrushchev and Mao

Khrushchev	Mao
Peaceful coexistence and negotiated reduction of tensions.	Intensified class struggle and revolutionary mobilization.

IDEOLOGICAL TERM

Peaceful coexistence

The Soviet argument that competition with capitalist states could proceed **without direct war**, as opposed to Mao's stronger emphasis on continuing revolutionary confrontation.

THE SECRET SPEECH, FEBRUARY 1956

Khrushchev denounced Stalin's crimes without consulting Beijing. **Mao's anger was not primarily personal loyalty to Stalin**: the speech threatened the legitimacy of Mao's own leadership and the revolutionary narrative on which it depended. Khrushchev increasingly favored **"peaceful coexistence"** with the West; Mao emphasized **class struggle, mobilization and revolutionary tension**.

The dispute became more than a quarrel about personalities. It concerned **who had authority to interpret Marxism-Leninism** and whether the seniority of the USSR gave its leader the right to change doctrine for the entire communist world.

Ⅳ Sovereignty and the Joint-Fleet Crisis, 1958

A technical proposal became a symbol of renewed foreign domination.

THE JOINT SUBMARINE FLEET AND RADIO STATION

In **1958**, Soviet proposals for a **joint naval force** and a **long-wave radio station on Chinese territory** triggered Mao's furious opposition. He saw them as the first step toward Soviet control of Chinese military infrastructure—a new "Mongolia-type satellite" relationship rather than cooperation between sovereign states.

> *"You never trust the Chinese! ... To you the Russians are the first-class people whereas the Chinese are among the inferior who are dumb and careless." — Mao Zedong, responding to the Soviet ambassador, as quoted in the account*

WHAT THE QUARREL MEANT

Not simply a naval dispute

Soviet expectation	Chinese interpretation
Shared infrastructure would deepen allied military integration.	Foreign installations implied unequal rights and compromised sovereignty.

SOVEREIGNTY DILEMMA

How a technical proposal escalated

Soviet naval and radio proposals
↓
Chinese memories of outside privileges
↓
Mao interprets joint ownership as subordination
↓
Alliance trust sharply deteriorates

Mao sarcastically proposed sharing **every Chinese institution**—army, navy, industry, agriculture, culture and education—if "joint ownership" truly represented the Soviet ideal. This was the psychological breaking point at which he increasingly described the Soviets as **"red imperialists."**

Ⓥ The Great Split: Competing Claims to Lead Communism

By the early 1960s doctrinal disagreement and security rivalry reinforced each other.

WHO PLAYS THE FIRST VIOLIN?

Khrushchev argued that the **Soviet Union's economic achievements, first socialist revolution and space successes** entitled it to lead the movement. Mao countered that **China was more revolutionary**, even if poorer. The two parties began publicly disputing which represented authentic Marxist-Leninist internationalism.

NUCLEAR RETRACTION AND THE US QUESTION

In **1959**, Khrushchev withdrew an earlier promise to provide a **prototype nuclear weapon** to China. Moscow feared a nuclear-armed partner that might act without restraint. At the same time, Mao viewed Khrushchev's **Camp David talks with President Eisenhower** as evidence that the superpowers might reach an accommodation over China's head.

POLEMICS AND POETRY

The dispute spread beyond diplomatic communiqués into ideological ridicule. Mao's **1963 poetry**, mocking Soviet leaders as "flies" crashing against a wall, expressed the contempt that now replaced earlier professions of fraternity.

SOURCES OF THE SPLIT

Three interlocking disputes

Leadership Who speaks for world communism?	**Security** Who controls nuclear and military decisions?	**Sovereignty** Could China reject Moscow's instructions?

ACCELERATING BREAK

Three turning points

- **1958** — Joint-fleet controversy
- **1959** — Nuclear assistance withdrawn; Camp David suspicion
- **Early 1960s** — Open ideological polemics

> *“On this tiny globe / A few flies dash themselves against the wall / Humming without cease ... Away with all pests!” — Mao Zedong, poetic polemic (1963), excerpt in the account*

VI Border War and Rapprochement with Washington, 1966–1970s

The former ally became a direct strategic danger to Beijing.

CULTURAL REVOLUTION AND HISTORIC FRONTIERS

During the **Cultural Revolution**, ideological hostility intensified. Mao revived Chinese objections to nineteenth-century territorial losses to the Russian Empire, challenging the legitimacy of the **Sino-Soviet frontier**. Soviet leaders increasingly treated China as a security threat, and Khrushchev’s earlier denunciations had already compared Mao’s ambitions with those of Hitler.

THE USSURI AND XINJIANG CLASHES, 1969

Chinese forces clashed with Soviet troops on **Zhenbao Island** in the Ussuri River in **March 1969**; Soviet retaliation was severe. A further clash occurred in **Xinjiang on 13 August**. The account reports Soviet **nuclear threats** during the crisis, raising the risk of conflict on a scale neither communist state had expected in 1950.

CRISIS CHRONOLOGY AND STRATEGIC AFTERMATH

Date	Event	Consequence
March 1969	Zhenbao Island fighting	Violent frontier confrontation
13 August 1969	Xinjiang clash	War fears intensify

FROM ALLY TO THREAT

The 1969 border crisis

- **March** — Zhenbao Island combat
- **August** — Xinjiang confrontation and heightened alarms
- **September** — Kosygin–Zhou talks
- **1970s** — US–Chinese strategic opening

EXAM INTERPRETATION

Do not explain the split by doctrine alone

Use the **territorial dispute, nuclear disagreement and Soviet–US diplomacy** alongside ideological polemics. The conflict was simultaneously about revolution, security and national dignity.

CRISIS CHRONOLOGY AND STRATEGIC AFTERMATH (CONTINUED)

Date	Event	Consequence
11 September 1969	Kosygin–Zhou Enlai airport meeting	Attempt to restrain escalation
1970s	Chinese outreach to the United States	Former communist partners now viewed each other as strategic rivals

The airport talks in the chronology restrained immediate escalation. The deeper change endured: Beijing increasingly treated its former Soviet ally as a threat, so fear of Moscow pushed China toward **rapprochement with the United States** and changed the wider Cold War balance.

VII Conclusion: The Limits of Communist Internationalism

National sovereignty overcame the rhetoric of brotherhood.

The Soviet leadership interpreted communist unity as a **hierarchical project** organized around Moscow, whereas Chinese leaders—shaped by foreign intervention and national humiliation—demanded a full measure of **independence and equality**. Each side imagined the other through stereotypes and threats; their expectations repeatedly failed to meet.

The transition from the **1950 alliance** to the **1969 border war** illustrates that common ideology does not eliminate strategic competition. What initially seemed a monolithic communist world fractured into two hostile centers, with major consequences for **US–Chinese relations** and the wider Cold War.

FINAL ASSESSMENT

What united and divided them

Shared interest
Opposition to American power; communist development.

Irreconcilable priority
Soviet hierarchy versus Chinese sovereign equality.

§ Revision: From Revolutionary Partnership to Rivalry

Map the turning points and distinguish ideological language from the underlying balance of power.

A close reading of the alliance yields a simple but powerful paradox: **1950 security cooperation generated Chinese expectations of equality**, while Soviet leaders continued to demand deference. **Korea** tested unequal burdens; **1956** reopened ideological authority; **1958–59** exposed sovereignty and nuclear disputes; **1969** turned competition into military confrontation. Beijing's subsequent opening to Washington made the split a global Cold War turning point.

Revision prompts: Explain the **1945 legacy and 1950 treaty**; contrast **Stalin's suspicion and Mao's autonomy**; show how Korea simultaneously united and divided the allies; link **Secret Speech → joint fleet → nuclear retraction → 1969 border clashes**; and explain **Chinese–US rapprochement**.

CORE ARGUMENT

From promise to failure

Declared ideal
A showcase of fraternal communist equality.

Practical reality
Moscow-centered hierarchy resisted by sovereign China.

CHAPTER 29

The Collapse of the Soviet Union and the End of the Cold War

Study notes: The Anatomy of Collapse — The Fall of the Soviet Union and the End of the Cold War

CENTRAL THESIS

The Soviet Union did not simply fall because its economy stagnated. In the account, **Mikhail Gorbachev's reforms** destabilized the informal political bargains sustaining the union and weakened the Communist Party's monopoly before a viable economic and constitutional order could take its place. **Economic dysfunction, national movements, democratization and the ending of Cold War coercion** interacted to produce the unexpected disintegration of **December 1991**.

TIMELINE

1985

1986

1987

1989

1990

1991

The USSR's disappearance in **December 1991** astonished observers. Unlike the military defeat of many empires, the Soviet center disintegrated without a general war of conquest, though serious violence did occur in some republics. The account emphasizes a collision between **systemic weakness** and Gorbachev's **poorly coordinated efforts to modernize communism without surrendering control**.

I Gorbachev's Ambition and the Reform Problem, 1985

Energy and political instinct did not guarantee a workable plan for economic change.

AN ENERGETIC GENERAL SECRETARY

Mikhail Gorbachev became Communist Party General Secretary in **March 1985**. Veteran diplomat **Andrei Gromyko** praised his "unquenchable energy" and Party experience. The account nevertheless emphasizes Gorbachev's belief that **political will and organizational campaigns** could fix entrenched problems more quickly than the Soviet institutional structure allowed.

ECONOMIC AND POLITICAL LIMITATIONS

Gorbachev had previously supervised **Soviet agriculture**, yet the USSR remained dependent on food imports. In the account he treated the planned economy as highly flexible, underestimated the consequences of partial reform and often hesitated over difficult decisions. These are **the historian's assessments**, not a claim that all historians agree with the portrayal.

TWO SLOGANS CENTRAL TO THE REFORM ERA

Term	Meaning in the account
Perestroika	"Restructuring": intended to rejuvenate political and economic institutions, without a consistent operational model.
Glasnost	"Openness": transparency, public discussion and criticism intended to expose problems in the Soviet system.

TWO KEY REFORMS

Perestroika and glasnost

Perestroika
Change how the Soviet system operates.

Glasnost
Allow public scrutiny of its failings.

INTERPRETIVE CAUTION

Reform did not mean an immediate embrace of capitalism

Gorbachev initially hoped to **repair socialism**. The loss of centralized power came from unexpected institutional consequences as much as from a declared intention to dismantle the USSR.

II The First Fractures: Fiscal Losses and Broken Bargains

Administrative campaigns destabilized revenue and relationships with regional elites.

THE 1985 ANTI-ALCOHOL CAMPAIGN

The effort to reduce drunkenness closed shops and cut alcohol production; the campaign also involved destruction of vineyards in **Armenia**. Rather than eliminating drinking, restrictions encouraged **illicit distilling**, shortages of sugar and expansion of black-market activity. The state lost important revenues from alcohol sales, worsening its budget problems.

THE INFORMAL CONTRACT WITH THE REPUBLICS

Moscow had long tolerated corruption and regional patronage in return for loyalty. Campaigns such as the investigation into the **Uzbek Cotton Scam**, involving claims for millions of tonnes of fictitious cotton, attacked that bargain. Regional leaders came to view the center less as a guarantor of position and more as a threat.

CHERNOBYL AND THE DEMAND FOR OPENNESS, APRIL 1986

After the explosion of **reactor four** at **Chernobyl**, official silence and slow public communication intensified distrust of the government. The catastrophe reinforced the need for **glasnost**, but the exposure of corruption and institutional failure undercut the legitimacy glasnost was meant to restore.

REFORM BACKFIRES

The anti-alcohol causal chain

Restrictions and shop closures
↓
Illicit production and shortages grow
↓
Alcohol tax revenues collapse
↓
Fiscal crisis deepens

THE REGIONAL BARGAIN

Before and after anti-corruption

Before reform	After reform
Moscow overlooks patronage in return for obedience.	Investigations weaken local trust and encourage separatism.

III Radicalization, Economic Disruption and Yeltsin, 1986–1989

Political space expanded faster than the state could stabilize economic institutions.

PARTIAL ENTERPRISE REFORM

The account dates the **Law on Socialist Enterprise to 1986**. It envisaged greater enterprise self-financing and selection of managers, yet **regulated prices and centrally determined inputs** remained. Enterprises could make more decisions, but the state still controlled prices and supplies. Reform weakened central coordination without creating a working market to replace it. Production suffered, while workplace leaders had incentives to favour easier targets over greater efficiency.

THE RISE OF BORIS YELTSIN

Initially appointed as **Moscow Party boss**, **Boris Yeltsin** turned into a forceful critic of the Politburo's slow reform. He underwent a personal crisis and public humiliation in **1987**, followed by dismissal. He subsequently became a popular opposition figure and won a major Moscow electoral victory in **1989**.

As the economy failed to deliver and **open political debate** widened, criticism increasingly challenged not merely individual officials but the credibility of the Party-state itself. Gorbachev's attempt to democratize the system raised expectations that centralized control could not satisfy.

EXAM ARGUMENT

Why partial economic reform was destabilizing

Discuss the mismatch between **enterprise autonomy** and continuing state controls over prices and supplies. Partial liberalization could weaken command coordination **without producing a working market**.

CHANGING POLITICAL ACTORS

Gorbachev versus Yeltsin

Gorbachev
Restructure socialism while preserving an effective union center.

Yeltsin
Mobilize popular dissatisfaction against entrenched Party leadership.

REFORM TO OPPOSITION

The reform crisis, 1986–89

- **1986** — Chernobyl sharpens demands for openness
- **1987** — Political reform widens; Yeltsin breaks with the leadership
- **1989** — Opposition grows as the Eastern bloc transforms

IV Foreign-Policy Transformation and the End of the Cold War

Arms diplomacy and restraint in Eastern Europe dismantled the coercive external framework.

A BURDENSOME STRATEGIC COMPETITION

Gorbachev concluded that arms competition was consuming unsustainable resources; the account estimates the defense burden at **about 40% of national wealth**. He pursued improved US relations in order to redirect resources and reduce the danger of conflict.

SUMMIT DIPLOMACY, 1985–1989

Year	Meeting	Core significance
1985	Geneva: Reagan–Gorbachev	Established a personal dialogue
1986	Reykjavik	Opened far-reaching discussion of nuclear reduction
1987	Washington	Intermediate-Range Nuclear Forces agreement
1989	Malta: Bush–Gorbachev	Symbolic acknowledgment that the Cold War was ending

THE SINATRA DOCTRINE

Gorbachev abandoned enforcement of the **Brezhnev Doctrine**, under which Soviet power had intervened to preserve socialist regimes. Soviet spokesman **Gennady Gerasimov** dubbed the new approach the **“Sinatra Doctrine”**: satellite states could increasingly **“do it their way.”**

SUMMIT DIPLOMACY

Four stations on the route

- **1985** Geneva
- **1986** Reykjavik
- **1987** Washington / INF Treaty
- **1989** Malta

POLICY TERM

Sinatra Doctrine

The informal name for allowing Eastern European states greater freedom from Soviet military enforcement—**the opposite of the Brezhnev Doctrine**.

CAUSE AND CONSEQUENCE

Do not reduce the end of the Cold War to a single summit

Arms agreements mattered, but so did **Soviet non-intervention**, Eastern European opposition, ideological exhaustion and the erosion of the USSR’s capacity to sustain its empire.

1989 AND THE END OF THE EASTERN BLOC

Solidarity made major electoral gains in **Poland**; **Hungary** dismantled controls along its Austrian frontier; the **Berlin Wall opened on 9 November** as East German authority crumbled; and the dictatorship of **Nicolae Ceaușescu** fell violently in **Romania**. These changes occurred while Moscow refused the old pattern of military rescue.

Ⓥ Nationalism and the Breakup of the Union, 1988–1991

The Soviet nationalities question became a direct challenge to central sovereignty.

NAGORNO-KARABAKH AND LOCAL VIOLENCE

The contested **Nagorno-Karabakh** region triggered bitter Armenian–Azerbaijani conflict. Gorbachev's inability to reconcile rival demands or restore confidence revealed the limits of a policy that tried to liberalize politics while retaining a multi-ethnic union.

THE BALTIC CHALLENGE

Estonia, Latvia and Lithuania pushed from autonomy toward independence. The Soviet deployment in **Vilnius in January 1991**, when security forces killed **14 people** according to the source, demonstrated that the union's disintegration was not wholly peaceful even though the USSR did not collapse through a conventional war of external conquest.

RUSSIAN SOVEREIGNTY, JUNE 1990

On **12 June 1990**, the **Russian republic** asserted the priority of Russian law over Soviet law. Because Russia was the union's largest constituent republic, this challenged the legal and political foundation of authority in Moscow more seriously than nationalist movements in distant territories alone.

THE NATIONALITY CRISIS

Three fronts

Caucasus Nagorno-Karabakh dispute	**Baltics** Independence movements and Vilnius	**Russia** Republican sovereignty against the Soviet center

CORE CAUSAL CLAIM

The "informal contract" meets nationalism

Connect early anti-corruption campaigns to **elite alienation**, then explain why **glasnost and republican sovereignty** made previously contained national and regional conflicts politically explosive.

LEGAL BREAK

12 Jun 1990

Russia

The Russian republic declared sovereignty and asserted the precedence of its laws over union-level laws.

VI The August Coup and December Dissolution, 1991

The attempted restoration of centralized authority ended by accelerating its collapse.

THE EMERGENCY COMMITTEE AND FAILED COUP

Hardliners in the **KGB, military and Party** opposed Gorbachev's proposed **new Union Treaty**, which would devolve power. On **18–21 August 1991** they placed Gorbachev under house arrest in Crimea. The coup failed when important military units refused to storm the **Russian White House** and fire on protesters.

YELTSIN'S ASCENDANCY

Boris Yeltsin, standing on a tank outside the Russian parliament, became the visible figure of resistance. With the coup discredited, he moved against the Communist Party and strengthened Russian institutions at the expense of the union leadership.

BELAVEZHA AND THE END OF THE USSR

On **8 December 1991**, the leaders of **Russia, Ukraine and Belarus** agreed to dissolve the Soviet Union and establish the **Commonwealth of Independent States**. On **25 December**, Gorbachev resigned as Soviet president. The union leadership could no longer command the institutions or secure the republics' consent needed to keep the USSR together.

THE FINAL FOUR MONTHS

From coup to dissolution

18–21 Aug	Hardline coup fails
8 Dec	Russia, Ukraine and Belarus agree to CIS
25 Dec	Gorbachev resigns; Soviet presidency ends

AUTHORITY UNRAVELS

The mechanism of collapse

New Union Treaty alarms hardliners
↓
Failed coup discredits central institutions
↓
Yeltsin gains power in Russia
↓
Republics dissolve the Union

VII Why the Soviet System Failed

Leadership mistakes interacted with deep structural and national weaknesses.

INTERLOCKING EXPLANATIONS EMPHASIZED BY MARTIN MCCAULEY IN THE ACCOUNT

Factor	How it contributed to disintegration
Leadership failure	Gorbachev pursued ambitious reforms without coherent institutional or technical execution.
Unintended consequences	Perestroika weakened old controls before stable substitutes were created.
Systemic rigidity	The command economy struggled to innovate in an information-driven age.
Nationality question	Regional elites and republics rejected the center as bargains and authority dissolved.
Military burden	Arms costs and their reduction undermined the traditional justification for sacrifice.

The collapse was contingent on interacting political and economic developments. **Stagnation by itself did not guarantee the disappearance of the Soviet state**, but reform upset fiscal balances, exposed failure, weakened Party authority, empowered rivals and opened the way for secession. The peaceful termination of the union center coexisted with severe local conflicts.

SYNTHESIS

Three overlapping failures

Economic Partial reform and falling confidence

Political Party authority and leadership rivalry

National Republican sovereignty and secession

ESSAY THESIS

Neither “Gorbachev alone” nor “the economy alone”

A strong answer joins **long-term structural dysfunction** to **the timing and unintended effects of reform**. Explain why 1985 began a reform process that ended in union dissolution by December 1991.

§ Revision: Reform, Nationalism and Collapse

Trace how an attempt to modernize the union undermined the institutions needed to sustain it.

The central lesson is the gap between **reform intention and institutional result**. Anti-alcohol measures damaged revenue; the attack on regional patronage weakened loyalty; **Chernobyl** increased demands for openness; partial enterprise reform eroded economic coordination; **glasnost** empowered criticism and opposition. Abroad, abandoning the **Brezhnev Doctrine** released Eastern Europe; at home, republican sovereignty and the **failed August coup** finished the union's authority. **Gorbachev resigned on 25 December 1991.**

Revision prompts: Define **perestroika and glasnost**; explain **anti-alcohol, the cotton scandal and Chernobyl**; assess **Yeltsin's rise**; trace **Geneva → Reykjavik → Washington → Malta**; explain the **Sinatra Doctrine**; and link **Russian sovereignty → August coup → December dissolution**.

FINAL INTERPRETATION

Intentions versus outcomes

Gorbachev intended	Systemic result
Revive socialism and reduce foreign dangers.	Economic and political authority fractured; the union dissolved.

CHAPTER 30

War and Peace in the Global Community, 1989–2001

Study notes: Wilsonianism, Globalization and the Fragile Global Community

CENTRAL THESIS

1989–2001 appeared to offer a third chance to construct a Wilsonian order around self-determination, open markets and collective security. Yet selective intervention, ethnic conflict and unequal globalization revealed the limits of American leadership and the tension between integration and fragmentation.

TIMELINE

- **1918**
- **1945**
- **1989**
- **1990**
- **1991**
- **1993**
- **1994**
- **1995**
- **1999**
- **2001**

The collapse of Soviet power encouraged a renewed belief that democracy, capitalism and collective security could define a **global community**. After failed or frustrated opportunities in **1919** and **1945**, the post-**1989** decade seemed to offer a **"third chance"** for liberal internationalism. The contrast between this optimism and the conflicts of the 1990s is the chapter's organizing problem.

I Wilsonianism Reborn: The New Order's Ideals

The triad offered an attractive vocabulary for a post-Cold War settlement.

The **Wilsonian triad** joined the three principles below in a single promise: democratic national government, open commerce and collective resistance to aggression would replace Great Power rivalry. The disappearance of the Soviet alternative made that promise newly persuasive; the chapter tests how far it held in practice.

THE WILSONIAN TRIAD IN THE POST-1989 MOMENT

Principle	Claim	1990s application
Self-determination	Nations should govern themselves democratically.	Recognition of former Soviet satellites and new national states.
Open Door	Trade and foreign investment should cross borders.	American-style market capitalism presented as a universal model.
Collective security	Aggression should meet a common international response.	United Nations action and multinational interventions.

AN "END OF HISTORY"?

Francis Fukuyama interpreted the victory of liberal democracy as leaving no viable rival system, while **Michael Mandelbaum** called the triad **"the ideas that conquered the world."** These were claims about the era's prevailing worldview, not evidence that political conflict itself had ended.

THE CENTRAL FRAME

The Wilsonian triad

Democracy National self-government

Markets Open exchange and investment

Security Multilateral resistance to aggression

EXAM CAUTION

An ideal is not an outcome

Do not confuse the **1990s conviction** that liberal democracy had triumphed with a proven absence of future conflict. The chapter measures the gap between principles and practice.

THIRD CHANCE

Repeated Wilsonian moments

- **1919** Post–First World War peace
- **1945** Post–Second World War institutions
- **1989–91** Cold War ends: new possibility

II Bush and the “New World Order”, 1989–1991

Collective security achieved a conspicuous success, but American power retained limits.

KUWAIT AS THE TEST CASE

After **Iraq invaded Kuwait in 1990**, President **George H. W. Bush** assembled a multinational response authorized through the **UN Security Council**. **Operations Desert Shield and Desert Storm** were framed as defending international law: a world governed by the **“rule of law, not the rule of the jungle.”** With the Cold War veto rivalry diminished, the UN could act more collectively.

RESTRAINT AFTER VICTORY

Bush’s interpretation of the **New World Order** remained pragmatic. The coalition liberated Kuwait but did **not** make regime change in Baghdad or democratizing the Middle East its objective. The outcome demonstrated that collective security could defend a border without transforming the politics of the aggressor state.

THE LIMITS REVEALED BY CHINA

Following the **1989 Tiananmen Square crackdown**, the Bush administration had little means or willingness to impose political change within China. Strategic stability and diplomatic relations competed with democratic ideals; this revealed the uneven reach of universalist rhetoric.

CASE STUDY

Universal principle, limited mission

Kuwait

Restore sovereignty through a UN-backed coalition; leave Iraq’s regime in place.

China

The repression of 1989 exposed the difficulty of transforming a major power’s domestic order.

EXAM INSIGHT

Bush was more restrained than his rhetoric

The contrast between a **New World Order** and a **limited war** is central: collective action was possible without a commitment to remaking every state.

III Globalization: The Economic New World

Deepening interdependence was celebrated as the triumph of an American commercial model.

US ECONOMIC INTEGRATION IN THE 1990S

Indicator	1990	2000
Exports	$393,592 million	$782,429 million
Direct investment abroad	$424,086 million	$1,293,431 million
Trade as share of GNP	20.4%	26.0%

THE FRIEDMAN FRAMEWORK

Thomas L. Friedman described an interaction among three actors: **states**, global capital markets or **“supermarkets”**, and **“super-empowered individuals.”** Investors formed an **“Electronic Herd”** that could rapidly shift funds across borders. Governments seeking international capital were pressured to don a **“Golden Straitjacket”** of market-friendly rules.

THE NEW VULNERABILITY

For proponents, competition and investment spread prosperity and the **“fantasy of America.”** For critics, a system exposed to capital flight made elected governments vulnerable to external market discipline, and the gains of integration were not evenly shared.

MEASURED CHANGE

American reach expanded

US exports
Roughly doubled from 1990 to 2000.

Investment abroad
Rose to more than three times the 1990 level.

Trade intensity
Increased from 20.4% to 26.0% of GNP.

KEY METAPHORS

Golden Straitjacket and Electronic Herd

The **Golden Straitjacket** means policy constraints favoring market confidence; the **Electronic Herd** refers to mobile international investors able to reward or punish those policies.

IV Clinton: Integration and the Politics of Identity

A more connected world could simultaneously become a more divided one.

NEW RULES FOR TRADE

President **Bill Clinton** treated globalization as an **“inexorable logic.”** The United States backed **NAFTA (1994)** and the **World Trade Organization (1995)** as institutions of an expanding open-market order.

“JIHAD VS. MCWORLD”

Benjamin Barber described opposing pressures: **McWorld**, a consumer-centered global market culture that privileged profit over citizenship; and **“Jihad,”** used in his argument as shorthand for exclusionary identity politics, communal antagonism and demands for belonging. These are analytical metaphors, not interchangeable descriptions of religious communities.

SELECT 1990S INTERVENTIONS AND THEIR LIMITS

Episode	American response	Underlying tension
Somalia, 1993	Nation-building effort followed by withdrawal after US casualties.	Humanitarian ambition versus domestic tolerance for losses.
Rwanda, 1994	No decisive US-led intervention during genocide.	Fear of costly engagement versus moral responsibility.
Haiti, 1994	Military pressure helped restore **Jean-Bertrand Aristide**.	Regional security framed as supporting democracy.

COMPETING FORCES

Barber’s conceptual pair

McWorld
Integration through consumption, business, technologies.

“Jihad”
Exclusionary identity politics and demands for local belonging, in Barber’s usage.

INTERVENTION CONTRAST

Intervention was selective

Somalia and Rwanda illustrate the stark differences in international responses to humanitarian emergencies during the 1990s.

Ⓥ The Balkans and NATO after the Cold War

Self-determination and collective security collided in Europe itself.

YUGOSLAVIA’S DISSOLUTION

The breakup of **Yugoslavia** exposed how nationalism could produce state fragmentation and **ethnic cleansing**, rather than orderly independence. **Slobodan Milošević’s** ambitions and conflicts over territory challenged the Wilsonian belief that national self-government necessarily produced peace.

BOSNIA AND KOSOVO

US-led pressure and NATO air operations helped lead to the **Dayton Peace Accords (1995)**, which preserved **Bosnia-Herzegovina** within a complex settlement. NATO later intervened militarily over **Kosovo (1999)**, invoking protection of Kosovar Albanians; its legal and political implications remained contested.

NATO’S CHANGE OF PURPOSE

The alliance moved beyond its original anti-Soviet role, admitted **Poland, Hungary and the Czech Republic in 1999**, and developed cooperation with Russia through the **Partnership for Peace**. As a result, its mission became broader and more controversial than Cold War territorial defense.

BALKAN CHRONOLOGY

NATO’s changing mission

- **1995** — Dayton settlement after the Bosnian war
- **1999** — Kosovo intervention
- **1999** — Poland, Hungary and Czech Republic join NATO

EXAM INSIGHT

Self-determination versus peace

The dissolution of multinational states forced uncomfortable questions: **who** constituted a nation, which borders counted, and **when** outside powers were entitled to intervene.

VI A Fragile Community by 2001

Global integration spread prosperity and vulnerability together.

Bill Clinton's 1999 warning described a new global community divided between those benefiting from market expansion and societies **"mired in poverty and increasingly resentful."** Economic interdependence made national prosperity more sensitive to distant events, while **"Balkanization"** displayed the capacity of national and ethnic claims to fragment states.

THE SEPTEMBER 11 BREAK

The attacks of **11 September 2001** dramatically exposed the power of **transnational networks** and what Friedman called **"super-empowered individuals."** Their capacity to exploit communications and transport technologies challenged the assumption that expanding connections would automatically produce peace.

THE WILSONIAN TRIAD: AN ASSESSMENT AT THE END OF THE DECADE

Ideal	Achievement	Constraint
Democracy	Widely presented as the leading political model.	Resurgent exclusivist identity politics.
Open markets	Expanding trade, investment and institutions.	Unequal gains and exposure to financial shocks.
Collective peace	Kuwait and Bosnia offered visible successes.	Selectivity, civil conflict and transnational violence.

SYNTHESIS

Three simultaneous outcomes

Integration NAFTA, WTO and mobile capital

Fragmentation Balkans and identity conflict

Insecurity Networks beyond traditional state control

EXAM QUESTION

Why was the "third chance" incomplete?

Answer through the contradiction between **universal rules** and **uneven capacity or willingness to enforce them**, with Kuwait, Rwanda and Kosovo as contrasting cases.

The post-Cold War decade was not simply a short-lived American triumph. It tested whether **Wilsonian self-determination, market openness and collective security** could coexist. The United States could facilitate agreements and interventions, yet neither commercial interdependence nor unmatched military power guaranteed equal development, national cohesion or protection from non-state violence.

§ Revision

The 1990s in three tensions

Revision prompts: Define the Wilsonian triad; contrast Kuwait and Rwanda; explain the Golden Straitjacket and the Electronic Herd; discuss *Jihad vs. McWorld*; assess NATO's transformed role.

EXAM RECAP

Ideals versus contradictions

Self-determination
Independent states could also become fragmented or exclusionary.

Open Door
Capital movement increased wealth and vulnerability.

Collective security
Action depended on selective political commitments.

CLOSING PERSPECTIVE

A "tale of two cities"

Bill Clinton (1999) *warned of a world divided between modern integrated prosperity and populations excluded from its benefits. The quotation captures the chapter's unfinished global-community project.*

CHAPTER 31

Globalization

Study notes: The Synergistic Integration of the Modern World

CENTRAL THESIS

Globalization is a historically contingent interaction of technology, markets, policy ideas and state decisions—not an autonomous or irreversible force. Integration has accelerated exchange and communications, but produced insecurities involving sovereignty, inequality, culture and financial volatility.

TIMELINE

- **1776**
- **1850**
- **1870**
- **1913**
- **1914**
- **1945**
- **1960**
- **1970**
- **1971**
- **1980**
- **1990**
- **1997**
- **2000**
- **2002**

Globalization ties businesses, governments, individuals and nongovernmental organizations into increasingly extensive networks. Although the term became fashionable in the **1980s** through writers such as **John Naisbitt** and **Theodore Levitt**, its deeper history includes nineteenth-century transport revolutions, interruption by war, and postwar institutions. The principal tension is between the efficient **"borderless world"** and unequal local consequences.

Ⓘ Four Interlocking Engines

Technology alone does not explain why borders become more porous.

ENGINES OF MODERN GLOBALIZATION

Engine	Function	Illustrations
Technology	Reduces time, distance and information barriers.	Aircraft, fiber optics, Internet, mobile phones.
Markets	Seeks profits and wider consumer access.	Transnational production, logistics, marketing.
Policy ideas	Legitimizes openness and free exchange.	Adam Smith, free-trade doctrine, competitive markets.
Governments	Creates or removes legal barriers to exchange.	Deregulation, standards, WTO and regional agreements.

HOW THE FOUR ENGINES REINFORCE EACH OTHER

These forces **reinforce** rather than merely accompany one another: information and transport technology make global trade possible, businesses demand new rules, governments adjust standards, and policy ideas provide arguments for liberalization. The result is an expanding network of relationships—not just increased exports.

SYSTEMS VIEW

A reinforcing cycle

Transport and information become cheaper

↓

Companies coordinate across borders

↓

States reform regulations and standards

↓

Markets grow; investment in technology accelerates

THREE DIMENSIONS

More than commerce

Economic Trade, capital, supply chains

Political Rules, sovereignty, institutions

Social Culture, people, NGOs

KEY CONCEPT

Synergistic integration

Synergistic means technologies, economic incentives and institutions combine to create an effect larger than any one could produce separately.

A NEW CORPORATE OUTLOOK

Global companies increasingly identify markets by consumer demand instead of national affiliation. **Cisco's John Chambers**, discussing business in Beijing, remarked that **"If I wasn't American, I would be Chinese."** The remark expresses the appeal of **consumer sovereignty** and a company's worldwide commercial identity.

II The First Modern Globalization, 1850–1914

A British-led open economy appeared permanent—until it was not.

STEAMSHIPS, CABLES AND THE CITY OF LONDON

Coal-powered ships and railways greatly reduced journey and freight times; **submarine telegraph cables** allowed New York and London business information to cross the Atlantic in minutes by the **1890s**. Transport costs fell markedly between **1870 and 1913**. British naval power, trade and gold-standard finance sustained the system.

KEYNES'S LOST WORLD

John Maynard Keynes recalled the prewar Londoner who could order goods from distant countries while **"sipping his morning tea in bed,"** and invest abroad with little difficulty. More important than the conveniences was the false belief that this integration was **"normal, certain, and permanent."**

FIRST WAVE

The pre-1914 sequence

1850s	Coal-based steam and modern transportation
1870–1913	Rapid reduction in international shipping costs
1890s	Financial information crosses Atlantic in minutes
1914	War reveals the system's fragility

INTERPRETATION

Integration can be reversible

The first wave supplies the chapter's essential warning: even when markets are deeply linked, **political decisions and war can reverse openness**.

THEN AND NOW

Communications as infrastructure

First wave

Steamship, telegraph, cables and gold-standard finance.

Late twentieth century

Containers, satellites, computers and deregulated capital.

III 1914–1970s: Rupture and Continuity

Wars and barriers did not stop every form of cross-border exchange.

THE POLITICAL RETREAT

World War I, the **Great Depression**, new passport and visa systems, revolutionary politics, trade restrictions and rivalry over resources checked international flows. The retreat was linked to security fears and imperial competition.

TECHNOLOGICAL AND CULTURAL CONTINUITIES

Historians **Alfred Eckes** and **Thomas Zeiler** caution against an absolute account of **"deglobalization."** Civil aviation expanded through firms such as **Pan Am** and **Delta**, while **Hollywood** and mass-produced **Ford cars** spread cultural and consumer influences internationally, despite restrictions on capital and trade.

THE POST-1945 ECONOMIC ARCHITECTURE

Institution	Principal function	Underlying intention
GATT	Multilateral tariff reductions and most-favored-nation trade.	Prevent protectionist spirals.
IMF	Exchange-rate stability and international payments support.	Reduce monetary instability.
IBRD / World Bank	Reconstruction and development financing.	Mobilize resources for investment.

HISTORICAL NUANCE

"Deglobalization" was incomplete

The interwar era sharply curtailed liberal trade and migration, but technological innovation, aviation, cinema and consumption continued to cross borders.

INSTITUTIONAL RESPONSE

From breakdown to rebuilding

1914–45 wars and economic instability

↓

Protectionism exposes fragility of open markets

↓

Bretton Woods institutions developed

↓

GATT/IMF/IBRD support structured international exchange

EXAM POINT

Separate flows from institutions

A decline in one form of globalization—such as cross-border capital movement—does **not** imply all cultural and technological connections disappeared.

IV The Acceleration of the Late Twentieth Century

Logistics, telecommunications and financial liberalization transformed the scale of networks.

CONTAINERIZATION AND SATELLITES

Standardized containers revolutionized port handling from the **1960s**; port throughput rose in the example from roughly **15 to 700 tons per hour**. **Intelsat IV (1971)** symbolizes the communications leap. Combined with digital computing, logistics allowed geographically dispersed production and real-time information.

DEREGULATED FINANCE AND TRANSNATIONAL CORPORATIONS

The decline of fixed exchange rates and **Washington–Wall Street** policies encouraged cross-border investment flows. By **2000**, the figures show over **60,000 transnational corporations** employing **46 million people abroad**. The surge in **FDI** during the late 1990s reflects the speed of capital internationalization, not a guarantee of stability.

V The Ideological Contest: Advocates and Critics

The benefits and costs of globalization were politically distributed.

CONTRASTING ARGUMENTS ABOUT GLOBALIZATION

Supporters argue	Critics argue
Convergence: common rules and markets improve efficiency.	**Sovereignty:** external market pressures constrain choice.
Growth: competition and investment can reduce poverty.	**Dislocation:** vulnerable workers face wage and job insecurity.

LOGISTICS REVOLUTION

Port-handling illustration

15 → 700

Tons per hour, as estimated in the account for the containerization transition.

MODERN ACCELERATION

Three steps

- **1960s** — Standard containers scale up
- **1971** — Intelsat IV satellite communications
- **1990s** — Cross-border finance and transnationals expand

THE CORE DISPUTE

Who benefits—and who bears the risk?

Optimistic view

Productivity, wider opportunity, exchange and growth.

Critical view

Economic insecurity, unequal bargaining power and social disruption.

CONTRASTING ARGUMENTS ABOUT GLOBALIZATION (CONTINUED)

Supporters argue	Critics argue
Connection: information can encourage open societies.	**Homogenization:** global consumer culture may erode local traditions.
Mobility: capital funds development across borders.	**Volatility:** mobile funds can transmit financial crises quickly.

THE “FLAT WORLD” THESIS

Thomas Friedman, especially in the discussion of *The Lexus and the Olive Tree*, embodies the optimistic argument: workers and firms in **India** and **China** can participate in expanding global markets, encouraging economic growth and shared standards.

THE 1997 ASIAN FINANCIAL CRISIS

Critics saw the crisis as exposing the hazards of liberalized finance. **Joseph Stiglitz** criticized IMF rescue programmes for prioritizing financial interests and austerity over local social conditions. In **Indonesia**, hardship and protests illustrated the possible political consequences of shocks transmitted through global capital markets.

VI Inevitability or Fragility?

Technical possibilities cannot substitute for political support and capable institutions.

WARNINGS FROM EARLIER HISTORY

Arguments that globalization was **“inevitable and irreversible”** resembled the confidence of the pre-1914 world. Yet war, great-power rivalry, financial imbalances, pandemics and security threats could still disrupt flows. The US external deficit and geopolitical competition over **Taiwan** were among the vulnerabilities discussed. The account’s possible shift toward **Asian leadership after 2050** is a projection, not an established outcome.

FUTURE PROJECTION

Projected global leadership

A possible shift toward **Asian leadership after 2050** is presented as a future projection.

Global Systems and Unequal Security. Global supply chains multiply efficiencies but transmit shocks. The analysis names terrorism, cyber-attacks, biological hazards and pandemic disease as potential disturbances. Durable openness thus requires strong institutions and governments willing to respond to insecurity over jobs, cultural change and unequal economic gains. Globalization is neither one technology nor a natural law. Its waves show how **technology, private incentives, political ideas and government decisions** combine to widen networks. The same processes create vulnerability to sudden financial reversals, war and social backlash. The crucial historical lesson is that an open global economy must be **politically maintained**.

§ Revision

The history of an open—but vulnerable—world

GLOBALIZATION ACROSS SUCCESSIVE ERAS

Period	Central technologies or policies	General direction
1850–1914	Steam, telegraph, British trade and gold standard.	Expanding flows under British leadership.
1914–1970s	Borders, state controls; GATT/IMF foundations.	Disruption alongside institutional and cultural continuity.
1970s onward	Container logistics, satellites, computing, finance.	Deep, fast and sometimes volatile integration.
Future horizon	Possible stronger roles for Asian economies.	Uncertain: a projection, not a settled outcome.

Revision prompts: Identify four engines; outline the three historical waves; compare GATT/IMF/IBRD; explain containerization and the 1997 crisis; distinguish global gains from local costs.

MEMORY FRAME

Three periods, one lesson

1850–1914 High confidence in integration

1914–1970s Disruption with continuities

1970s–2000s Acceleration and social backlash

EXAM CONCLUSION

Answer the inevitability question

Use the **1914 rupture** to challenge claims of permanence, and the **postwar rebuilding** to show that states can also deliberately restore international openness.

CHAPTER 32

Terrorism: September 11, 2001 and its Consequences

Study notes: The Architecture of Asymmetry — September 11 and Global Security

CENTRAL THESIS

September 11 transformed the international response to terrorism from a predominantly criminal-law approach toward an expansive military-security framework. The growth of transnational extremist networks and the US doctrines of preemption and prevention exposed the limits of unilateral power and generated durable legal and diplomatic disputes.

TIMELINE

- **1789**
- **1967**
- **1980**
- **1989**
- **1990**
- **1998**
- **2001**
- **2002**
- **2003**
- **2004**
- **2005**
- **2006**

The **11 September 2001 attacks** showed that a powerful state could be harmed by a comparatively small, non-state organization. The resulting **“War on Terror”** reshaped statecraft and legal debates. The chapter examines how definitions, tactics, the **al-Qaeda** network, international self-defense claims and preventive-war arguments interacted with questions about American hegemony and international cooperation.

I Defining Terrorism and Its Neighbors

Analytical precision matters because the label itself is contested.

A POLITICALLY CHARGED TERM

The account notes the lack of a **universally accepted judicial definition** of terrorism and invokes the saying **“One man’s terrorist is another man’s freedom fighter.”** These problems do not erase meaningful distinctions: targets, tactics, territorial aims and political objectives help separate terrorism from guerrilla warfare or organized crime.

ANALYTICAL CONTRASTS IN THE ACCOUNT

Dimension	Terrorism	Guerrilla war	Organized crime
Main aim	Political psychological effect	Military-political victory	Profit or material benefit
Typical structure	Small covert or specialized cells	Larger armed units	Criminal networks
Territory	Often operates without holding land	Often seeks territorial control	Seeks market and trafficking control
Typical targets	Civilian or symbolic targets; may also include officials or troops	Primarily military or state infrastructure	Profitable targets

KEY DISTINCTION

“Propaganda by deed”

Violence is used as a **political message**: the response it elicits may matter to perpetrators as much as the immediate act.

COMPARE METHODS

Terrorism versus guerrilla war

Terrorism

Psychological leverage and visible attacks, often by covert cells.

Guerrilla war

Military pressure by armed formations, often linked to territorial objectives.

CONCEPTUAL CAUTION

Labels alone do not explain an act

Academic analysis should examine **objectives and methods** rather than treating a political label as a complete explanation or assuming all members of a religion share an extremist programme.

“PROPAGANDA BY DEED”

Terrorist violence is meant not only to injure immediate victims but to communicate with a wider audience. It can advertise resolve, recruit supporters and provoke a state into **excessive retaliation** that reduces its legitimacy and increases sympathy for the perpetrators’ cause.

II Old and “New” Terrorism

A changing range of motivations and tactics altered the perceived scale of the threat.

FROM STATE TERROR TO NATIONALIST VIOLENCE

The term **terror** is associated with **Robespierre’s French Revolutionary regime**. In the nineteenth and twentieth centuries, revolutionary and nationalist movements also used political violence. The account mentions **Bakunin**, **Johann Most**, nationalist groups and organizations such as the **IRA** and **ETA**.

INTERNATIONALIZATION AND MASS CASUALTIES

After **1967**, Palestinian organizations carried out hijackings and attacks across borders. In the **1990s**, a shift occurred toward some extremist religious or “transcendental” groups, including **Aum Shinrikyo** and **al-Qaeda**. Some sought far larger civilian death tolls and employed suicide attacks, challenging assumptions about how violent groups calculate success.

TACTICAL EVOLUTION

A selective chronology

- **French Revolution** — State-sponsored “terror”
- **19th–20th centuries** — Revolutionary and nationalist organizations
- **After 1967** — International attacks and hijackings
- **1990s** — Some mass-casualty transnational extremist groups

STRUCTURAL SHIFT

“Old” and “new” as ideal types

Earlier patterns	Newer patterns
Frequently linked to defined nationalist or revolutionary political demands.	Some transnational movements invoke unlimited religious ends and accept mass casualties.

III Al-Qaeda: A Transnational Network

Transnational organization challenged territorial models of security.

AFGHAN ORIGINS AND LATER TRANSFORMATION

Osama bin Laden and **Abdullah Azzam** helped form **al-Qaeda** in the late **1980s** amid mobilization for the Afghan struggle against Soviet forces. After the Soviet withdrawal, the organization developed a wider, decentralized network connecting activists and affiliated groups across multiple regions.

PROGRAMME AND CLAIMS

Its leadership presented US military presence in the **Arabian Peninsula**, **Israel**, and the restoration of a **caliphate** uniting the **umma** as core political concerns, couched in an extremist religious worldview. These were the organization's stated goals—not representative positions of Muslim populations broadly.

NETWORKS AND TALIBAN AFGHANISTAN

Al-Qaeda cooperated closely with the **Taliban** regime in Afghanistan, gaining sanctuary for training and coordination while affiliates elsewhere adopted elements of its ideological programme. This blurred the distinction between a **state sponsor**, a **protected non-state network**, and semi-autonomous local groups.

NETWORK LOGIC

How a transnational movement extends reach

Training and ideological coordination

↓

Sanctuary in sympathetic or weakly governed territory

↓

Regional affiliates and local cells

↓

Global propaganda beyond a single territory

TERMINOLOGY

State and network

Taliban regime
The governing authority in Afghanistan at the time.

Al-Qaeda
A transnational extremist organization associated with that territory and others.

IV September 11: From Criminal Act to Armed Conflict

The international response recast counterterrorism as a matter of war and collective defense.

THE ASYMMETRIC SHOCK

The 2001 attacks used civilian aviation and international networks to strike prominent American targets. The account emphasizes the disproportion between a relatively low operational cost (approximately **$500,000**, by its estimate) and the devastation caused. It also gives the death toll as **“over 3,000.”**

SECURITY AND COLLECTIVE SELF-DEFENSE

The Bush administration treated the attacks as **acts of war**. The measures below extended international security responses to a major non-state attack: **Resolution 1368** recognized self-defense, and **NATO invoked Article 5 for the first time**. This shift explains why the response moved beyond criminal investigation to collective defense and military operations.

AFGHANISTAN, OCTOBER 2001

Operation Enduring Freedom, launched **7 October 2001**, sought to remove the Taliban regime and disrupt al-Qaeda bases. It rapidly displaced the Afghan government and destroyed training infrastructure, but senior al-Qaeda figures escaped capture, illustrating the challenge of suppressing a cross-border network militarily.

THE NEW SECURITY FRAMEWORK AFTER THE ATTACKS

Instrument	Action	Significance
UNSC Resolution 1368	Condemnation and recognition of self-defense.	International legal response to a non-state attack.

ASYMMETRY

Source cost estimate

~$500k

Approximate preparation cost for September 11 cited in the account.

THE RESPONSE

Key 2001 steps

- **11 September** — Coordinated attacks on the United States
- **September** — UN response and NATO Article 5
- **7 October** — Afghanistan operation begins

THE NEW SECURITY FRAMEWORK AFTER THE ATTACKS (CONTINUED)

Instrument	Action	Significance
NATO Article 5	Collective-defense clause invoked.	A security alliance responds beyond conventional state invasion.
Operation Enduring Freedom	US-led intervention in Afghanistan, October 2001.	Military dismantling of sanctuary and training sites.

Ⓥ Preventive War and Iraq

The strategic doctrine extended beyond attacks already launched or imminently threatened.

PREEMPTION VERSUS PREVENTION

The **2002 National Security Strategy** argued that states could not rely exclusively on traditional deterrence against networks and possible weapons of mass destruction. It treated action against emerging dangers as potentially necessary even where imminent attack was unclear.

TWO FORMS OF ANTICIPATORY FORCE

Concept	Threat threshold	Central question
Preemptive force	Enemy attack is imminent.	Can a strike avert an impending blow?
Preventive war	Threat may materialize in the future.	Can force stop an uncertain danger from developing?

DOCTRINAL TEST

Preemption is not prevention

Imminent attack

Preemption claims immediate necessity.

Future possibility

Prevention acts before a threat becomes immediate; legality and prudence are strongly disputed.

CRITICAL DISTINCTION

Afghanistan and Iraq had different rationales

Afghanistan (2001) followed attacks attributed to a network sheltered by the Taliban. **Iraq (2003)** rested on wider claims about future danger and WMDs. Do not merge them into one legal justification.

THE “AXIS OF EVIL” AND WEAPONS FEARS

President **George W. Bush** described **Iran, Iraq and North Korea** as an **“axis of evil”** in **2002**, arguing that WMD proliferation and extremist violence might converge. The resulting logic justified unilateral action, in the administration’s view, if international agreement could not be reached.

IRAQ IN 2003

Operation Iraqi Freedom was justified publicly by alleged Iraqi WMD capabilities and a broader hope of political transformation. The war proceeded without clear new UN authorization specifically endorsing the invasion, and governments including **France, Russia and Germany** opposed it. The later absence of the alleged stockpiles severely damaged the credibility of the rationale.

VI Legal, Political and Strategic Consequences

Operational successes coexisted with profound disputes over state power and legitimacy.

DETENTION AND JUDICIAL REVIEW

Guantánamo Bay, secret **“black sites”**, extraordinary detention and the categorization of **“unlawful combatants”** prompted allegations of unlawful treatment and denial of due process. US Supreme Court decisions in **2004** and **2006** reasserted legal limits and mechanisms for reviewing detention and military commissions.

FRANCHISING AND DECENTRALIZATION

The weakening of centralized al-Qaeda structures did not eliminate violent activism. The account associates attacks in **Madrid (2004)** and **London (2005)** with a more dispersed landscape of loosely linked or ideologically inspired cells.

STRATEGIC BACKLASH

Potential “propaganda by deed” loop

Spectacular violence prompts fear

↓

State answers with coercive action

↓

Excesses may harm the state’s legitimacy

↓

Extremists exploit the reaction in propaganda

TWO LIMITS

Tactical success versus political durability

Disrupted infrastructure

Camps and some leadership networks could be attacked.

Enduring ideology

Affiliates, grievances and contested legitimacy survived.

Reputation and the Limits of Military Primacy. The failure to find Iraqi WMD stockpiles and the **Abu Ghraib** detainee-abuse scandal undermined American legitimacy. Long-running insurgencies illustrated that military superiority could not ensure swift political stabilization or make a unilateral order sustainable. September 11 challenged conventional concepts of state power. The US response placed **self-defense, preventive force, detention, alliance obligations and international legitimacy** at the center of world politics. The course of events in Afghanistan and Iraq illustrated both the reach and the limits of military superiority. The enduring problem is how states can disrupt transnational violent networks while preserving legal safeguards and the international cooperation needed for durable security.

§ Revision

Asymmetry and the international legal order

CONSEQUENCES OF THE WAR ON TERROR

Area	Principal consequence	Broader lesson
Law	Controversies over detention, torture and due process.	Security powers remain subject to legal limits.
Networks	Affiliates and autonomous cells persisted.	Decentralized movements are hard to extinguish by capturing leaders.
Diplomacy	Disagreement over Iraq and reputational damage.	Military primacy does not guarantee international legitimacy.

Revision prompts: Distinguish terrorism, guerrilla warfare and organized crime; explain propaganda by deed; outline al-Qaeda's structure; contrast preemption and prevention; compare Afghanistan (2001) and Iraq (2003); assess legal and alliance consequences.

FINAL RECALL

Three central shifts

Threat Non-state transnational networks

Response Criminal law to wartime self-defense

Consequence Debates over legality and hegemony

LAST EXAM PROMPT

The core analytical question

How can a state use force against **decentralized threats** while preserving international legitimacy, due process and alliance cooperation? Link the **2001 consensus** to the **2003 division**.